

Algebra II

Spring 2026

1 Modules

1.1 Basics

1.1.1 Modules and Homomorphisms

Definition. Let R be a ring (R not necessarily commutative but $1 \in R$). Let $(M, +)$ be an abelian group. We say M is a **(left) R -module** if there is a map $R \times M \rightarrow M, (a, x) \mapsto a \cdot x$ with the following properties:

1. $a \cdot (x + y) = a \cdot x + a \cdot y$
2. $(a + b) \cdot x = a \cdot x + b \cdot x$
3. $(ab) \cdot x = a \cdot (b \cdot x)$
4. $1 \cdot x = x$

for all $a, b \in R, x, y \in M$.

Example.

1. R ring $\implies R$ is an R -module with respect to multiplication in R
2. R field $\implies$ every R -vector space is an R -module
3. R ring $\implies R^n$ is an R -module
4. R commutative ring $\implies$ every ideal in R is an R -module
5. $R = \mathbb{Z}, M$ R -module $\implies M$ is an abelian group. Conversely, every abelian group is a $\mathbb{Z}$ -module: if $r \in \mathbb{N}$,

$$r \cdot x := \underbrace{x + \cdots + x}_{r \text{ times}} \text{ and } (-1) \cdot x := -x$$

6. R commutative ring, M left R -module $\implies M$ is a right R -module via $x * a := a \cdot x$ (this only works because R is a commutative ring)
7. We saw other modules last semester, which were special because they were over R where R is a k -algebra

Proposition 1. Let R be a ring and M be an R -module. Say $x, y \in M$ and $a \in R$. Then

1. $a \cdot (x - y) = a \cdot x - a \cdot y$
2. $(a - b) \cdot x = a \cdot x - b \cdot x$
3. $0_R \cdot x = 0_M$
4. $(-a) \cdot x = -(a \cdot x) = a \cdot (-x)$
5. $(-a) \cdot (-x) = a \cdot x$

Definition. Let R be a ring and M be an R -module. If $N \subseteq M$ such that

- $(N, +|_N)$ is an abelian group, and
- N is an R -module via $\cdot|_{R \times N}$

then N is a **submodule** of M . (Notation $N \leq M$)

M is **simple** if 0 and M are the only submodules of M

Note. If K is a field, then the simple K -modules are the K -vector spaces of dimension 0 and 1.

Proposition 2. $N \leq M \iff x + y \in N, a \cdot x \in N$ for all $x, y \in N, a \in R$

Example. The R -submodules of R (as an R -module) are exactly the ideals of R .

Proposition 3. Let R be a ring, M an R -module, and $N_i \leq M$ for $i \in I$. Then

1.

$$\bigcap_{i \in I} N_i \leq M$$

2.

$$\sum_{i \in I} N_i := \left\{ \sum'_{i \in I} x_i \mid x_i \in N_i \right\} \leq M$$

Definition. $\sum_{i \in I} N_i$ is called the **sum** of the N_i (in M)

It is called the **direct sum** (internal direct sum) if $N_i \cap \sum_{j \in I \setminus \{i\}} N_j = 0$ for all $i \in I$ (Notation: $\oplus_{i \in I} N_i$)

Definition. If R is a ring and M is an R -module, a **congruence relation** on M is an equivalence relation such that $x_1 \sim x_2$ and $y_1 \sim y_2 \implies x_1 + y_1 \sim x_2 + y_2$ and $a \cdot x_1 \sim a \cdot x_2$ for all $a \in R$.

Proposition 4. 1. If $\sim$ is a congruence relation on M , then $\overline{M} := M / \sim$ is an R -module via induced structure

2. If $\sim$ is a congruence relation on M , then $N := \{m \in M \mid m \sim 0\} \leq M$ with $x \sim y \iff x - y \in N$
3. If $N \leq M$, $x \sim y \iff x - y \in N$ defines a congruence relation

Definition. $\overline{M} := M/N = M/\sim$ (where $\sim$ is the congruence relation associated to N) is the **quotient of M by N (or by $\sim$)**

Definition. If M, N are R -modules, $\varphi : M \rightarrow N$ is an **R -module homomorphism** if for all $x, y \in M, a \in R$:

- $\varphi(x + y) = \varphi(x) + \varphi(y)$
- $\varphi(a \cdot x) = a \cdot \varphi(x)$

$\text{Ker } \varphi := \varphi^{-1}(\{0\})$ is called the **kernel**

$\text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ = set of R -module homomorphisms $M \rightarrow N$

We say $\varphi \in \text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ is a **monomorphism** if φ is injective ($\iff \text{Ker } \varphi = \{0\}$), an **epimorphism** if φ is surjective, and an **isomorphism** if φ is bijective.

Proposition 5. 1. $\text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ is an abelian group under addition

2. R commutative $\implies \text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ is an R -module via $(a \cdot \varphi)(x) := a \cdot \varphi(x)$ (note: this does not work if R is not commutative)

Theorem 6. (Homomorphism Theorem)

If $\varphi \in \text{Hom}_R(M, N)$,

1. $\varphi(M) \leq N$
2. $\text{Ker } \varphi \leq M$
3. φ induces an isomorphism $\varphi(M) \cong M/\text{Ker } \varphi$

$$\begin{array}{ccc} M & \xrightarrow{\varphi} & N \\ \downarrow \text{epi} & & \uparrow \text{mono} \\ M/\text{Ker } \varphi & \xrightarrow{\overline{\varphi}} & \varphi(M) \end{array}$$

Theorem 7. (Isomorphism Theorems)

The isomorphism theorems are the exact same as for groups (and omitted here)

Definition. Let R be a ring, M an R -module, and $S := \{s_i \mid i \in I\} \subseteq M$. We say

- S is a **generating set** if $M = \{\sum_{i \in I} a_i s_i \mid a_i \in R\}$
- M is **finitely generated** if it has a finite generating set

- M is **cyclic** if it is generated by one element
- S is **free** if $\sum_{i \in I} a_i s_i = 0$ forces $a_i = 0$ for all $i \in I$ (in this case representations in terms of the s_i are unique)
- S is a **basis** for M if S is a free generating set
- If M has a basis, M is a **free** R -module

Example.

1. R field $\implies$ all R -modules are free
2. $R = \mathbb{Z}, M = \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$ is cyclic as a module but not free since $n \cdot x = 0 \forall x \in M$

Proposition 8. *If $N \leq M$ such that both N and M/N are finitely generated, then M is finitely generated.*

Theorem 9. *If M is a finitely generated free R -module where R is commutative, then every basis of M has the same number of elements.*

Proof. Without loss of generality, assume $R \neq 0$. Then there exists a maximal ideal P in R . R/P is a field, call it K .

Take a finite basis $S = \{s_1, \dots, s_m\}$ of M .

$$N := P \cdot M = \sum_{i=1}^n P s_i \leq M \text{ (easy to check)}$$

$V := M/N$ is an R/P -module (check), hence a K -vector space with generating set $\{\overline{s_1}, \dots, \overline{s_n}\}$, where $\overline{s_i} := s_i + N$. Then it is easy to see that $\overline{s_1}, \dots, \overline{s_n}$ are linearly independent, so $n = \dim_K(V)$ and hence is independent of choice of S , by linear algebra. $\square$

Definition. Let M be a finitely generated free R -module. The number of elements in a basis for M is called the **rank** of M (Notation: $\text{rk}_R(M)$) or **dimension** of M (Notation: $\dim_R(M)$)

Example. If an R -module M is finitely generated free of rank n , then $M \cong R^n$.

1.1.2 Direct product and direct sum

Definition. Let R be a ring, $\emptyset \neq I$ an index set, and $M_i R$ -modules ($i \in I$). An R -module M together with $\pi_i \in \text{Hom}_R(M, M_i)$ is the **direct product** of the M_i if for all $N, \varphi_i \in \text{Hom}_R(N, M_i)$ there exists a unique $\varphi \in \text{Hom}_R(N, M)$ such that

$$\begin{array}{ccc} M & \xleftarrow{\quad \exists! \varphi \quad} & N \\ & \searrow \pi_i \quad \swarrow \varphi_i & \\ & M_i & \end{array}$$

commutes. (Notation: $M = \prod_{i \in I} M_i$)

Exercise. Direct product exists and is unique up to isomorphism.

Proposition 10. Let M be an R -module, $\varphi_i \in \text{Hom}_R(M, M) = \text{End}_R(M)$ ($i = 1, \dots, n$) such that $\sum_{i=1}^n \varphi_i = \text{id}_M$ and $\varphi_i \circ \varphi_j = 0$ for $i \neq j$. Then

$$\varphi_i^2 = \varphi_i \text{ for all } i \text{ and } M \cong \prod_{i=1}^n \varphi_i(M)$$

Proof. **Exercise** □

Definition. Let $\emptyset \neq I$ be an index set, and for $i \in I$ let M_i be an R -module:

An R -module M together with $\varepsilon_i \in \text{Hom}_R(M_i, M)$ is the **direct sum** (or **coproduct**) of the M_i if for all $N, \varphi_i \in \text{Hom}_R(M_i, N)$ there exists a unique $\varphi \in \text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ such that

$$\begin{array}{ccc} M & \xrightarrow{\exists! \varphi} & N \\ \varepsilon_i \swarrow & & \nearrow \varphi_i \\ & M_i & \end{array}$$

commutes. (Notation: $\bigoplus_{i \in I} M_i$)

Example. $R^n = \bigoplus_{i=1}^n R$

Corollary 12.

$$\text{Hom}_R\left(\bigoplus_{i \in I} N_i, M\right) \cong \prod_{i \in I} \text{Hom}_R(N_i, M)$$

as abelian groups.

1.1.3 Free and projective modules

Definition. Let I be a set. An R -module F_I with $i : I \rightarrow F_I$ is a **free R -module on I** if for all R -modules N and maps $\varepsilon : I \rightarrow N$ we have the following UMP:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} I & \xrightarrow{i} & F_I \\ \varepsilon \downarrow & \nearrow \exists! \varphi \in \text{Hom}_R(F_I, N) & \\ N & & \end{array}$$

Note. The elements of $i(I)$ form a basis of F_I .

Corollary 13. Every R -module is a quotient of a free R -module.

Note. M is finitely generated $\iff M$ is a quotient of a finitely generated free R -module (i.e. $R^k \twoheadrightarrow M$ some k)

Definition. M is **finitely related** if there exists $\varphi : F \rightarrow M$ a homomorphism with F free such that $\text{Ker } \varphi$ is finitely generated.

M is **finitely presented** if M is finitely generated and finitely related.

M is **coherent** if M is finitely generated and all its finitely generated submodules are finitely presented.

Theorem 14. Let R be a ring, M an R -module, F a free R -module, and $\varphi : M \rightarrow F$ an epimorphism: then there exists $\psi \in \text{Hom}_R(F, M)$ such that $\varphi \circ \psi = \text{id}_F$ and $M = \text{Ker } \varphi \oplus \psi(F)$. In particular, every short exact sequence

$$0 \rightarrow \text{Ker } \varphi \rightarrow M \xrightarrow{\varphi} F \rightarrow 0$$

with F free splits (this second part is an **exercise**).

Example.

1. Not free: $\mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z}$ as a $\mathbb{Z}$ -module
2. $R = \mathbb{C}[x_1, \dots]$ is finitely generated as an R -module (free of rank 1) but the submodule $N = (x_1, x_2, \dots)$ is not finitely generated as an R -module; this is the set of polynomials with constant term 0.

To prove N is not finitely generated as an R -module, we will show each finitely generated ideal $Rf_1 + Rf_2 + \dots + Rf_k$ in R doesn't contain x_i for all large i , so this ideal is not N .

Since each of the polynomials $f_1, \dots, f_k$ involves only a finite number of variables, there's a large n such that all x_i appearing in one of $f_1, \dots, f_k$ have $i < n$. The substitution homomorphism $R \rightarrow R$ that sends x_i to 0 for $i < n$ and x_i to 1 for $i \geq n$ sends $f_1, \dots, f_k$ to 0 and therefore it sends every R -linear combination of $f_1, \dots, f_k$ to 0. Since this homomorphism sends x_i to 1 for $i \geq n$, such x_i do not lie in $Rf_1 + \dots + Rf_k$.

3. $R = \mathbb{C}[x_1, \dots]/(x_{n+1}x_1 - x_nx_2 | n \geq 1)$

$\overline{x_i} := \text{image of } x_i \text{ in } R$

$I := (\overline{x_1}, \overline{x_2}) \leq R$ is finitely generated but not finitely related

e.g. $\varphi : R^2 = Re_1 \oplus Re_2 \rightarrow I, e_i \mapsto \overline{x_i}$ does not have finitely generated kernel (note: to fully prove we would have to show why you cannot write I some other way)

$$\text{Ker } \varphi = (\overline{x_{n+1}}e_1 - \overline{x_n}e_2 | n \geq 1)$$

Definition. An R -module P is **projective** if for every epimorphism $\varphi : M \rightarrow P$, $M \cong \text{Ker } \varphi \oplus U$ for some $U \leq M$. (In this case, we say $\text{Ker } \varphi$ is a direct summand)

Note: By Theorem 14, free $\implies$ projective.

Proposition 15. *Let R be a ring and P be an R -module. Then the following are equivalent:*

1. P is projective
2. $\exists$ an R -module M such that $M \oplus P$ is free
3. (Lifting property) For all R -modules M, M' : for all $\varphi \in \text{Hom}_R(P, M')$, epimorphisms $\pi \in \text{Hom}_R(M, M')$, $\exists \psi \in \text{Hom}_R(P, M)$ so that the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} & P & \\ \swarrow \exists \psi & & \searrow \varphi \\ M & \xrightarrow{\pi} & M' \end{array}$$

Example. $\mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$ is not free as a $\mathbb{Z}/6\mathbb{Z}$ -module, because there's no element $x \in \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$ that can generate the module freely without annihilation by a nonzero ring element (e.g. if x is nonzero in $\mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$ then $2 \in \mathbb{Z}/6\mathbb{Z}$ is nonzero but annihilates x).

But we claim that $\mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$ is a projective $\mathbb{Z}/6\mathbb{Z}$ -module.

To prove this, we see that $\mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z} \oplus \mathbb{Z}/3\mathbb{Z} = \mathbb{Z}/6\mathbb{Z}$, which is indeed free as a $\mathbb{Z}/6\mathbb{Z}$ -module.

1.2 Modules over PIDs

1.2.1 Torsion and torsion-free modules

Definition. Let R be a ring and M an R -module.

$x \in M$ is a **torsion element** if $a \cdot x = 0$ for some $a \in R \setminus \{0\}$.

$\text{Ann}(x) := \text{Ann}_R(x) := \{b \in R \mid b \cdot x = 0\} \trianglelefteq R$ is called the **annihilator of x**

$\text{Ann}(M) := \text{Ann}_R(M) := \bigcap_{x \in M} \text{Ann}_R(x)$

$M_{\text{tor}} := \{x \in M \mid \text{Ann}_R(x) \neq 0\}$ is called the **torsion of M**

M is a **torsion module** if $M_{\text{tor}} = M$

M is **torsion-free** if $M_{\text{tor}} = 0$

Example.

1. $R = \mathbb{Z}, M = \mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z}$ is torsion
2. $R = \mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z}, M = \mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z} \implies$
 $M_{\text{tor}} = \{\bar{a} \in \mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z} \mid \gcd(a, m) \neq 1\}$, so M is torsion-free if m is prime
 Note: In domains, free $\implies$ torsion-free (not true in general e.g. for non-domains)

Proposition 1. *Let R be an integral domain, M an R -module. Then:*

1. $M_{\text{tor}} \leq M$
2. $\overline{M} := M/M_{\text{tor}}$ is torsion-free

Proof. 1. Let $x, y \in M_{\text{tor}}$. Then for some $a, b \in R \setminus \{0\}$, $a \cdot x = 0, b \cdot y = 0$. Hence $(ab) \cdot (xy) = 0$ and $ab \neq 0$ since R is a domain, so $xy \in M_{\text{tor}}$. Also, easy to see that $RM_{\text{tor}} \subseteq M_{\text{tor}}$.

2. Let $\bar{x} \in \overline{M}$ such that $a \cdot \bar{x} = 0$ for some $a \in R \setminus \{0\}$. Then $ax \in M_{\text{tor}}$ for some representative x of $\bar{x} \implies b \cdot (ax) = 0$ for some $b \in R \setminus \{0\}$. Now $ab \neq 0$ as before, so this means $x \in M_{\text{tor}}$ hence $\bar{x} = 0$.

□

Theorem 2. *Let R be a PID. Then:*

1. M finitely generated R -module and $N \leq M \implies N$ is a finitely generated R -module.
2. M finitely generated free R -module and $N \leq M \implies N$ is a finitely generated free R -module.

Proof. Let $s_1, \dots, s_m$ be generators for M . Induct on m .

$m = 1$:

1. If $M = R \cdot s_1$ and $N \leq M$, let $A := \{a \in R | as_1 \in N\} \trianglelefteq R$. Since R is a PID, $A = (d)$ for some $d \in R$. So $N = R(ds_1)$ i.e. ds_1 generates N , meaning N is finitely generated as an R -module
2. Notice that if M is free, then $s_1 \notin M_{\text{tor}} \implies M_{\text{tor}} = 0$ (since R is a domain) $\implies N_{\text{tor}} = 0 \implies ds_1 \notin N_{\text{tor}} \implies N$ is free.

Inductive step ($m - 1 \rightarrow m$):

1. Let

$$A_1 := \{a_1 \in R | \exists a_2, \dots, a_m \in R \text{ s.t. } \sum_{i=1}^m a_i s_i \in N\}$$

A_1 is an ideal in R . Since R is a PID, say $A_1 = (d_1)$.

Let $t_1 \in N$ such that $t_1 - d_1 s_1 \in M_1 := \sum_{i=2}^m R s_i$.

Case 1: If $d_1 = 0, N \leq M_1 \leq M$. So by induction, we have N finitely generated.

Case 2: If $d_1 \neq 0$, let $y \in N$. Write $y = \sum_{i=1}^m b_i s_i$ and $b_1 = c_1 d_1$ some $c_1 \in R$.

Let $u := t_1 - d_1 s_1$. Then $y - c_1 t_1 = y - c_1 u - c_1 d_1 s_1 = y - c_1 u - b_1 s_1 \in M_1$. Thus $y - c_1 t_1 \in M_1 \cap N =: N_1 \leq M_1$. Now N_1 is generated by finitely many elements $t_2, \dots, t_r$.

2. We still need to show that if $s_1, \dots, s_m$ is a basis for M , then $\{t_1, \dots, t_r\}$ can be chosen freely.

By induction, we can assume $\{t_2, \dots, t_r\}$ are free. Now if

$$b_1 t_1 + \sum_{i=2}^m b_i t_i = 0, \quad b_1 \neq 0,$$

then $b_1 t_1 \in N_1 \leq M_1$ and $b_1 t_1 - b_1 d_1 s_1 \in M_1 \implies b_1 d_1 s_1 \in M_1 \rightarrow \leftarrow$. Hence M is free on $s_1, \dots, s_m$.

□

Note. 1. If R is a PID and M is a free R -module, then (we will see later that) every submodule of M is free.

2. In the above proof, we used the fact that for cyclic modules over PIDs, M torsion free $\iff M$ free.

Theorem 3. Let R be a PID and M a finitely generated R -module. Then M is free $\iff M$ is torsion-free.

Proof. $(\implies)$: is because R is a domain.

$(\impliedby)$: Let $\{s_1, \dots, s_m\}$ be a generating set of M . Without loss of generality, assume $\{s_1, \dots, s_n\}$ is a maximal free subset ($n \leq m$).

If $n = m$, we're done.

If $n < m$, $\{s_1, \dots, s_n, s_m\}$ is not free. We get

$$a_m s_m = \sum_{i=1}^n b_i s_i, \quad b_i \in R, a_m \neq 0$$

i.e. $a_m \cdot M \leq \sum_{i=1}^{m-1} R s_i$.

If $m - 1 > n$, we get $a_{m-1} \neq 0$ such that $a_{m-1} a_m M \leq \sum_{i=1}^{m-2} R s_i$. Continuing, we get $a \in R \setminus \{0\}$ so that $aM \leq \sum_{i=1}^n R s_i =: F$ where F is free.

Consider $\varphi : M \rightarrow M, x \mapsto a \cdot x$. M torsion-free $\implies \varphi$ is injective.

$\varphi \in \text{Hom}_R(M, M)$ and $\varphi(M) \leq F \leq M$ (so $\varphi(M)$ is free by Theorem 2).

Then φ injective $\implies \varphi(M) \cong M \implies M$ is free. □

Note. $(\impliedby)$ is false for modules that are not finitely generated. For example, $\mathbb{Q}$ is a torsion-free $\mathbb{Z}$ -module but is not free because any 2 elements are linearly dependent, but $\mathbb{Q}$ also cannot be rank 1 because it has a divisibility property that e.g. $\mathbb{Z}$ does not.

Corollary 4. Let R be a PID and M a finitely generated R -module. Then $M = M_{\text{tor}} \oplus F$ where $F \cong M/M_{\text{tor}}$ is free.

1.2.2 Primary Modules

Let R be a PID. Let $\mathbb{P}(R)$ be a system of representatives of prime elements in R .

Definition. Let M be an R -module and $p \in \mathbb{P}(R)$.

$x \in M$ is called **p -primary** if $p^n x = 0$ for some $n \in \mathbb{N}$

The **p -primary part / p -torsion of M** is $M_{(p)} := \{x \in M \mid x \text{ is } p\text{-primary}\}$

Proposition 5. Let R be a PID, M be an R -module, $p \in \mathbb{P}(R)$. Then $M_{(p)} \leq M$.

Proposition 6. Let R be a PID, M be an R -module, $M = M_{\text{tor}}$. Then

$$M = \bigoplus_{p \in \mathbb{P}(R)} M_{(p)}$$

Proof. Let $x \in M$. $\text{Ann}(x) \trianglelefteq R$ and since R is a PID, $\text{Ann}(x) = (a)$ where $a \in R \setminus \{0\}$ since $M = M_{\text{tor}}$. Write

$$a \simeq \prod_{i=1}^r p_i^{e_i}$$

with p_i distinct elements of $\mathbb{P}(R)$.

Write $a = a_i \cdot p_i^{e_i}$ where $a_i \in R$ (for each $i = 1, \dots, r$). $\gcd(a_1, \dots, a_r) = 1 \implies$ there exist $b_i \in R$ such that

$$1 = \sum_{i=1}^r a_i b_i$$

Let $x_i := a_i b_i x$. Then $p_i^{e_i} x_i = p_i^{e_i} a_i b_i x = a x = 0$, so $x_i \in M_{(p_i)}$. Moreover,

$$\sum_{i=1}^r x_i = \left(\sum_{i=1}^r a_i b_i \right) x = x \implies M = \sum M_{(p)}.$$

Remains to show uniqueness (that this sum is indeed a direct sum):

Let $p_1, \dots, p_n \in \mathbb{P}(R)$ be distinct. Suppose $\sum_i x_i = 0$ with $x_i \in M_{(p_i)}$. WTS: $x_i = 0$ for all i .

Let $a := \prod_{i=1}^r p_i^{e_i} \implies a = a_i p_i^{e_i}$ as before. Then there exist $b_i, c_i \in R$ so that $a_i b_i + c_i p_i^{e_i} = 1$. Hence $x_i = 1 \cdot x_i = (a_i b_i + c_i p_i^{e_i}) x_i = a_i b_i x_i$.

Fix j :

$$0 = \sum x_i = a_j b_j \sum x_i = \left(\sum_{i \neq j} a_j b_j x_i \right) + a_j b_j x_j = 0 + x_j = x_j \implies x_1 = \dots = x_n = 0.$$

□

Corollary 7. Let M be finitely generated module over a PID R and suppose $M = M_{\text{tor}}$. Then:

1. $\text{Ann}(M) = \cap_{x \in M} \text{Ann}(x) = (a)$ some $a \neq 0$, and $\exists y \in M$ so that $\text{Ann}(M) = \text{Ann}(y)$.

2.

$$a \simeq \prod_{i=1}^r a_i p_i^{e_i}, \quad (\text{the factorization into powers of distinct primes in } \mathbb{P}(R))$$

$$\implies M \simeq \bigoplus_{i=1}^r M_{(p_i)}, \quad \text{where } \text{Ann}(M_{(p_i)}) = (p_i^{e_i})$$

Proof. 1. Let $s_1, \dots, s_r$ generate $M = M_{\text{tor}}$. Easy to check:

$$\text{Ann}(M) = \bigcap_{i=1}^r \text{Ann}(s_i)$$

Write

$$\text{Ann}(s_i) = (a_i), \quad a_i \in R \setminus \{0\}$$

Then $\text{Ann}(M) = \bigcap_{i=1}^r (a_i) =: (a)$. Notice that $a_i | a$ for all $i = 1, \dots, r$ and $a | a_1 \cdots a_r \implies a \neq 0$.

2. $a \simeq \prod_{i=1}^r p_i^{e_i} \implies M = \bigoplus_{i=1}^r M_{(p_i)}$ by the proof of Theorem 6. We know that $(a) = \text{Ann}(M) = \bigcap \text{Ann}(M_{(p_i)})$.

Fix i :

Take $y \in M_{(p_i)}$. We know $\text{Ann}(y) = (p_i^{k_i})$ for some k_i . $ay = 0 \implies k_i \leq e_i$.

Suppose that for all $y \in M_{(p_i)}$, $k_i < e_i$. Then let $\tilde{a} := \prod_{i \neq j} p_j^{e_j} p_i^{e_i-1}$. We still get $\tilde{a}M = 0 \rightarrow \leftarrow$ (contradiction since $\text{Ann}(M) = (a)$, and not $\tilde{a}$).

Hence, for all $i \exists y_i \in M_{(p_i)}$ such that $\text{Ann}(y_i) = (p_i^{e_i})$.

Now we just have to show the rest of (1):

Let $y = \sum_{i=1}^r y_i$. If $b \in \text{Ann}(y)$, $b \in \text{Ann}(y_i) = (p_i^{e_i})$ for all i because our sum is direct. Hence $p_i^{e_i} | b \implies a | b \implies \text{Ann}(y) \subseteq (a) = \text{Ann}(M) \implies \text{Ann}(y) = \text{Ann}(M)$. $\square$

Proposition 8. Let R be a PID, $p \in \mathbb{P}(R)$, and M a finitely generated R -module. Assume $p^k M = 0$ for some $k \in \mathbb{N}$ and let $x \in M$ such that $\text{Ann}(x) = \text{Ann}(M) = (p^k)$. Then $R \cdot x$ is a direct summand of M . i.e. $M = Rx \oplus N$ for some $N \leq M$.

Proof. Let $\mathcal{U}$ be the set of submodules $U \subseteq M$ such that $U \cap Rx = 0$. Partially order by inclusion. $0 \in \mathcal{U}$ so $\mathcal{U} \neq \emptyset$. One can check: $\mathcal{U}$ satisfies the conditions for Zorn's Lemma. So $\mathcal{U}$ has a maximal element N .

Let $M' = Rx \oplus N \leq M$. WTS: $M' = M$.

Suppose not. Let $y \in M \setminus M'$. Note $y \notin N \implies N \subsetneq Ry + N$. Let $A := Ry \cap (Rx \oplus N)$. By maximality of N , $A \neq 0$.

So let $z \in A \setminus \{0\}$. Then $z = cx = ay + n$ for some $a, c \in R$, $n \in N$. Note: $cx \neq 0$ and $a \neq 0$ (since $a \notin N$). Also $a \notin R^\times$ (otherwise $y = a^{-1}(cx - n) \in M'$, but $y \notin M'$). So in summary:

For all $y \in M \setminus M', \exists a \in R \setminus \{0\}, a \notin R^\times, c \in R, cx \neq 0, n \in N$ such that $ay = cx + n$ (in particular, $ay \in M'$).

Decompose: $a \simeq p_1 \cdots p_r, p_i \in \mathbb{P}(R)$ (not necessarily distinct). Consider: $y \notin M', p_r y, p_{r-1} p_r y, \dots, ay \in M'$. We may assume $y \notin M', qy \in M'$ for some $q \in \mathbb{P}(R)$.

We claim: $qy \in N + qRx$.

Know: $qy \in N + Rx$.

Case 1: If $p \neq q$, then (since q does not annihilate things) $rp^k + sq = 1$ some $r, s \in R \implies Rx = (p^k R + qR)x = qRx$ since $p^k x = 0 \implies qy \in M' = N + Rx = N + qRx$.

Case 2: If $p = q$, then $py \in M'$. So $py = n + dx$ some $n \in N, d \in R$. We also know that $p^k M = 0$, so

$$0 = p^{k-1} py = p^{k-1}(n + dx) = p^{k-1}n + p^{k-1}dx \implies -p^{k-1}n = p^{k-1}dx$$

(noting that $-p^{k-1}n \in N$ and $p^{k-1}dx \in Rx$).

Hence, $p^{k-1}d \in \text{Ann}(x) = (p^k) \implies p|d \implies py = n + dx \in N + pRx$.

This concludes our proof of the claim.

Now we write $qy = n + qz, n \in N, z \in Rx$. Then $q(y - z) = n \in N$, so $y - z \notin M'$. Then by our "summary" before, $\exists b \in R \setminus \{0\}, b \notin R^\times, x' \in Rx, x' \neq 0, n' \in N$ such that $b(y - z) = n' + x'$.

Suppose $q|b$. Then $b(y - z)$ is a multiple of $q(y - z) \in N$. $\rightarrow \leftarrow$

So we must have $q \nmid b$. Then we can write $r'q + s'b = 1$ for some $r', s' \in R$.

So $s'b(y - z) = s'n' + s'x'$ (because $b(y - z) = n' + x'$), and $r'q(y - z) = r'n$ (because $q(y - z) = n$).

Then $y - z = s'n' + r'n' + s'x' \in N \oplus Rx - M'$. $\rightarrow \leftarrow$ So $M' = M$. □

Theorem 9. Let R be a PID, $p \in \mathbb{P}(R)$, and $M = M_{(p)}$ a finitely generated R -module. Then there exist $x_1, \dots, x_s \in M$ such that

$$M = \bigoplus_{i=1}^s Rx_i, \quad \text{and } \text{Ann}(x_i) = (p_i^{e_i})$$

for some $1 \leq e_1 \leq \dots \leq e_s$. These e_i 's are uniquely determined.

Proof. Say $M = \langle x_1, \dots, x_n \rangle, \text{Ann}(x_i) = (p_i^{e_i})$. Without loss of generality, assume $e_n = \max(e_1, \dots, e_n)$.

By Proposition 8, $M = N \oplus Rx_n$ where $N \cong M/(Rx_n)$ is generated by $x_1 + Rx_n, \dots, x_{n-1} +$

Rx_n . Then the first claim follows by induction.

Remains to show uniqueness of the e_i 's:

Let $d_i = \dim_K(M/p^{i-1}M)$ where $K := R/(p)$ is a field. Then $d_i = \#\{e_j | e_j \geq i\}$ and $d_i - d_{i-1} = \#\{e_j | e_j = i\}$ is uniquely determined. $\square$

Corollary 10.

$$M \cong \bigoplus_{i=1}^s R/(p_i^{e_i})$$

1.2.3 The Structure Theorem

Theorem 11. *Let M be a finitely generated module over a PID. Then*

$$M \cong F \oplus \bigoplus_{i=1}^r \bigoplus_{j=1}^{t_i} Rx_{ij}$$

where

- $F \cong M/M_{\text{tor}}$ is free
- $\text{Ann}(x_{ij}) = (p_i^{e_{ij}})$ for $p_i \in \mathbb{P}(R)$ where $e_{i1} \leq \dots \leq e_{it_i}$ for uniquely determined **structure constants** e_{ij} .

Definition. Let M be a finitely generated module over a PID. Then $\dim(M/M_{\text{tor}}) := \dim(M) := \text{rk}(M)$ is the **dimension** or **rank** of M

Example. $R = \mathbb{Z}$, $M =$ finitely generated abelian group ($\mathbb{Z}$ -module)

Theorem 11 gives the structure theorem for finitely generated abelian groups.

1.2.4 Applications to Linear Algebra

Let K be a field, V a finite-dimensional K -vector space, and $\varphi \in \text{End}(V)$ be fixed.

Proposition 13. *Let $R := K[x]$.*

1. V is an R -module via $R \times V \rightarrow V, (h, v) \mapsto h \cdot v := h(\varphi)(v)$. With this structure, V is a torsion R -module.
2. $\text{Ann}(V) = (g_\varphi(x))$, where g_φ is the minimal polynomial of φ on V

Example. $V \cong \mathbb{R}^2$, φ given by $\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$ with respect to the standard basis,

$$h = x^2 + 1 \in \mathbb{R}[x] \implies h(\varphi) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}^2 + \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 2 \end{pmatrix}.$$

Proof. (Of Proposition 13)

1. Easy to check this defines an R -module structure (e.g. $1 \cdot bv = 1(\varphi)(v) - \text{id}_V(v) = v$)
 $\dim V < \infty \implies g_\varphi$ exists and $g_\varphi(v) := g_\varphi(\varphi)(v) = 0$ for all $v \in V$ (by Cayley-Hamilton), so V is a torsion module.
2. By definition of minimal polynomial.

□

Corollary 14. *Let*

$$g_\varphi(x) = \prod_{i=1}^r p_i(x)^{e_i}$$

be the factorization into powers of distinct monic prime polynomials. Then

1.

$$V = \bigoplus_{i=1}^r \text{Ker}(p_i(\varphi)^{e_i}) \quad \text{and} \quad \text{Ann}(p_i(\varphi)^{e_i}) := \text{Ann}(W_i) = (p_i^{e_i})$$

2.

$$W_i = \bigoplus_{j=1}^{t_i} K[x] \cdot s_{ij} := \bigoplus_{j=1}^{t_i} W_{ij}, \quad \text{Ann}(s_{ij}) = (p_i^{e_{ij}})$$

Note. 1. $p_i^{e_i}$ is the minimal polynomial of $\varphi|_{W_i}$

2. $p_i^{e_{ij}}$ is the minimal polynomial of $\varphi|_{W_{ij}}$

Definition. Let V be a K -vector space, $\varphi \in \text{End}(V)$, $W \leq V$. Then

- W is **φ -stable** if $\varphi(W) \leq W$.
- W is **φ -indecomposable** if it is φ -stable and there is no nontrivial decomposition into a direct sum of φ -stable subspaces.
- W is **φ -primary** if it is φ -stable and $\text{Ann}(W) = (p(x)^e)$ some $e \in \mathbb{N}$, $p(x) \in K[x]$ prime
- W is **φ -cyclic** if $W = K[x] \cdot s$ for some $s \in W$.

Note. φ -cyclic $\implies \varphi$ -stable

Theorem 15. W is φ -indecomposable $\iff W$ is φ -primary and φ -cyclic

Proof. ($\implies$): $g_{(\varphi|_W)}(x) = \prod_{i=1}^r p_i^{e_i} \implies$ (by Corollary 14 part 1) $W = \bigoplus_{i=1}^r W_i$. So $r = 1 \implies W$ is φ -primary. By Corollary 14 part 2, W is φ -cyclic.

($\impliedby$): $W = K[x] \cdot s$ is φ -cyclic. φ -primary $\implies \text{Ann}(W) = \text{Ann}(S) = (p^e)$ for some $p \in K[x]$, $e \in \mathbb{N}$.

Now suppose $W = \bigoplus_{i=1}^r W_i$ is a φ -stable decomposition, where $W_i \neq 0$ for all $i = 1, \dots, r$ and each W_i is indecomposable. Then suppose (for contradiction) that $r \geq 2$. By " $\Rightarrow$ ", we know that the W_i is φ -primary and φ -cyclic for all i . That is, $\text{Ann}(W_i) = (p^{e_i})$ since $\text{Ann}(W_i) \supseteq \text{Ann}(W)$. Now

$\dim W = e \cdot \deg p$ and $\dim W_i = e_i \cdot \deg p$. So $e_i < e$ for all $i = 1, \dots, r$ (since $r > 1$). But then

$$\text{Ann}(W) = \bigcap_{i=1}^r \text{Ann}(W_i) = \bigcap_{i=1}^r (p^{e_i}) = (p^t)$$

some $t < e$. $\rightarrow \leftarrow$ □

Example. Let $p = x^2 + 1 \in \mathbb{R}[x]$ be prime. Let V be a $\mathbb{R}$ -vector space and $\varphi \in \text{End}(V)$. Say $W := \mathbb{R}[x] \cdot s$ is φ -cyclic. Assume $g_{(\varphi|_W)} = p(x)^2$. Then $(1, x, x^2, x^3)$ is a basis of $\mathbb{R}[x]/(p(x)^2)$. Then $S := (s, \varphi(s), \varphi^2(s), \varphi^3(s))$ is a basis for W as a $\mathbb{R}$ -vector space.

Goal: Find a new basis T for W such that $D_T(\varphi)$ is nice in some reasonable way.

$T = (s, \varphi(s), \dots?)$. Observe:

$$\varphi^2(s) = p(\varphi)(s) - s \text{ since } p(\varphi)(s) = (\varphi^2 + 1)(s) = \varphi^2(s) + s$$

Try: $T = (t_1, t_2, t_3, t_4) = (s, \varphi(s), p(\varphi)(s), \varphi(p(\varphi)(s)))$. Calculate:

$$\varphi(\varphi(p(\varphi)(s))) = \varphi^2(p(\varphi)(s)) = (p(\varphi) - \text{id})p(\varphi)(s) = p^2(\varphi)(s) - (\varphi)(s) = -p(\varphi)(s)$$

Hence $D_T(\varphi|_W) =$

$$\begin{pmatrix} \varphi(t_1) & \varphi(t_2) & \varphi(t_3) & \varphi(t_4) \end{pmatrix} = \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \hline 0 & 0 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \end{array} \right) = \left(\begin{array}{c|c} C & 0 \\ \hline \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} & C \end{array} \right), \quad \text{where } C = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & -1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}.$$

We have two blocks because the minimal polynomial had degree 2. And the 1 in the bottom left section is because it (what?) is indecomposable.

Proposition 16. Let V be a finite-dimensional K -vector space, $\varphi \in \text{End}(V)$.

Let $W := K[x] \cdot s \leq V$ be φ -indecomposable with $g_{(\varphi|_W)}(x) = p(x)^e$ where $p(x) = \sum_{i=0}^d a_i x^i$ is monic. Then

$$T = (s, \varphi(s), \dots, \varphi^{d-1}(s), p(\varphi)(s), \varphi(p(\varphi)(s)), \dots, \varphi^{d-1}(p(\varphi)(s)), p^2(\varphi)(s), \varphi(p^2(\varphi)(s)), \dots)$$

is a basis of W . And

$$D_T(\varphi|_W) = \underbrace{\begin{pmatrix} C & & & \\ E & C & & \\ & E & C & \\ & & \ddots & \ddots \end{pmatrix}}_{e \cdot d} \quad \text{where } E := \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad C = \underbrace{\begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & \cdots & -a_0 \\ 1 & 0 & \cdots & -a_1 \\ 0 & 1 & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & -a_{d-1} \end{pmatrix}}_d$$

C is called the **companion matrix** of φ on W .

Note. If $p(x) = x - a$ for $a \in K$, $C = (a)$. Proposition 16 generalized Jordan Normal Form (for cyclic spaces).

Theorem 17 (Jordan Normal Form). *If V is a finite-dimensional K -vector space, $\varphi \in \text{End}(V)$, $V = \bigoplus_{i,j} W_{ij}$ where $W_{ij} = K[x]s_{ij}$ is cyclic, $\text{Ann}(s_{ij}) = (p_i^{e_{ij}})$, $d_i = \deg(p_i)$. Then V has a basis $T = \sqcup T_{ij}$ (where T_{ij} = basis of W_{ij}) of the form given in Proposition 16 and*

$$D_T(\varphi) = \begin{pmatrix} \square & & & \\ & \square & & \\ & & \ddots & \\ & & & \square \end{pmatrix} \text{ where each block corresponds to: } D_{T_{ij}}(\varphi|_{W_{ij}}) = \left(\begin{array}{c|c|c|c} C_i & & & \\ \hline E & C_i & & \\ \hline & E & \ddots & \\ \hline & & E & C_i \end{array} \right)$$

$$\text{such that } E := \begin{pmatrix} 0 & \cdots & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \text{ and where } C_i \text{ is the companion matrix of } \varphi|_{W_{ij}}.$$

Moreover,

$$g_\varphi = \prod_{i=1}^r p_i^{k_i} \text{ where } k_i := \max_j \{e_{ij}\}.$$

Corollary 18. *Let $\varphi \in \text{End}(V)$. Let χ_φ be the characteristic polynomial and g_φ the minimal polynomial. Then if $n = \dim V < \infty$, $\chi_\varphi \mid g_\varphi^n$. In particular, the two have the same prime factors.*

Example. Let

$$A = \begin{pmatrix} -1 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & -1 & 1 \\ 2 & 0 & -1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \in \text{Mat}_4(\mathbb{R}).$$

Step 1: Compute $\chi_A(x) = (x^2+x+1)^2$. Then $p(x) = x^2+x+1$. Check: p is irreducible in $\mathbb{R}[x]$.

Step 2: Find the minimal polynomial. $p(A) \neq 0$ so the minimal polynomial must equal the characteristic polynomial, hence V is indecomposable, so cyclic. This mean we put a 1 in the top right corner of the bottom left block, to get:

$$D_T(\varphi) = \left(\begin{array}{cc|cc} 0 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ 1 & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ \hline 0 & 1 & 0 & -1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -1 \end{array} \right)$$

To find T :

$$\ker(p(\varphi)) = \langle \beta_1 \rangle, \beta_1 = (e_1 + 2e_3, e_2)$$

$$\ker(p^2(\varphi)) = V = \beta_1 \sqcup \beta_2$$

$$\beta_2 = (e_1, e_4)$$

$$\text{Letting } s = e_1 \text{ } T = (s, \varphi(s), p(\varphi)(s), \varphi(p(\varphi))(s))$$

1.3 Homological Algebra

For this entire section, R will be a commutative ring with 1.

1.3.1 Exact Sequences

Definition. If M_i is an R -module for $i \in I \subseteq \mathbb{Z}$, $\varphi_i : M_i \rightarrow M_{i+1}$ are R -module homomorphisms, then:

$$\dots \xrightarrow{\varphi_{i-2}} M_{i-1} \xrightarrow{\varphi_{i-1}} M_i \xrightarrow{\varphi_i} \dots$$

is **exact at** M_i if $\text{Im}(\varphi_{i-1}) = \text{Ker}(\varphi_i)$.

If the sequence is exact at M_i for all i , it is an **exact sequence**.

Note. It is often enough to understand short exact sequences, because from longer exact sequences, we can build short exact sequences. For instance, from

$$\dots \xrightarrow{\varphi_{i-2}} M_{i-1} \xrightarrow{\varphi_{i-1}} M_i \xrightarrow{\varphi_i} \dots$$

we can build the short exact sequence

$$0 \longrightarrow \text{Im}(\varphi_i) = \text{Ker}(\varphi_{i+1}) \longrightarrow M_{i+1} \longrightarrow \text{Im}(\varphi_{i+1}) \longrightarrow 0$$

Theorem 1. 1. If M, N_i are R -modules and $0 \rightarrow N_1 \rightarrow N_2 \rightarrow N_3$ is exact, then $0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M, N_1) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M, N_2) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M, N_3)$ is exact.

2. If M_i, N are R -modules and $M_3 \rightarrow M_2 \rightarrow M_1 \rightarrow 0$ is exact, then $0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M_1, N) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M_2, N) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M_3, N)$ is exact.

Proof. We prove (2) ((1) is similar):

Say we have

$$M_3 \xrightarrow{\mu_2} M_2 \xrightarrow{\mu_1} M_1 \longrightarrow 0$$

Then we can construct a corresponding sequence

$$0 \longrightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M_1, N) \xrightarrow{\psi_1} \text{Hom}_R(M_2, N) \xrightarrow{\psi_2} \text{Hom}_R(M_3, N)$$

where ψ_1 sends φ_1 to $\varphi_1 \circ \mu_1$ and ψ_2 sends φ_2 to $\varphi_2 \circ \mu_2$.

Want to show: $\ker \psi_1 = 0$. Now $\varphi_1 \in \ker \psi_1 \implies \varphi_1 \circ \mu_1 = 0 \implies \varphi_1 = 0$ since μ_1 is surjective.

Want to show: $\text{Im}(\psi_1) = \ker \psi_2$. For ($\subseteq$), if $\varphi = \varphi_1 \circ \mu_1$, then $\psi_2(\varphi) = \varphi_1 \circ \mu_1 \circ \mu_2 = \varphi_1 \circ 0 = 0 \implies \varphi \in \ker \psi_2$. for ($\supseteq$), if $\varphi_2 \in \ker \psi_2$, then $\varphi_2 \circ \mu_2 = 0$. But $\text{Im}(\mu_2) = \ker \mu_1 \implies$ we can define $\varphi_1(x) := \varphi_2(y)$ where y is such that $\mu_1(y) = x$. φ_1 is well-defined:

If $y_1 - y_2 \in \ker \mu_1 = \text{Im}(\mu_2)$, then $\varphi_1(y_1 - y_2) = \varphi_2 \circ \mu_2(\dots) = 0$.

By construction, $\varphi_1 \circ \mu_1 = \varphi_2$. So $\varphi_2 \in \text{Im}(\psi_1)$. □

Corollary 2. Let M_i, N_i be R -modules. Let

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} M_3 & \xrightarrow{\mu_2} & M_2 & \xrightarrow{\mu_1} & M_1 & \longrightarrow & 0 \\ \downarrow \varphi_3 & & \downarrow \varphi_2 & & & & \\ N_3 & \xrightarrow{\gamma_2} & N_2 & \xrightarrow{\gamma_1} & N_1 & \longrightarrow & 0 \end{array}$$

be a commutative diagram with exact rows. Then there exists $\varphi \in \text{Hom}(M_1, N_1)$ such that $\varphi_1 \circ \mu_1 = \gamma_1 \circ \varphi_2$.

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} M_3 & \xrightarrow{\mu_2} & M_2 & \xrightarrow{\mu_1} & M_1 & \longrightarrow & 0 \\ \downarrow \varphi_3 & & \downarrow \varphi_2 & & \downarrow \varphi_1 & & \\ N_3 & \xrightarrow{\gamma_2} & N_2 & \xrightarrow{\gamma_1} & N_1 & \longrightarrow & 0 \end{array}$$

Proof. By Theorem 1 part b, taking $N = N_1$, we have that

$$0 \longrightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M_1, N_1) \xrightarrow{\psi_1} \text{Hom}_R(M_2, N_1) \xrightarrow{\psi_2} \text{Hom}_R(M_3, N_1)$$

is exact. Now $\psi_2(\gamma_1 \gamma_2) = \gamma_1 \varphi_2 \circ \mu_2 = \gamma_1 \gamma_2 \varphi_3 = 0$ by the exactness of the second row. But then $\varphi_1 \circ \mu_1 = \psi_1(\varphi_1) = \gamma_1 \varphi_2 \in \ker \psi_2 = \text{Im } \psi_1$. $\square$

Theorem 3 (Five Lemma). *Given*

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & M_1 & \xrightarrow{\alpha_1} & M_2 & \xrightarrow{\alpha_2} & M_3 \longrightarrow 0 \\ & & \downarrow \varphi_1 & & \downarrow \varphi_2 & & \downarrow \varphi_3 \\ 0 & \longrightarrow & N_1 & \xrightarrow{\beta_1} & N_2 & \xrightarrow{\beta_2} & N_3 \longrightarrow 0 \end{array}$$

a commutative diagram with exact rows, if φ_1, φ_2 are isomorphisms, then φ_3 is also.

Proof. φ_2 is injective:

Say $x \in M_2$ such that $\varphi_2(x) = 0$. Then $\beta_2(\varphi_2(x)) = 0$. So $\varphi_3(\alpha_2(x)) = 0$. Since φ_3 is an isomorphism, $\alpha_2(x) = 0 \implies x \in \ker \alpha_2 = \text{Im}(\alpha_1)$. So $x = \alpha_1(y)$ for some $y \in M_1$. Now

$$0 = \varphi_2(x) = \varphi_2(\alpha_1(y)) = \beta_1(\varphi_1(y)) \implies \varphi_1(y) \in \ker \beta_1 = 0 \implies y = 0$$

since φ_1 is an isomorphism $\implies x = 0$.

Exercise: surjectivity

If $y \in N_2$, then $\beta_2(y) \in N_3$. There exists $m \in M_3$ such that $\varphi_3(m) = \beta_2(y)$. Since α_2 is surjective, there exists $l \in M_2$ so that $\alpha_2(l) = m$. Now $\beta_2(y) = \varphi_3(m) = \varphi_3(\alpha_2(l)) = \beta_2(\varphi_2(l)) \implies \varphi_2(l) = y$ since β_2 is injective. $\square$

Theorem 4 (Snake Lemma). *Suppose we have the following commutative diagram with exact rows:*

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & M_1 & \longrightarrow & M_2 & \longrightarrow & M_3 \longrightarrow 0 \\ & & \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow \\ 0 & \longrightarrow & N_1 & \longrightarrow & N_2 & \longrightarrow & N_3 \longrightarrow 0 \end{array}$$

Then, in fact, we get the following commutative diagram with exact rows and columns:

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc}
& 0 & & 0 & & 0 & \\
& \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow & \\
0 & \longrightarrow & \ker(M_1 \rightarrow N_1) & \longrightarrow & \ker(M_2 \rightarrow N_2) & \longrightarrow & \ker(M_3 \rightarrow N_3) \longrightarrow 0 \\
& \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow & \\
0 & \longrightarrow & M_1 & \longrightarrow & M_2 & \longrightarrow & M_3 \longrightarrow 0 \\
& \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow & \\
0 & \longrightarrow & N_1 & \longrightarrow & N_2 & \longrightarrow & N_3 \longrightarrow 0 \\
& \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow & \\
0 & \longrightarrow & \text{coker}(M_1 \rightarrow N_1) & \longrightarrow & \text{coker}(M_2 \rightarrow N_2) & \longrightarrow & \text{coker}(M_3 \rightarrow N_3) \longrightarrow 0 \\
& \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow & \\
& 0 & & 0 & & 0 &
\end{array}$$

And then there exists $\varphi \in \text{Hom}(\ker(M_3 \rightarrow N_3), \text{coker}(M_1 \rightarrow N_1))$ so that

$$\begin{array}{c}
0 \rightarrow \ker(M_1 \rightarrow N_1) \longrightarrow \ker(M_2 \rightarrow N_2) \longrightarrow \ker(M_3 \rightarrow N_3) \\
\searrow \quad \quad \quad \varphi \quad \quad \quad \nearrow \\
\text{coker}(M_1 \rightarrow N_1) \longrightarrow \text{coker}(M_2 \rightarrow N_2) \longrightarrow \text{coker}(M_3 \rightarrow N_3) \rightarrow 0
\end{array}$$

is exact.

Note. $\text{coker}(f : A \rightarrow B) = B/\text{im}(f)$.

Corollary 5. If M is a finitely presented R -module and S is a finite generating set for M , then the kernel of $F_S \rightarrow M$ is a finitely generated R -module.

Proof. Let $F = F_S$. We get the short exact sequence $0 \rightarrow G \rightarrow F \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$. We want to show G is finitely generated.

By assumption, there exists some finitely generated free module L and a finitely generated module E so that we have the short exact sequence $0 \rightarrow E \rightarrow L \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$. Then we have the diagram

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc}
0 & \longrightarrow & E & \longrightarrow & L & \longrightarrow & M \longrightarrow 0 \\
& & & & & \downarrow = & \\
0 & \longrightarrow & G & \longrightarrow & F & \longrightarrow & M \longrightarrow 0
\end{array}$$

By F being free, we get a homomorphism $L \rightarrow F$ that fits into the diagram. And then by Corollary 2, we get a homomorphism $E \rightarrow G$ that fits into the diagram. So now we have:

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc}
 & & & & & 0 & \\
 & & & & & \downarrow & \\
 0 & \longrightarrow & E & \longrightarrow & L & \longrightarrow & M \longrightarrow 0 \\
 & & \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow = \\
 0 & \longrightarrow & G & \longrightarrow & F & \longrightarrow & M \longrightarrow 0 \\
 & & \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow \\
 & & \text{coker}(E \rightarrow G) & \longrightarrow & \text{coker}(L \rightarrow F) & \longrightarrow & 0
 \end{array}$$

So the Snake Lemma applies and we get a short exact sequence $0 \rightarrow \text{coker}(E \rightarrow G) \rightarrow \text{coker}(L \rightarrow F) \rightarrow 0$, forcing $\text{coker}(E \rightarrow G) \cong \text{coker}(L \rightarrow F)$. We know $\text{coker}(L \rightarrow F)$ is finitely generated, by being a quotient of F . E is finitely generated and $E \rightarrow G \rightarrow \text{coker}(E \rightarrow G)$ is exact $\implies G$ is finitely generated. $\square$

Note. 1. If M is finitely generated, we can construct a “free resolution”:

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc}
 G_1 & & & & & & \\
 \downarrow & & & & & & \\
 F_1 & & & & & & \\
 \downarrow & \searrow & & & & & \\
 G & \longrightarrow & F & \longrightarrow & M & \longrightarrow & 0 \\
 \downarrow & & & & & & \\
 0 & & & & & &
 \end{array}$$

This process keeps working its way up and ends at some point.

2. Over a noetherian ring, finitely generated $\implies$ finitely presented.

1.3.2 Tensor products and base changes

Definition. Let M, N be R -modules. A **tensor product** of M and N is an R -module T together with a bilinear map $t : M \times N \rightarrow T$ with the following UMP (where $\psi \in \text{Hom}_R(T, P)$):

$$\begin{array}{ccc}
 M \times N & \longrightarrow & T \\
 \text{bilinear } \varphi \downarrow & \swarrow \exists! \psi & \\
 P & &
 \end{array}$$

Tensor products exist and are unique up to isomorphism.

Example.

1. Say $T := \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}/3\mathbb{Z}$.

Then $a \otimes b = 1 \cdot (a \otimes b) = (3 - 2)(a \otimes b) = 3(a \otimes b) - 2(a \otimes b) = a \otimes 3b - 2a \otimes b = 0$.
So $T = 0$.

2. If M, N are free of rank m, n over R , then $M \otimes_R N \cong R^m \otimes_R (R \oplus \cdots \oplus R) \cong (R^m \otimes_R R) \oplus \cdots \oplus (R^m \otimes_R R) \cong R^{mn}$
3. In $\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} (\mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z})$, $2 \otimes \bar{1} = 2(1 \otimes \bar{1}) = 1 \otimes \bar{2} = 0$.

In $2\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$,
 $\mathbb{Z} \cong 2\mathbb{Z}$ via $1 \mapsto 2$, so $2\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z} \cong \mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z} \cong \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$ via $2a \otimes b \mapsto \overline{ab}$ so here,
 $2 \otimes \bar{1} \neq 0$.

In particular, if $M' \leq M, N$ are R -modules, $M' \otimes N$ may not embed into $M \otimes N$.

Note. We can define the tensor product of homomorphisms the same way as for vector spaces, so this operation is a functor.

Applications: “extended scalars.”

Definition. If R is a ring, then an R -algebra is a ring A which is also an R -module such that $A \times A \rightarrow A$ is R -bilinear: $r(a \cdot b) = (ra) \cdot b = a \cdot (rb)$ for all $a, b \in A, r \in R$.

A map $\varphi : A \rightarrow B$ between R -algebras is an R -algebra homomorphism if it is an R -linear ring homomorphism (in particular, $\varphi(1_A) = 1_B$).

Note. 1. This generalizes our past definition of a K -algebra

2. Equivalently, (A, f) is a ring and $f : R \rightarrow A$ is a ring homomorphism such that $f(R) \subseteq Z(A)$

Example.

1. A ring, $R \subseteq Z(A) \implies A$ is an R -algebra
2. Any ring is a $\mathbb{Z}$ -algebra in a unique way ($\varphi : \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow R, 1 \mapsto R$)
3. $R[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ is an R -algebra
4. $\text{Mat}_n(R)$ is an R -algebra

Note. If A, B are R -algebras, then the R -module $A \otimes_R B$ is an R -algebra via $(a_1 \otimes b_1)(a_2 \otimes b_2) = a_1 a_2 \otimes b_1 b_2$.

(Use $(A \times B) \times (A \times B) \rightarrow A \otimes B$ to get $(A \otimes B) \times (A \otimes B) \rightarrow A \otimes B$ via the UMP)

Example. $R[x, y] = R[x] \otimes_R R[y]$

Definition. Let M be an R -module, S an R -algebra. Then $M_S := M \otimes_R S$ is an S -module via $S \times M_S \rightarrow M_S, (a, m \otimes s) \mapsto m \otimes as$.

We say M_S is obtained from M by **extension of scalars** from R to S .

Lemma 6. If M, N are R -modules and S is a commutative R -algebra, then $(M \otimes_R N)_S \cong M_S \otimes_S N_S$.

Proof. **Exercise** □

Proposition 7. If

$$M_1 \xrightarrow{\varphi_1} M_2 \xrightarrow{\varphi_2} M_3 \longrightarrow 0$$

is an exact sequence of R -modules, if N is an R -module, then

$$M_1 \otimes N \xrightarrow{\varphi_1} M_2 \otimes N \xrightarrow{\varphi_2} M_3 \otimes N \longrightarrow 0$$

is exact.

Proof. For any R -module P ,

$$0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M_3, \text{Hom}_R(N, P)) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M_2, \text{Hom}_R(N, P)) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M_1, \text{Hom}_R(N, P))$$

is exact by Theorem 1(b). Then

$$0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M_3 \otimes N, P) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M_2 \otimes N, P) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M_1 \otimes N, P) \rightarrow 0$$

is exact and (by an exercise) we get

$$M_1 \otimes N \rightarrow M_2 \otimes N \rightarrow M_3 \otimes N \rightarrow 0$$

is exact. □

1.3.3 Projective and flat modules

Proposition 8. An R -module P is projective $\iff \text{Hom}_R(P, -)$ is exact (i.e. preserves exact sequences),

Proof. ($\Leftarrow$): We have

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} & & & & P & & \\ & & & & \downarrow \psi & & \\ 0 & \longrightarrow & \ker \varphi & \longrightarrow & N & \xrightarrow{\varphi} & M \longrightarrow 0 \end{array}$$

We can then get

$$0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(P, \ker \varphi) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(P, N) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(P, M) \rightarrow 0$$

exact. Then $\psi \in \text{Hom}_R(P, M) \implies$ we can pull back to some $\tilde{\psi} \in \text{Hom}_R(P, N)$. So $\varphi\tilde{\psi} = \psi \implies P$ is projective.

($\Rightarrow$): If P is projective, we have the short exact sequence $0 \rightarrow \ker \varphi \rightarrow N \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$. We know $\text{Hom}_R(P, N) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(P, M)$ is surjective since P is projective (+ Theorem 1(b)) $\implies$ claim. □

Theorem 9. *If P is projective, then $P \otimes_R -$ and $- \otimes_R P$ are exact.*

Proof. The proof for $(P \otimes_R -)$: We want to show that $P \otimes_R -$ preserves monomorphisms. So let $\varphi : M \rightarrow N$ be a monomorphism. If P is free, $P \otimes_R M \cong M^I$ and $P \otimes_R N \cong N^I$ for some I . Easy to see: $1 \otimes \varphi$ is a monomorphism (φ in each component).

If P is not free, we can take $\phi : F \rightarrow P$ an epimorphism with F free. P projective $\implies$ we get $\psi : P \rightarrow F$ a splitting.

We see that $\varphi \otimes 1_M : F \otimes M \rightarrow P \otimes M$ and $\psi \otimes 1_M : P \otimes M \rightarrow F \otimes M \implies \psi \otimes 1_M$ is a monomorphism. Similarly for $\psi \otimes 1_N$. Thus, we get:

$$\begin{array}{ccc} P \otimes M & \longrightarrow & P \otimes N \\ \psi \otimes 1_M \text{ mono} \downarrow & & \downarrow \psi \otimes 1_N \text{ mono} \\ F \otimes M & \longrightarrow & F \otimes N \end{array}$$

So by the first part, $F \otimes M \rightarrow F \otimes N$ is a monomorphism. So $P \otimes M \rightarrow P \otimes N$ is a monomorphism. $\square$

Definition. An R -module M is **flat** if $M \otimes_R -$ preserves short exact sequences.

Thus Theorem 9 says projective $\implies$ flat.

Proposition 10. *If M is flat over a domain, M is torsion-free.*

Proof. Say $0 \neq x \in M$. Then $R \rightarrow R, r \mapsto x \cdot r$ is a monomorphism, so $M = R \otimes_R m \rightarrow M, a \otimes b \mapsto x \cdot (a \otimes b)$ is a monomorphism. Thus $M_{\text{tor}} = 0$. $\square$

1.3.4 Injective modules

Definition. An R -module M is **injective** if for all diagrams below with exact row

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & N & \xrightarrow{i} & P \\ & & \downarrow \varphi & & \\ & & M & & \end{array}$$

there exists $\psi \in \text{Hom}(P, M)$ so that $\psi i = \varphi$:

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & N & \xrightarrow{i} & P \\ & & \downarrow \varphi & \nwarrow \exists \psi & \\ & & M & & \end{array}$$

Lemma 11. *If M is injective and we have the diagram*

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} N_1 & \xrightarrow{\alpha} & N & \xrightarrow{\beta} & N_2 \\ & & \downarrow \varphi & & \\ & & M & & \end{array}$$

with exact row, then if $\varphi\alpha = 0$, there exists $\psi \in \text{Hom}(N_3, M)$ such that $\psi\beta = \varphi$:

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} N_1 & \xrightarrow{\alpha} & N & \xrightarrow{\beta} & N_2 \\ & & \downarrow \varphi & \swarrow \exists \psi & \\ & & M & & \end{array}$$

Proof. Let $X = \ker \beta = \text{Im} \alpha$. Then if $\pi : N_2 \rightarrow N_2/X$ is the canonical homomorphism, then β induces $\bar{\beta} : N_2/X \rightarrow N_3$.

$\varphi\alpha = 0 \implies X = \text{Im} \alpha \subseteq \ker \varphi$. So $\bar{\varphi} : N_2/X \rightarrow M$ is well-defined.

M injective $\implies \exists \psi : N_3 \rightarrow M$ such that $\bar{\varphi} = \psi\bar{\beta}$. But then $\varphi = \bar{\varphi}\pi = \psi\bar{\beta}\pi = \psi\beta$. $\square$

Proposition 12. *If R is a ring and M is an R -module, TFAE:*

1. M is injective
2. Every short exact sequence $0 \rightarrow M \rightarrow N \rightarrow P \rightarrow 0$ splits
3. $\text{Hom}_R(-, M)$ preserves short exact sequences

Proof. **Exercise.** $\square$

Theorem 13 (Baer's Criterion). *Let R be a ring and M be an R -module. Then TFAE:*

1. M is injective
2. For every ideal I in R and every $\varphi \in \text{Hom}_R(I, M)$, there exists $\tilde{\varphi} \in \text{Hom}_R(R, M)$ extending φ ($\tilde{\varphi}|_I = \varphi$):

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & I & \longrightarrow & R \\ & & \downarrow \varphi & \swarrow \tilde{\varphi} & \\ & & M & & \end{array}$$

Proof. $(\implies)$: by definition.

$(\impliedby)$: Say we have the exact row $0 \rightarrow N \rightarrow N' \rightarrow N'/N \rightarrow 0$ and $\varphi : N \rightarrow M$. We want some $\psi \in \text{Hom}_R(N', M)$ such that $\psi|_N = \varphi$ (we will view $N \leq N'$ as a submodule).

Let $S := \{(K, \varphi_K) \mid N \leq K \leq N', \varphi_K \in \text{Hom}_R(K, M) \text{ such that } \varphi_K|_N = \varphi\}$. S is the set of all partial extensions of φ .

Then S is nonempty since $(N, \varphi) \in S$. And S is partially ordered via $(K, \varphi_K) \leq (K', \varphi_{K'}) \iff K \supseteq K'$ and $\varphi_{K'}|_K = \varphi_K$. One can check: S satisfies the hypotheses of Zorn's Lemma. Then S has a maximal element, say (K_0, φ_0) .

We will show: $K_0 = N'$. Assume for contradiction that $m \in N' \setminus K_0$.

Define $I := \{r \in R \mid rm \in K_0\}$. Can check: this is an ideal in R .

Define $\zeta : I \rightarrow M$ so that $\zeta(r) = \varphi_0(rm)$. Can check: ζ is a homomorphism.

So M injective $\implies \exists \chi : R \rightarrow M$ extending ζ .

Consider $K' := K_0 + Rm \leq N'$. K' properly contains K_0 .

Define $\varphi' : K' = K_0 + Rm \rightarrow M$ by $\varphi(k + rm) := \varphi_0(K) + \chi(r)$.

Easy to check: $\varphi' \in \text{Hom}_R(K', M)$ where $\varphi'|_N = \varphi$. $\rightarrow \leftarrow$ contradicts maximality of K_0 . $\square$

Corollary 14. *If R is an integral domain and $K = \text{Frac}(R)$ is its fraction field, then K is an injective R -module.*

Proof. Let $I \subseteq R$. Let $\varphi : I \rightarrow K$ be a homomorphism of R -modules. Then $r\varphi(s) = \varphi(rs) = s\varphi(r)$ i.e. in K , $\frac{\varphi(r)}{r} = \frac{\varphi(s)}{s} =: a$.

Define $\psi : R \rightarrow K, \psi(r) := ra$. Then $\psi \in \text{Hom}_R(R, K)$ and $\psi|_I = \varphi$. By Baer, K is injective. $\square$

Note. Injective is “dual” to projective. Every module is a quotient of a projective module. True: every module is a submodule of an injective module (hard to prove)

1.4 Localization

Let R be a commutative ring with identity.

Definition. Take $S \subseteq R$ multiplicatively closed and M an R -module. Define $(m, s) \sim (m', s')$ if there exists $u \in S$ such that $u(s'm - sm') = 0$.

The class of (m, s) is written as $\frac{m}{s}$

The **localization of M at S** is $S^{-1}M = \{\frac{m}{s} \mid m \in M, s \in S\}$ (this is an $S^{-1}R$ -module)

If $S = \{a^n \mid n \in \mathbb{N}\}$, we write M_a for $S^{-1}M$

If $S = R \setminus P$ for some prime ideal P in R , we write M_P for $S^{-1}M$

Example. If $S \subseteq R$ is multiplicatively closed and $I \trianglelefteq R$ then $S^{-1}I = I \cdot S^{-1}R$.

Lemma 1 (Localization is extension of scalars). *If $S \subseteq R$ is multiplicatively closed and M is an R -module, $S^{-1}M \cong M \otimes_R S^{-1}R$.*

Proof. Define $\varphi : S^{-1}M \rightarrow M \otimes_R S^{-1}R$, $\frac{m}{s} \mapsto m \otimes \frac{1}{s}$.

This map is well-defined: $\frac{m}{s} = \frac{m'}{s'} \iff u(s'm - sm') = 0 \text{ for some } u \in S \iff m \otimes \frac{1}{s} - m' \otimes \frac{1}{s'} = um s' \otimes \frac{1}{uss'} - um' s \otimes \frac{1}{uss'} = u(ms' - m's) \otimes \frac{1}{uss'} = 0 \iff \varphi(\frac{m}{s}) = \varphi(\frac{m'}{s'})$.

Now define a map $M \times S^{-1}R \rightarrow S^{-1}M$ (R -bilinear) by $(m, \frac{a}{s}) \mapsto \frac{am}{s}$.

This map is well-defined: $(m, \frac{a}{s}) = (m', \frac{a'}{s'}) \iff m = m' \text{ and } \exists u \in S \text{ such that } u(as' - a's) = 0 \iff u(ams' - a'm's) = um(as' - a's) = 0 \iff \frac{am}{s} = \frac{a'm'}{s'}$.

UMP of tensor product gives us a homomorphism $\psi : M \otimes_R S^{-1}R \rightarrow S^{-1}M$ so that $\psi(m \otimes \frac{r}{s}) = \varphi(m, \frac{r}{s})$.

Observe: $\psi : M \otimes_R S^{-1}R \rightarrow S^{-1}M$ and $\psi(m \otimes \frac{a}{s}) = \frac{am}{s}$.

Check: ψ is well-defined.

Then $\varphi\psi = \text{id}, \psi\varphi = \text{id}$ by construction. □

Note. $\varphi : M \rightarrow N$ homomorphism of R -modules and $S \subseteq R$ multiplicatively closed $\implies \varphi \otimes \text{id} : M \otimes_R S^{-1}R \rightarrow N \otimes_R S^{-1}R$, $(\varphi \otimes \text{id})(m \otimes \frac{a}{s}) = \varphi(m) \otimes \frac{a}{s}$.

Lemma 1 $\implies S^{-1}\varphi : S^{-1}M \rightarrow S^{-1}N \implies$ localization is a functor. (We also write φ_a or φ_P when $S^{-1}M = M_a$ or M_P)

Proposition 2 (Exactness of Localization). *Given a short exact sequence of R -modules*

$$0 \longrightarrow M_1 \xrightarrow{\varphi} M_2 \xrightarrow{\psi} M_3 \longrightarrow 0$$

if $S \subseteq R$ is multiplicatively closed, $0 \rightarrow S^{-1}M_1 \rightarrow S^{-1}M_2 \rightarrow S^{-1}M_3 \rightarrow 0$ is also exact (i.e., $S^{-1}R$ is a flat R -module)

Proof. By Lemma 1, $S^{-1}M_i = M_i \otimes_R S^{-1}R$. By Prop 3.7, we only need to show $S^{-1}\varphi$ is injective.

Let $\frac{m}{s} \in S^{-1}M$ with $0 = S^{-1}\varphi(\frac{m}{s}) = \frac{\varphi(m)}{s}$ i.e. $u\varphi(m) = \varphi(um) = 0$ for some $u \in S$. Then φ injective $\implies um = 0 \implies \frac{m}{s} = \frac{1}{us}um = 0 \implies S^{-1}\varphi$ is injective. □

Example. As a $\mathbb{Z}$ -module, $\mathbb{Q}$ is:

- Not free
- Flat (Prop 2 + $\mathbb{Q} = \text{Frac}(\mathbb{Z})$)
- Injective (Corollary 14)
- Torsion-free

- Not projective (can prove this using the fact that the surjective map $\mathbb{Z}[x_1, \dots] \rightarrow \mathbb{Q}$, $x_i \mapsto \frac{1}{i}$ has no lift $\mathbb{Q} \rightarrow \mathbb{Z}[x_1, \dots]$)

Corollary 3. *Let $S \subseteq R$ be multiplicatively closed. Then*

1. $\varphi \in \text{Hom}_R(M, N) \implies \ker(S^{-1}\varphi) = S^{-1}\ker \varphi$ and $\text{im}(S^{-1}\varphi) = S^{-1}\text{im} \varphi$
2. $N \leq M \implies S^{-1}(M/N) \cong (S^{-1}M)/(S^{-1}N)$
3. $S^{-1}(M \oplus N) \cong S^{-1}M \oplus S^{-1}N$

1.4.1 Nakayama's Lemma

Proposition 4 (Generalized Cayley-Hamilton). *Let M be a f.g. R -module, $I \trianglelefteq R$, and $\varphi : M \rightarrow M$ an R -module homomorphism such that $\varphi(M) \subseteq IM$. Then there is a monic polynomial $\chi = x^n + a_{n-1}x^{n-1} + \dots + a_0 \in R[x]$ with $a_i \in I$ such that $\chi(\varphi) = 0$ in $\text{End}_R(M)$.*

Note. If R is a field and M is an R -vector space and $I = R$ then unless $\varphi = 0$ this proof will give us the characteristic polynomial.

Proof. Let $x_1, \dots, x_n$ generate M . Then $\varphi(x_i) \in IM \implies \varphi(x_i) = \sum_{j=1}^n a_{ij}x_j$ for $a_{ij} \in I$.

Consider M as an $R[x]$ module via $X \cdot m := \varphi(m)$. Then

$$\sum_{j=1}^n (\delta_{ij}x - a_{ij})x_j = \sum_{j=1}^n \delta_{ij}\varphi(x_j) - a_{ij}x_j = \varphi(x_i) - \sum_{j=1}^n a_{ij}x_j = 0$$

for $1 \leq i \leq n$.

We can think of this as the linear system:

$$(x \cdot I_n - A) \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ \vdots \\ x_n \end{pmatrix} = 0, \quad A = (a_{ij})$$

Multiply on the left with the cofactor matrix to get $I_n \cdot \det(x \cdot I_n - A)$. Then we get $\det((\delta_{ik}x - a_{ik})_{i,k})x_j = 0$ for all j . $\chi := \det((\delta_{ik}x - a_{ik})_{i,k})$.

Then $\chi(\varphi)x_j = 0$ for all $j \implies \chi(\varphi) = 0$ in $\text{End}_R(M)$, because $x_1, \dots, x_n$ generate M . $\square$

Corollary 5 (Nakayama's Lemma). *If M is f.g. and $I \trianglelefteq R$ so that $IM = M$, then there exists $i \in I$ such that $im = m$ for all $m \in M$.*

Proof. Say $IM = M$. Apply Cayley-Hamilton to $\varphi = \text{id} \implies \exists a_i \in I$ so that $\text{id}^n + a_{n-1}\text{id}^{n-1} + \dots + a_0 = 0$ in $\text{End}_R(M)$ i.e. $(1 + a_{n-1} + \dots + a_0)\text{id} = 0$.

Let $i := -(a_{n-1} + \dots + a_0)$. Then $(1 - i)m = 0$, i.e. $im = m$. $\square$

Corollary 6 (Nakayama, Local Version). *If R is local with unique maximal ideal P and M is a f.g. R -module:*

1. *If $I \subsetneq R$ such that $IM = M$, then $M = 0$.*
2. *If $m_1, \dots, m_k$ are preimages of a basis for M/PM as an R/P -vector space, then $m_1, \dots, m_k$ generate M .*

Proof. 1. Corollary 5 $\implies \exists x \in R$ such that $x \equiv 1 \pmod{P}$, $xM = 0$. But x is a unit since R is local $\implies M = x^{-1}(xM) = 0$.

2. $N := \langle m_1, \dots, m_k \rangle \leq M$. Then we have the surjection $N \rightarrow M \rightarrow M/PM \implies N + PM = M$. So $P(M/N) = (PM + N)/N \cong M/N \implies$ (by 1) $M/N = 0 \implies N = M$. $\square$

Corollary 7. *M f.g. projective module over a local ring $R \implies M$ is free.*

Proof. Let R be a local ring with maximal ideal P . Let M be a f.g. projective R -module. Take a basis $\bar{x}_1, \dots, \bar{x}_n$ of M/PM . Then

$$F := \bigoplus_{i=1}^n R \implies F/PF \cong M/PM$$

We get the following diagram with exact rows:

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & PF & \longrightarrow & F & \xrightarrow{\pi_F} & F/PF \longrightarrow 0 \\ & & & & & \searrow \alpha & \downarrow \psi \\ 0 & \longrightarrow & PM & \longrightarrow & M & \xrightarrow{\pi_M} & M/PM \longrightarrow 0 \end{array}$$

Then using freeness of F , $\exists \varphi : F \rightarrow M$ so that $\alpha = \pi_M \varphi$. We claim: φ is an isomorphism.

If $f \in F$, $\psi \pi_F(f) = \psi(f + PF) = \varphi(f) + PM$. ψ surjective $\implies \text{im } \varphi + PM = M$. Nakayama $\implies \text{im } \varphi = M \implies \varphi$ surjective.

M projective $\implies F \cong \ker \varphi \oplus X$ since $X \cong M \implies PF \cong P \ker \varphi \oplus PX \implies \ker \varphi = P \ker \varphi + (\ker \varphi \cap PX) \subseteq \ker \varphi \cap X = 0$.

By Nakayama, $\ker \varphi = P \ker \varphi \implies \ker \varphi = 0 \implies \varphi$ is an isomorphism. $\square$

1.4.2 Local properties

Definition. We say that a property $(*)$ of modules over some ring R is **localizable** if for all R -modules M :

$(*)$ holds for $M \implies (*)$ holds for M_P for all primes $P \trianglelefteq R$

Conversely, we say that $(*)$ is **local-to-global** if for all R -modules M ,

$(*)$ holds for M_P for all $P \trianglelefteq R$ prime $\implies (*)$ holds for M

We say (*) is **local** if it is localizable and local-to-global

A similar definition can be made for homomorphisms, sequences, etc.

Proposition 8. 1. M R -module with $M_P = 0$ for all maximal $P \trianglelefteq R \implies M = 0$
Hence, being trivial is a local property

2. Given a sequence of R -modules

$$0 \longrightarrow M_1 \xrightarrow{\varphi_1} M_2 \xrightarrow{\varphi_2} M_3 \longrightarrow 0$$

so that

$$0 \longrightarrow (M_1)_P \xrightarrow{(\varphi_1)_P} (M_2)_P \xrightarrow{(\varphi_2)_P} (M_3)_P \longrightarrow 0$$

is exact for all maximal ideals $P \trianglelefteq R$, then

$$0 \rightarrow M_1 \rightarrow M_2 \rightarrow M_3 \rightarrow 0$$

is exact.

Hence (by Prop 2) exactness is a local property.

Proof. 1. Say $M \neq 0$. Let $m \in M \setminus \{0\}$. Then $1 \notin \text{Ann}(m) \trianglelefteq R \implies \exists P \trianglelefteq R$ maximal so that $\text{Ann}(m) \subseteq P$.

$$u \in R \setminus P \implies u \notin \text{Ann}(m) \implies um \neq 0 \implies \frac{m}{1} \neq 0 \text{ in } M_P \implies M_P \neq 0.$$

2. Suffices to show: if for

$$(*) \quad L \xrightarrow{\varphi} M \xrightarrow{\psi} N$$

the localization at each maximal ideal is exact, then the original sequence (*) is exact.

Say $S = R \setminus P, P \trianglelefteq R$ maximal. Then

$$\psi(\varphi(L))_P = \left\{ \frac{\psi\varphi(m)}{s} \mid m \in L, s \in S \right\} = \left\{ \psi_P \varphi_P \left(\frac{m}{s} \right) \mid m \in L, s \in S \right\} = \psi_P \varphi_P(L_P) = 0$$

by assumption.

By (1), $\psi(\varphi(L)) = 0$, i.e. $\text{im } \varphi \subseteq \ker \psi$. So (*) is a complex.

Now consider $\ker \psi / \text{im } \varphi$. Then by Corollary 3,

$$(\ker \psi / \text{im } \varphi)_P = (\ker \psi)_P / (\text{im } \varphi)_P = \ker(\psi_P) / \text{im}(\varphi_P) = 0$$

for all maximal ideals $P \trianglelefteq R$. So then by (1), $\ker \psi / \text{im } \varphi = 0 \implies \ker \psi = \text{im } \varphi$. □

Corollary 9. *Let M be an R -module. Then M is flat over $R \iff M_P$ is flat over R_P for all maximal ideals P in R .*

Hence flatness is a local property.

Proof. ($\Leftarrow$) : Say M_P is flat over R_P for all maximal $P \trianglelefteq R$. Then for all short exact sequences

$$0 \longrightarrow A \xrightarrow{\varphi} B \xrightarrow{\psi} C \longrightarrow 0$$

we want to show:

$$0 \longrightarrow M \otimes_R A \longrightarrow M \otimes_R B \longrightarrow M \otimes_R C \longrightarrow 0$$

is exact.

The functor $M \otimes_R -$ is always right exact, so we just have to show that for every injective map of R -modules $f : N \rightarrow N'$, the induced map $\text{id}_M \otimes f : M \otimes_R N \rightarrow M \otimes_R N'$ is also injective.

Since M_P is flat and f is injective, $(\text{id}_M)_P \otimes f_P : M_P \otimes_{R_P} N_P \rightarrow M_P \otimes_{R_P} (N')_P$ is also injective.

Then $(\ker(\text{id}_M \otimes f))_P = \ker((\text{id}_M \otimes f)_P) = \ker((\text{id}_M)_P \otimes f_P) = 0$, and since being trivial is local, we must have $\ker(\text{id}_M \otimes f) = 0$ i.e. $\text{id}_M \otimes f$ is injective.

($\Rightarrow$) : Exercise. □

1.4.3 Z-local properties

Definition. A family $\{f_i \mid i \in I\}$ of elements in R is a **Z-family** if $(f_i \mid i \in I) = R$.

i.e. $\bigcup D(f_i) = \text{Spec } R$

Note. If $\{f_i \mid i \in I\}$ is a Z-family, then there exists a finite $J \subseteq I$ so that $\{f_i \mid i \in J\}$ is still a Z-family.

Definition. A property $(*)$ of R -modules is **Z-local** if:

$(*)$ holds over $R \iff \exists$ a Z-family $\{f_i \mid i \in I\}$ so that $(*)$ holds over all R_{f_i}

Proposition 10. *Say M, N are R -modules, $\varphi \in \text{Hom}_R(M, N)$, $P \trianglelefteq R$ prime.*

1. *If N is finitely generated and φ_P is surjective, then there exists $f \in R \setminus P$ such that φ_f is surjective.*
2. *Surjectivity of φ is Z-local*
3. *If M is finitely generated and N finitely presented and φ_P an isomorphism, then there exists $f \in R \setminus P$ so that φ_f is an isomorphism*

4. If M is finitely generated and N is finitely presented, then bijectivity of φ is Z -local

Lemma. Say $0 \rightarrow M_1 \rightarrow M_2 \rightarrow M_3 \rightarrow 0$ is a short exact sequence with M_2 finitely generated and M_3 finitely presented. Then M_1 is finitely generated.

Proof. Exercise. □

Proof. (Of Proposition 10)

1. Consider the exact sequence

$$0 \longrightarrow \ker \varphi \longrightarrow M \xrightarrow{\varphi} N \longrightarrow N/\operatorname{im} \varphi = \operatorname{coker} \varphi \longrightarrow 0$$

Then by Corollary 3, $(\operatorname{coker})_P = \operatorname{coker}_P = 0$ since φ_P is surjective. So for all $x \in \operatorname{coker} \varphi$, $\exists f_x \in R \setminus P$ such that $f_x \cdot x = 0$.

N finitely generated $\implies \operatorname{coker} \varphi$ is finitely generated, say by $x_1, \dots, x_n$. Define $f := f_{x_1} \dots f_{x_n}$. Then $f \in R \setminus P$ and $f \cdot \operatorname{coker} \varphi = 0 \implies \varphi_f$ is surjective.

2. φ surjective $\implies \varphi_f$ is surjective for all f , since localization = extension of scalars, which preserves exact sequences.

Conversely, let $\{f_i \mid i \in I\}$ be a Z -family so that φ_{f_i} is surjective for all $i \in I$. $P \trianglelefteq R$ primes $\implies \exists i \in I$ so that $f_i \in R \setminus P \implies \varphi_P$ is a localization of $\varphi_{f_i} \implies \varphi_P$ is surjective. So φ is surjective by Prop 8 part 2.

3. Let M be finitely generated, N finitely presented, and φ_P an isomorphism. Then there exists $f_1 \in R \setminus P$ so that $(\operatorname{coker} \varphi)_{f_1} = 0$ by (1), i.e. $0 \rightarrow (\ker \varphi)_{f_1} \rightarrow M_{f_1} \rightarrow N_{f_1} \rightarrow 0$ is exact.

N finitely generated $\implies N_{f_1}$ is finitely generated over $R_{f_1} \implies$ by the lemma, $(\ker \varphi)_{f_1}$ is finitely generated. As in the proof of (1), we get $f_2 \in R \setminus P$ such that $f := f_1 f_2 \ker \varphi = 0 \implies \varphi_f : M_f \rightarrow N_f$ is an isomorphism.

4. Exercise. □

Corollary 11. If M is finitely presented, TFAE:

1. There exists a Z -family $\{f_i \mid i \in I\}$ such that M_{f_i} is a free R_{f_i} -module for all i
2. For all prime ideals P in R , M_P is a free R_P -module
3. For all maximal ideals P in R , M_P is a free R_P -module

Proof. $1 \implies 2$: $P \trianglelefteq R$ prime $\implies \exists i \in I$ so that $f_i \in R \setminus P \implies M_P \cong M_{f_i} \otimes_{R_{f_i}} R_P$ is free since M_{f_i} is.

$2 \implies 3$: $\checkmark$

$3 \implies 1$: Suffices to show:

For all $P \trianglelefteq R$ maximal, there exists $f_P \in R \setminus P$ such that M_{f_P} is free. Then take $e\{f_P \mid P \trianglelefteq R \text{ maximal}\}$. This is a Z-family because $(f_P \mid P \trianglelefteq R)$ cannot be contained in any maximal ideal.

Now fix $P \trianglelefteq R$ maximal. Let $x_1, \dots, x_n \in M$ be such that the images form an R_P -basis of M_P .

Define $\varphi : R^n \cong \bigoplus_{i=1}^n Re_i \rightarrow M$, $e_i \mapsto x_i$. Then φ_P is an isomorphism by construction. So by Prop 10 part 3, there exists $f_P \in R \setminus P$ so that φ_{f_P} is an isomorphism. Thus M_{f_P} is free. $\square$

Note. By Corollary 7, finitely generated projective modules are locally free.

Theorem 12. *Let R be a ring and M an R -module. Then TFAE:*

1. M is f.g. projective
2. M is f.p. and locally free
3. M is f.p. and M_P is free over R_P for all $P \trianglelefteq R$ maximal
4. For all $P \trianglelefteq R$ maximal, $\exists f \in R \setminus P$ so that M_f is a free R_f -module of finite rank
5. $\exists$ a finite Z-family $\{f_i\}$ so that M_{f_i} is a free R_{f_i} -module of finite rank for all $i \in I$

Definition. An R -module N is **faithfully flat** if for every sequence of R -modules

$$(*) \quad 0 \rightarrow M_1 \rightarrow M_2 \rightarrow M_3 \rightarrow 0,$$

the sequence

$$0 \rightarrow M_1 \otimes N \rightarrow M_2 \otimes N \rightarrow M_3 \otimes N \rightarrow 0 \text{ is exact}$$

$$\iff (*) \text{ is.}$$

Lemma 13. N is faithfully flat $\iff N$ is flat and $PN \neq N$ for every prime ideal $P \trianglelefteq R$.

Proof. Exercise. $\square$

Lemma 14. R ring, $\{f_i \mid i \in I\}$ finite Z-family

$$\implies R' := \prod_{i \in I} R_{f_i} \text{ is a faithfully flat } R\text{-module.}$$

Proof. Each R_{f_i} is flat as an R -module, since flatness is localizable and R is a flat R -module. So R' is flat (tensor products distribute over finite direct sums).

Let $P \trianglelefteq R$ be prime. Then there exists $f_i \notin P$. $P_{f_i} = PR_{f_i} \subsetneq R_{f_i} \implies PR' \subsetneq PR_{f_i} \times \prod_{i \neq j} PR_{f_j} \neq R' \implies$ (by Lemma 13) R' is faithfully flat over R . $\square$

Lemma 15. *R ring, $\{f_i \mid i \in I\}$ finite Z -family, M R -module. If M_{f_i} is finitely presented for all $i \in I$, then M is finitely presented.*

Proof. Let $M' = \prod_{i \in I} M_{f_i}$. M' is an R' -module ($R' = \prod_{i \in I} R_{f_i}$ as in Lemma 14). Take m, k so that there are exact sequences

$$R_{f_i}^m \rightarrow R_{f_i}^k \rightarrow M_{f_i} \rightarrow 0 \quad \text{for all } i.$$

Then $(R')^m \rightarrow (R')^k \rightarrow M' \rightarrow 0$ is exact. Thus $M' (= M \otimes_R R')$ is finitely presented $\implies R' \otimes_R R^m \rightarrow R' \otimes_R R^k \rightarrow R' \otimes_R M \rightarrow 0$ is exact. So since R' is faithfully flat, $R^m \rightarrow R^k \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$ is exact. So M is finitely presented. $\square$

Note. The proof also shows that M is finitely generated if all M_{f_i} are.

Lemma 16. *Let M be a finitely presented R -module, N an R -module, $S \subseteq R$ multiplicatively closed $\implies S^{-1}(\text{Hom}_R(M, N)) \cong \text{Hom}_{S^{-1}R}(S^{-1}M, S^{-1}N)$.*

Proof. The map $\text{Hom}_R(M, N) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_{S^{-1}R}(S^{-1}M, S^{-1}N)$, $\varphi \mapsto S^{-1}\varphi$ induces a map $\alpha : \text{Hom}_R(M, N)_{S^{-1}R} \rightarrow \text{Hom}_{S^{-1}R}(S^{-1}M, S^{-1}N)$ via $\frac{\varphi}{t} \mapsto \frac{1}{t}S^{-1}\varphi$.

M finitely presented $\implies \exists K \rightarrow F \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$ exact with K, F free of finite rank $\implies S^{-1}K \rightarrow S^{-1}F \rightarrow S^{-1}M \rightarrow 0$ is exact by Prop 2. Moreover, $0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M, N) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(F, N) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(K, N)$ is exact. So we get commutative diagram with exact rows:

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & \text{Hom}_R(M, N)_{S^{-1}R} & \longrightarrow & \text{Hom}_R(F, N)_{S^{-1}R} & \longrightarrow & \text{Hom}_R(K, N)_{S^{-1}R} \\ & & \downarrow \alpha & & \downarrow \beta & & \downarrow \gamma \\ 0 & \longrightarrow & \text{Hom}_{S^{-1}R}(S^{-1}M, S^{-1}N) & \longrightarrow & \text{Hom}_{S^{-1}R}(S^{-1}F, S^{-1}N) & \longrightarrow & \text{Hom}_{S^{-1}R}(S^{-1}K, S^{-1}N) \end{array}$$

If $F = R$, $\text{Hom}_R(R, N)_{S^{-1}R} \cong S^{-1}N \cong \text{Hom}_{S^{-1}R}(S^{-1}R, S^{-1}N)$, so β and γ are isomorphisms (by K, F being f.g.). By a diagram chase, α is an isomorphism. $\square$

Theorem 12.

R ring, M R -module. TFAE:

1. M f.g. projective.
2. M f.p. and locally free.
3. M f.g. and M_P is a free R_P -module for all $P \trianglelefteq R$ maximal.
4. For all $P \trianglelefteq R$ maximal, $\exists f \in R \setminus P$ such that M_f is a free R_f -module of finite rank.
5. $\exists$ a finite Z -family such that M_{f_i} is free R_{f_i} -module of finite rank for all $i \in I$.

Proof. $(1 \Rightarrow 2)$ M f.g. projective $\implies$ by Corollary 7, M is locally free.

We get $F \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$ exact, F free finite rank.

Since M is projective, the sequence splits $\Rightarrow M$ is f.p. (kernel is quotient of F) .

$(2 \Rightarrow 3)$ Clear.

$(3 \Rightarrow 4)$ Corollary 11.

$(4 \Rightarrow 5)$ $P \subseteq R$ maximal ideal $\implies$ choose $f_P \in R \setminus P$ such that M_{f_P} is a free R_{f_P} -module of finite rank.

$\{f_P \mid P \text{ maximal}\}$ is a Z -family, has a finite subfamily.

$(5 \Rightarrow 1)$ Lemma 15 $\implies M$ f.p. and Corollary 11 $\Rightarrow M$ is locally free.

WTS: if $N' \rightarrow N \rightarrow 0$ is exact then $\text{Hom}_R(M, N') \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M, N) \rightarrow 0$ is exact (Prop 3.8 says this is equivalent to projective). So by Corollary 3, it suffices to show that $\text{Hom}_R(M, N')_P \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M, N)_P \rightarrow 0$ is exact for all $P \subseteq R$ maximal.

Lemma 16 $\implies (\text{Hom}_R(M, N'))_P \cong \text{Hom}_{R_P}(M_P, N'_P)$ and $(\text{Hom}_R(M, N))_P \cong \text{Hom}_{R_P}(M_P, N_P)$

$\text{Hom}_{R_P}(M_P, N'_P) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_{R_P}(M_P, N_P) \rightarrow 0$ is exact since M_P is free for all P (hence projective). So the sequence $\text{Hom}_R(M, N')_P \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M, N)_P \rightarrow 0$ is exact. $\square$

Corollary 17. *Every f.p. flat module is projective.*

Proof. Flatness is local but locally flat is locally free for f.p. modules (by Corollary 7 or the proof of Theorem 12). $\square$

Note. Not every finitely generated flat module is projective.

1.5 Chain Conditions

Let R be commutative with 1.

1.5.1 Noetherian modules

Definition. An R -module is **Noetherian** if every submodule is finitely generated.

Note.

1. R is a noetherian ring $\iff R$ is noetherian as an R -module
2. Noetherian modules arise naturally and behave well under constructions
3. By definition, noetherian modules are finitely generated

Theorem 1. *TFAE (R ring, M R -module):*

1. M Noetherian.

2. Every ascending chain $N_1 \leq N_2 \leq \dots$ of R -submodules of M is eventually constant (ACC).

3. Every nonempty collection of submodules has a maximal element.

Theorem 2. Let R be a ring, M an R -module, $N \subseteq M$ a submodule. Then M is Noetherian $\iff N$ and M/N are Noetherian.

Proof. $(\implies)$ M Noetherian $\implies N$ Noetherian (by def).

$\overline{L} \leq M/N$, $\overline{L} = L/N$ for some $L \leq M$.

L is f.g. so $\overline{L}$ is f.g.

$(\impliedby)$ Suppose $M/N, N$ are Noetherian. Let $L \leq M$. Then $L \cap N$ is f.g. and L/N is f.g.

$\implies L$ is finitely generated (by generators of $L \cap N$ and preimage of generators of L/N). $\square$

Theorem 3. M, N noetherian $\implies M \oplus N$ is noetherian.

Proof. $(M \oplus N)/(M \oplus 0) \cong N$ and use Theorem 2. $\square$

Theorem 4. R Noetherian ring, M R -module:

M is Noetherian $\iff M$ is finitely generated.

Proof. $(\implies)$ by def. $(\impliedby)$: M f.g. $\implies R^k \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$ for some k .

R Noetherian $\implies R^k$ Noetherian by Theorem 3 $\implies M$ Noetherian by Theorem 2. $\square$

Theorem 5. R Noetherian, M, N finitely generated $\implies \text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ is finitely generated.

Proof. M finitely generated $\implies M \cong R^k/L$ for some $k, L \leq R^k$.

$\text{Hom}_R(M/N) \cong \text{Hom}_R(R^k/L, N)$.

We have the short exact sequence $0 \rightarrow L \rightarrow R^k \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$ so we get the exact sequence

$$0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(M, N) \rightarrow \text{Hom}_R(R^k, N) \cong N^k$$

N^k is Noetherian by Theorem 3 and 4. So $\text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ is noetherian, by Theorem 2. $\square$

Example. R ring, $I \trianglelefteq R$ ideal. $\text{Hom}_R(R/I, R) \cong \{r \in R \mid Ir = 0\}$

e.g. K field, $R = K[x_1, x_2, \dots]/(\dots, x_i x_j, \dots)$

$I \trianglelefteq R$ coset of polynomials with no constant term

$If = 0 \iff f$ has no constant term $\iff f \in I$. Then $\text{Hom}(R/I, R) \cong I$ is not finitely generated.

Corollary 6. 1. R noetherian, M, N noetherian $\implies \text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ is noetherian

2. R noetherian, M finitely generated $\implies M^* = \text{Hom}_R(M, R)$ the set of linear forms is finitely generated

Lemma 7. *If R is noetherian, M is finitely generated $\iff M$ is finitely presented.*

Proof. $(\Leftarrow)$: clear.

$(\Rightarrow)$: M finitely generated $\implies$ we get $R^k \xrightarrow{\varphi} M \rightarrow 0$ exact.

$\ker \varphi \leq R^k$ (and R^k is noetherian by Theorem 3) $\implies \ker \varphi$ is finitely generated $\implies M$ is finitely presented. $\square$

Corollary 8. *M is finitely generated over R noetherian. Then TFAE:*

1. M is projective
2. M is locally free
3. M is flat

Proof. $(1) \Rightarrow (2)$: by Theorem 1.2

$(2) \Rightarrow (3)$: M is locally free $\implies M$ is locally flat (free modules are flat) $\implies M$ is flat (flatness is local).

$(3) \Rightarrow (1)$: Lemma 7 $\implies M$ is finitely presented. Finitely presented and flat $\implies$ projective (Corollary 7). $\square$

1.5.2 Artinian modules

Definition. An R -module M is **Artinian** if it satisfies the descending chain condition (DCC):

For every chain of R -submodules, $N_1 \geq N_2 \geq \dots$ is eventually constant.

Example.

1. R field $\implies$ every finite-dimensional vector space over R is an artinian R -module (also noetherian)
2. $R = K[x]$ is not artinian as an R -module: $(x) \supsetneq (x^2) \supsetneq \dots$

Proposition 9. *If $0 \rightarrow M' \rightarrow M \rightarrow M'' \rightarrow 0$ is a short exact sequence of R -modules, then: M is artinian $\iff M', M''$ are artinian.*

Proposition 10. *If R artinian ring (i.e. R is artinian as an R -module), then if M is finitely generated, M is an artinian R -module.*

Proof. **Exercise** $\square$

Theorem 11. *R ring, M R -module:*

M is Artinian $\iff$ every nonempty collection of R -submodules of M has a minimal element.

Proof. $(\Leftarrow)$: Given a chain $N_1 \geq N_2 \geq \dots$, $\{N_k\}$ has a minimal element. So the chain stabilizes at that minimal element.

$(\Rightarrow)$: Given a nonempty collection of submodules $\{N_k\}$, if there is no minimal element, then for each N_k there exists some N_{k+1} with $N_k \geq N_{k+1}$. Continuing, we'd get an infinitely ascending chain $\rightarrow \leftarrow$. $\square$

Example.

1. An integral domain is artinian $\iff$ it is a field
2. $\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$ is artinian
3. $K[x]/(x^n)$ is artinian (as a $K[x]$ -module)

1.5.3 Normal series

Definition. A **normal series** of an R -module M is a chain $M = M_0 \geq M_1 \geq \dots \geq M_k = 0$.

The **length** of the series is the number of strict inclusions (i.e. the number of nontrivial quotients)

A **refinement** of a normal series is obtained by inserting a finite number of additional submodules (proper if length increases)

Two series are equivalent if there is a 1-1 correspondence between the nontrivial factors so that the corresponding factors are isomorphic as modules

A **composition series** is a normal series where each M_i/M_{i+1} is nonzero and simple.

Definition. $\ell(M) :=$ smallest length of a composition series (or ∞) = **length** of M .

Proposition 12. $N \leq M \Rightarrow \ell(N) \leq \ell(M)$.

If $\ell(M) < \infty$, then equality holds $\iff N = M$.

Proof. WLOG $\ell(M) < \infty$. Let (M_i) be a composition series of length $\ell(M)$.

Define $N_i := N \cap M_i$. Then $N_i/N_{i+1} \leq M_i/M_{i+1}$ is simple $\implies N_i/N_{i+1} = \begin{cases} M_i/M_{i+1} & \text{simple} \\ 0 & \end{cases}$
 $\implies (N_i)$ is a composition series of N (after possibly removing repeated terms)
 $\implies \ell(N) \leq \ell(M)$.

If $\ell(M) = \ell(N)$, $N_i/N_{i+1} \cong M_i/M_{i+1}$ for all i . So $M_{n-1} = N_{n-1} \implies$ (inductively) $M_i = N_i$ for all $i \implies M = M_0 = N_0 = N$. $\square$

Corollary 13. Any normal series of M has length at most $\ell(M)$ (if $\ell(M) < \infty$).

Proof. $M = M_0 \geq M_1 \geq \cdots \geq M_k = 0$ normal series.

Without loss of generality assume this series is length k . By Prop 12, $\ell(M) = \ell(M_0) > \ell(M_1) > \cdots > \ell(M_k) = 0 \implies \ell(M) \geq k$. $\square$

Corollary 14. *If $\ell(M) < \infty$, all composition series have the same length, and every normal series can be refined to a composition series.*

Proof. If (M_i) is a composition series of M of length k , then $k \leq \ell(M)$ by Corollary 13, so $k = \ell(M)$ by definition. And the last assertion is clear. $\square$

Theorem 15. M has a composition series $\iff M$ is both artinian and noetherian.

Proof. $(\implies)$: Corollary 13.

$(\impliedby)$: $M = M_0$ has a maximal submodule $M_1 \subsetneq M_0$ since M is noetherian. Inductively, we get $M = M_0 \supsetneq M_1 \supsetneq \cdots$ which has to be finite since M is artinian, so we get a composition series. $\square$

Proposition 16. $\ell(M)$ is additive on exact sequences. In particular, for the short exact sequence $0 \rightarrow M' \rightarrow M \rightarrow M'' \rightarrow 0$, $\ell(M) = \ell(M') + \ell(M'')$ when $\ell(M) < \infty$.

Proof. **Exercise.** $\square$

Proposition 17. For a K -vector space V , TFAE:

1. V has finite dimension
2. V has finite length
3. V is Noetherian
4. V is Artinian

Proof. (1) $\implies$ (2): $\ell(V) \leq \dim V$.

(2) $\implies$ (3), (4): by Theorem 15.

(3), (4) $\implies$ (1):

Suppose $\dim V = \infty$. Let $(x_n)_{n \geq 0}$ be an infinite sequence of elements that are linearly independent.

Let $U_n := \langle x_1, \dots, x_n \rangle$.

$V_n := \langle x_{n+1}, \dots \rangle$.

Then U_n is strictly increasing and V_n is strictly decreasing. So V is neither noetherian nor artinian. $\square$

Corollary 18. *If R is a ring such that $0 = m_1 \cdots m_k$ for some maximal ideals $m_1, \dots, m_k$ then R is noetherian $\iff R$ is artinian.*

Proof. **Exercise** $\square$

1.5.4 Krull's Intersection Theorem

Theorem 19. *Let R be a Noetherian ring and $I \trianglelefteq R$ an ideal. Let M be a finitely generated R -module. Let $L = \bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} I^n M$. Then $IL = L$.*

Proof. Since M is finitely generated and R is noetherian, by Theorem 4, M is noetherian.

Let $S := \{N \leq M \mid N \cap L = IL\} \neq \emptyset$ because $IL \in S$. So Theorem 1 $\implies \exists N_0 \in S$ maximal.

Claim: $I^m N \subseteq N_0$ for sufficiently large m .

Proof of claim:

Fix $a \in I$. Define: $N_i := \{x \in M \mid a^i x \in N_0\}$.

M noetherian $\implies N_0 \supseteq N_1 \supseteq \dots$ stabilizes, i.e. there exists k such that $N_k = N_{k+1} = \dots$

Let $z \in (a^k M + N_0) \cap L$. Write $z = a^k x + y, x \in M, y \in N_0$. Then $az \in IL \leq N_0$.

$az = a^{k+1}x + ay \implies$ since $ax \in N_0$ and $ay \in N_0, a^{k+1}x \in N_0$. So $z \in N_0 \cap L = IL$.

Thus, $(a^k M + N_0) \cap L = IL$.

By maximality of $N_0, a^k M \leq N_0$. But $a \in I$ arbitrary and I finitely generated $\implies I^m M \leq N_0$ for m large. Hence

$$L = \bigcap_{n \geq 1} I^n M \subseteq I^m M \leq N_0$$

for large enough m . Hence $L = N_0 \cap L = IL$. □

Example. Let $R = \mathbb{Q}[x, z, y_1, y_2, \dots] / (x - zy_1, z - z^2y_2, x - z^3y_3, \dots)$.

Let $M = R$ and $I = (\bar{z})$.

Then $\bigcap_{n \geq 1} I^n M = (\bar{x})$ and $\bar{z} \cdot (\bar{x}) \neq \bar{x}$. So the example violates the theorem.

Corollary 20. *If R is Noetherian and M is a finitely generated R -module,*

$$J \subseteq \text{Jac} R = \bigcap_{P \trianglelefteq R, P \text{ maximal}} P \implies \bigcap_{n \geq 1} J^n M = 0.$$

In particular, if R is a Noetherian local ring with maximal ideal $\mathfrak{m}$, then $\bigcap_{n=1}^{\infty} \mathfrak{m}^n = 0$.

Proof. Let $L = \bigcap_{n \geq 0} J^n M$. By Theorem 19, $JL = L$. So by Nakayama, there exists $a \in J$ so that $(1 - a)x = 0$ for all $x \in L$.

But $a \in \text{Jac} R \implies 1 - a \in R^\times \implies L = 0$. □

1.6 Homological Algebra

1.6.1 Exact functors and derived functors

Definition. A functor between abelian categories is **additive** if it induces a homomorphism on the Hom groups.

An additive functor $F : \mathcal{C} \rightarrow \mathcal{D}$ between abelian categories is **left exact** if for any exact sequence $0 \rightarrow X \rightarrow Y \rightarrow Z$ the sequence $0 \rightarrow F(X) \rightarrow F(Y) \rightarrow F(Z)$ is also exact and **right exact** if for any exact sequence $X \rightarrow Y \rightarrow Z \rightarrow 0$, the sequence $F(X) \rightarrow F(Y) \rightarrow F(Z) \rightarrow 0$ is also exact.

F is **exact** if F is both left and right exact.

Example. Let R be commutative with 1 and M an R -module.

1. $M \otimes_R -$ is right exact
2. $M \otimes_R -$ is exact if M is flat
3. $\text{Hom}_R(M, -)$ is left exact

Definition. A sequence $\{X_i\}_{i \in \mathbb{N}}$ of R -modules with homomorphisms $X_{n+1} \rightarrow X_n$ for all n together with an **augmentation map** $\varepsilon_0 : X_0 \rightarrow M$ ($\varepsilon_0 \in \text{Hom}_R(X_0, M)$) is a **left resolution** of M if

$$\cdots \rightarrow X_{n+1} \rightarrow X_n \rightarrow \cdots \rightarrow X_0 \xrightarrow{\varepsilon_0} M \rightarrow 0$$

is exact.

Notation: $X_\bullet \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$.

A **right resolution** of M is a sequence of R -modules $\{Y^i\}_{i \in \mathbb{N}}$ with homomorphisms $Y^n \rightarrow Y^{n+1}$ for all n together with $\varepsilon_0 \in \text{Hom}_R(M, Y^0)$ so that

$$0 \rightarrow M \rightarrow Y^0 \rightarrow Y^1 \rightarrow \cdots$$

is exact. Notation: $0 \rightarrow M \rightarrow Y^\bullet$

A **projective resolution** is a left resolution with X_i projective for all i .

A **injective resolution** is a right resolution with Y^i injective for all i .

Theorem 1. Let M be an R -module.

1. M admits a projective resolution
2. M admits an injective resolution

Now let $X_\bullet \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$ be a projective resolution of M . Let F be an additive functor. Take $X_\bullet \rightarrow 0$ which is exact except at 0.

$$H_0(X_\bullet) = X_0 / \text{Im}(X_1 \rightarrow X_0) = X_0 / \ker(X_0 \rightarrow M) \cong M \quad \text{and} \quad H_n(X_\bullet) = 0 \text{ for all } n \geq 1.$$

We get a new complex $FX_\bullet$ by applying F .

Define $(L_n F)(M) := H_n(FX_\bullet)$.

Proposition 2. $(L_0 F)(M) = F(M)$ if F is right exact.

Proof. Given

$$\cdots \rightarrow X_1 \rightarrow X_0 \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0 \text{ exact}$$

we get

$$FX_1 \rightarrow FX_0 \rightarrow FM \rightarrow 0 \text{ exact}$$

So $\text{Im}(FX_1 \rightarrow FX_0) = \ker(FX_0 \rightarrow FM) \implies$

$$H_0(FX_\bullet) = \ker(FX_0 \rightarrow 0) / \text{Im}(FX_1 \rightarrow FX_0) \cong \ker(FX_0 \rightarrow 0) / \ker(FX_0 \rightarrow FM) \cong F(M).$$

□

Definition. Let $C_\bullet, D_\bullet$ be two (chain) complexes of modules. A homomorphism $f : C_\bullet \rightarrow D_\bullet$ is a collection of homomorphisms $f_n : C_n \rightarrow D_n$ such that the following diagram commutes:

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} \cdots & \longrightarrow & C_n & \xrightarrow{d_n} & C_{n-1} & \longrightarrow & \cdots \\ & & \downarrow f_n & & \downarrow f_{n-1} & & \\ \cdots & \longrightarrow & D_n & \xrightarrow{d_n} & D_{n-1} & \longrightarrow & \cdots \end{array}$$

Definition. Two homomorphisms $f, g : C_\bullet \rightarrow D_\bullet$ are **chain homotopic** if there exist $s_n \in \text{Hom}(C_n, D_{n+1})$ for all n such that $f_n - g_n = d_{n+1}s_n + s_{n-1}d_n$.

$$\begin{array}{ccccccccc} \cdots & \longrightarrow & C_{n+1} & \xrightarrow{d_{n+1}} & C_n & \xrightarrow{d_n} & C_{n-1} & \longrightarrow & \cdots \\ & & \downarrow (f-g)_{n+1} & \swarrow s_n & \downarrow (f-g)_n & \swarrow s_{n-1} & \downarrow (f-g)_{n-1} & & \\ \cdots & \longrightarrow & D_{n+1} & \xrightarrow{d_{n+1}} & D_n & \xrightarrow{d_n} & D_{n-1} & \longrightarrow & \cdots \end{array}$$

$s = \{s_n\}$ is the **chain homotopy** from f to g .

Note. Chain homotopy defines an equivalence relation.

Definition. $f : C_\bullet \rightarrow D_\bullet$ is a **chain homotopy equivalence** if there exists $g : D_\bullet \rightarrow C_\bullet$ such that fg and gf are both homotopic to the identity.

Proposition 3. If f, g are chain homotopic, then $H_n(f) = H_n(g)$ for all n .

Theorem 4 (Comparison Theorem for Resolutions). If $X_\bullet \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$ is a projective resolution, N is an R -module, $f_{-1} \in \text{Hom}_R(M, N)$ and $Y_\bullet \rightarrow N \rightarrow 0$ is a left resolution, then there exists $\eta : (X_\bullet \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0) \rightarrow (Y_\bullet \rightarrow N \rightarrow 0)$ extending f_{-1} and η is unique up to chain homotopy.

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc}
\cdots & \rightarrow & X_1 & \longrightarrow & X_0 & \longrightarrow & M \longrightarrow 0 \\
& & \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow f_{-1} \\
\cdots & \rightarrow & Y_1 & \longrightarrow & Y_0 & \longrightarrow & N \longrightarrow 0
\end{array}$$

Now let $X_\bullet \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$ and $X'_\bullet \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$ be projective resolutions. Using the theorem, we get

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc}
\cdots & \rightarrow & X_1 & \longrightarrow & X_0 & \longrightarrow & M \longrightarrow 0 \\
& & \downarrow \eta_1 & & \downarrow \eta_2 & & \downarrow \text{id} \\
\cdots & \rightarrow & X'_1 & \longrightarrow & X'_0 & \longrightarrow & M \longrightarrow 0
\end{array}$$

But we can also use it the other way around and get

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc}
\cdots & \rightarrow & X_1 & \longrightarrow & X_0 & \longrightarrow & M \longrightarrow 0 \\
& & \uparrow \eta'_1 & & \uparrow \eta'_2 & & \uparrow \text{id} \\
\cdots & \rightarrow & X'_1 & \longrightarrow & X'_0 & \longrightarrow & M \longrightarrow 0
\end{array}$$

So we get $\eta : (X_\bullet \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0) \rightarrow (X'_\bullet \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0)$ and $\eta' : (X'_\bullet \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0) \rightarrow (X_\bullet \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0)$.

$\eta \circ \eta'$ and $\eta' \circ \eta$ are chain homotopic to the identity by the comparison theorem. So η is a chain homotopy equivalence. Exercise: $f(\eta)$ is also a chain homotopy equivalence. So by Proposition 3, $H_n(f(\eta)) : H_n(FX_\bullet) = (L_n F)(M) \rightarrow H_n(FX'_\bullet)$ is an isomorphism. From this we conclude that different projective resolutions give isomorphic modules $(L_n F)(M)$. So $L_n F$ is well-defined, called the **n-th left derived functor of F** .

Example. Let M be projective and F right exact.

$\cdots \rightarrow M \xrightarrow{\text{id}} M \xrightarrow{0} M \xrightarrow{\text{id}} M \rightarrow 0$ is a projective resolution.

We get $FM \xrightarrow{\text{id}} FM \xrightarrow{0} FM \rightarrow 0$ so

$$L_n(F)(M) = H_n(FX_\bullet) = \begin{cases} FM, & n = 0 \\ 0, & n > 0 \end{cases}$$

Theorem 5. Let $0 \rightarrow M_1 \rightarrow M_2 \rightarrow M_3 \rightarrow 0$ be a short exact sequence of R -modules. Let F be a right exact functor of R -modules. Then there is a long exact sequence

$$\cdots \rightarrow (L_2 F)(M_3) \xrightarrow{\partial} (L_1 F)(M_1) \rightarrow (L_1 F)(M_2) \rightarrow (L_1 F)(M_3) \xrightarrow{\partial} FM_1 \rightarrow FM_2 \rightarrow FM_3 \rightarrow 0$$

This is functorial in the following sense:

If $0 \rightarrow N_1 \rightarrow N_2 \rightarrow N_3 \rightarrow 0$ is a short exact sequence with homomorphisms $N_i \rightarrow M_i$ such

that

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & M_1 & \longrightarrow & M_2 & \longrightarrow & M_3 \longrightarrow 0 \\ & & \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow \\ 0 & \longrightarrow & N_1 & \longrightarrow & N_2 & \longrightarrow & N_3 \longrightarrow 0 \end{array}$$

commutes, then there is an induced commutative diagram

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc} \cdots & \longrightarrow & (L_2 F)(M_3) & \xrightarrow{\partial} & (L_1 F)(M_1) & \longrightarrow & (L_1 F)(M_2) \rightarrow \cdots \\ & & \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow \\ \cdots & \longrightarrow & (L_2 F)(N_3) & \xrightarrow{\partial} & (L_1 F)(N_1) & \longrightarrow & (L_1 F)(N_2) \rightarrow \cdots \end{array}$$

Note.

1. The sequence is called the long exact homology sequence associated to this short exact sequence (and F)
2. ∂ are called connecting homomorphisms (from the snake lemma)

Dually: if F is a left exact functor on R -modules, define right derived functor $R^n F$ as follows: Choose $0 \rightarrow M \rightarrow Y^\bullet$ injective resolution.

Take $(R^n F)(M) = H^n(FY^\bullet)$ where for

$$0 \rightarrow Y^0 \xrightarrow{d^0} Y^1 \xrightarrow{d^1} \cdots, \quad H^i(Y^\bullet) := \ker(d^i) / \operatorname{Im}(d^{i-1})$$

And one can show:

- $(R^0 F)(M) = F(M)$
- $R^n F$ is well-defined
- The analog of Theorem 5 holds

1.6.2 Tor and Ext

Let M be an R -module, Mod_R = the category of R -modules, $F : \operatorname{Mod}_R \rightarrow \operatorname{Mod}_R, N \mapsto M \otimes_R N$.

We saw (3.7) that F is right exact so has left derived functors $L_n F$.

Definition. $\operatorname{Tor}_n(M, N) := (L_n F)(N)$ is called the Tor functor

Theorem 6 (Balancing Tor). *Say M, N are R -modules and $n \geq 0$. Then $\operatorname{Tor}_n(M, N)$ is naturally isomorphic to $\operatorname{Tor}_n(N, M)$.*

Proof. Theorem 2.7.2 in Weibel. □

Example. $\text{Tor}_i(\mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z}, \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}) = ?$ (as $\mathbb{Z}$ -modules)

Projective resolution of $\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$ as a $\mathbb{Z}$ -module:

$$0 \rightarrow \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{\cdot n} \mathbb{Z} \xrightarrow{\text{mod } n} \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z} \rightarrow 0$$

Tensor with $\mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z}$ and remove the last term:

$$0 \rightarrow \mathbb{Z} \otimes \mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathbb{Z} \otimes \mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z} \rightarrow 0$$

Recall that $\mathbb{Z} \otimes_{\mathbb{Z}} \mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z} \cong \mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z}$.

So $\text{Tor}_0(\mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z}, \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}) = \mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z} \otimes \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z} = \mathbb{Z}/d\mathbb{Z}$ where $d = \gcd(m, n)$.

$\text{Tor}_1(\mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z}, \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}) = \ker(\cdot n) = \{i \in \mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z} \mid ni = 0\}$.

If $m = dm', ni = 0 \iff m \mid ni \iff m'd \mid ni \iff m' \mid i$. So $\ker(\cdot n) \cong m'\mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z} \cong \mathbb{Z}/d\mathbb{Z}$.

$\text{Tor}_i(\mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z}, \mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}) = 0$ for $i > 1$.

Definition. Let M be an R -module, $F : \text{Mod}_R \rightarrow \text{Mod}_R, N \mapsto \text{Hom}_R(M, N)$.

This is left exact (Theorem 3.1).

Define $\text{Ext}^n(M, N) = (R^n F)(M)$.

Note we can define this alternatively but it is not symmetric.

Theorem 7. Let P be an R -module. Then

1. P is projective $\iff \text{Ext}_R^1(P, M) = 0$ for all R -modules M
2. P is injective $\iff \text{Ext}_R^1(M, P) = 0$ for all R -modules M

Proof. We'll prove (2).

($\implies$): P injective $\iff \text{Hom}_R(-, P)$ is exact $\implies \text{Ext}_R^1(M, P) = 0$ for all M .

($\impliedby$): $0 \rightarrow M_1 \rightarrow M_2 \rightarrow M_3 \rightarrow 0$ short exact sequence $\implies$ we get the long exact sequence

$\dots \rightarrow 0 \rightarrow \text{Hom}(M_3, P) \rightarrow \text{Hom}(M_2, P) \rightarrow \text{Hom}(M_1, P) \xrightarrow{\partial} \text{Ext}_R^1(M_3, P) \rightarrow \dots$

and $\text{Ext}_R^1(M_3, P) = 0$ by assumption, so we get a short exact sequence, hence P is injective.

(1) is similar. □

1.6.3 Ext and extensions

Definition. Let M, N R -modules. An **extension of M by N** is a short exact sequence of R -modules

$$0 \rightarrow N \rightarrow E \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$$

A **map of extensions** is a commutative diagram

$$\begin{array}{ccccccccc} 0 & \longrightarrow & N & \longrightarrow & E & \longrightarrow & M & \longrightarrow & 0 \\ & & \downarrow \varphi_1 & & \downarrow \varphi_2 & & \downarrow \varphi_3 & & \\ 0 & \longrightarrow & N' & \longrightarrow & E' & \longrightarrow & M' & \longrightarrow & 0 \end{array}$$

where φ_i is a commutative diagram.

A map of extensions is an **equivalence** if φ_1 and φ_3 are the identity ($N = N', M = M'$)

$\text{Ext}(M, N)$ is a set of extensions up to equivalence

Facts:

1. $\text{Ext}(M, -)$ is a covariant functor and $\text{Ext}(-, N)$ is a contravariant functor
2. $\text{Ext}(M, N)$ is a group via **Baer sum**

$$\begin{array}{ccccccc}
0 & \rightarrow & N & \rightarrow & E & \rightarrow & M \rightarrow 0 \\
& & & & & & \\
0 & \rightarrow & N & \rightarrow & E' & \rightarrow & M \rightarrow 0 \\
& & & & & & \\
0 & \longrightarrow & N \oplus N & \longrightarrow & E \oplus E' & \longrightarrow & M \oplus M \longrightarrow 0 \\
& & \downarrow + & & \downarrow & & \parallel \\
0 & \longrightarrow & N & \longrightarrow & \tilde{E} & \longrightarrow & M \oplus M \longrightarrow 0 \\
& & \parallel & & & & \uparrow \Delta \\
0 & \longrightarrow & N & \longrightarrow & E + E' & \longrightarrow & M \longrightarrow 0
\end{array}$$

3. $\text{Ext}(M, N)$ is naturally isomorphic to $\text{Ext}^1(M, N)$.

1.6.4 Applications of Tor

Theorem 8. *If M is an R -module, M is flat $\iff$ for all ideals $I \trianglelefteq R$, $I \otimes_R M \rightarrow IM, i \otimes m \mapsto im$ is an isomorphism.*

Proof. Note: $I \otimes_R M \rightarrow IM$ is always surjective.

$(\Rightarrow)$: is by definition. $0 \rightarrow I \rightarrow R$, tensor with M .

$(\Leftarrow)$: $0 \rightarrow N' \rightarrow N$. WTS: $- \otimes_R M$ preserves this. Note: suffices to show this for N, N' finitely generated (every element is contained in a finitely generated submodule)

Consider a sequence

$$N' = N_0 \leq N_1 \leq \cdots \leq N_k = N$$

where each $N_{i+1} = N_i + R\gamma_i$ (add one generator each time). Then

$$N_{i+1}/N_i \cong R/I_i$$

for some ideal $I_i \trianglelefteq R$. Suffices to show: $N_i \otimes M \rightarrow N_{i+1} \otimes M$ is injective for all i .

Theorem 5 $\implies \exists$ exact sequence associated to $0 \rightarrow N_i \rightarrow N_{i+1} \rightarrow N_{i+1}/N_i \rightarrow 0$:

$$\text{Tor}_1(M, N_{i+1}/N_i) \rightarrow N_i \otimes M \rightarrow N_{i+1} \otimes M$$

But $\text{Tor}_1(M, N_{i+1}/N_i) \cong \text{Tor}_1(M, R/I_i) = 0$ by assumption and we also have the exact sequence

$$\text{Tor}_1(M, R/I_i) \rightarrow M \otimes I_i \rightarrow M \otimes R \cong M$$

and the short exact sequence $0 \rightarrow I_i \rightarrow R \rightarrow R/I_i \rightarrow 0$ which proves the claim. $\square$

Corollary 9. *R PID, M R -module. Then M is flat $\iff M$ is torsion-free.*

Proof. M torsion free $\iff M \xrightarrow{a} M$ is injective for all $a \in R$.

The sequence $0 \rightarrow (a) \rightarrow R \rightarrow R/(a) \rightarrow 0$ would then imply $\text{Tor}_1(M, R/(a)) = 0$ for all $a \in R$. Since R is a PID, $\text{Tor}_1(M, R/I) = 0$ for all $I \trianglelefteq R$ and then by Theorem 8, we get that M is flat.

We saw $\Rightarrow$ earlier. $\square$

Theorem 10 (Homological Criterion for Flatness). *Let M be an R -module. TFAE:*

1. M flat
2. $\text{Tor}_i(M, N) = 0$ for all R -modules N and all $i > 0$
3. $\text{Tor}_1(M, N) = 0$ for all R -modules N
4. $\text{Tor}_1(M, R/I) = 0$ for all $I \trianglelefteq R$

Proof. (2) $\implies$ (3) $\implies$ (4) is clear. And (4) $\implies$ (1) is Theorem 8.

Suffices to show (1) $\implies$ (2).

Take $X_\bullet \rightarrow N \rightarrow 0$ projective resolution of N . Then $\cdots \rightarrow X_n \otimes M \rightarrow \cdots \rightarrow X_0 \otimes M \rightarrow 0$ is exact since M is flat. So $\text{Tor}_i(M, N) = 0$ for all $i > 0$. $\square$

1.6.5 Limits

Definition. A partially ordered set A is **directed** if for all $\alpha, \beta \in A$ there is $\gamma \in A$ so that $\alpha \leq \gamma, \beta \leq \gamma$.

If $\mathcal{C}$ is a category, then a **directed system** in $\mathcal{C}$ consists of a directed partially ordered set A and a collection of objects $\{X_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in A}$ in $\mathcal{C}$ and morphism $i_{\alpha\beta} : X_\alpha \rightarrow X_\beta$ for any $\alpha \neq \beta$ so that

1. $i_{\alpha\alpha} = \text{id}_{X_\alpha}$ for all $\alpha \in A$
2. $i_{\beta\gamma} \circ i_{\alpha\beta} = i_{\alpha\gamma}$ when $\alpha \leq \beta \leq \gamma$

Definition. If $\mathcal{C}$ is a category and $(A, \{X_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in A}, \{i_{\alpha\beta}\})$ is a directed system in $\mathcal{C}$, then a **direct limit** if this system is an object X in $\mathcal{C}$ with morphisms $i_\alpha : X_\alpha \rightarrow X$ for all $\alpha \in A$ so that the following holds:

1. If $\alpha \leq \beta$ then

$$\begin{array}{ccc} X_\alpha & \xrightarrow{i_\alpha} & X \\ \downarrow i_{\alpha\beta} & \nearrow i_\beta & \\ X_\beta & & \end{array}$$

commute

2. UMP: Given $Y \in \text{Obj}\mathcal{C}$ with $\varphi_\alpha : X_\alpha \rightarrow Y$ so that

$$\begin{array}{ccc} X_\alpha & \xrightarrow{\varphi_\alpha} & Y \\ \downarrow i_{\alpha\beta} & \nearrow \varphi_\beta & \\ X_\beta & & \end{array}$$

commutes for all $\alpha \leq \beta$ in A , there exists a unique morphism $\varphi : X \rightarrow Y$ so that

$$\begin{array}{ccc} X_\alpha & \xrightarrow{i_\alpha} & X \\ \downarrow \varphi_\alpha & \nearrow \varphi & \\ Y & & \end{array}$$

commutes for all $\alpha \in A$.

Note. If a direct limit exists, it is unique up to isomorphism.

Notation: $\lim_{\alpha} X_\alpha$

Example.

1. $\mathcal{C} = \text{sets}$, $\{X_\alpha\}$ chain of subsets of a set Y , partially ordered by inclusion
Then $\lim_{\alpha} X_\alpha = \bigcup X_\alpha$.
2. $\mathcal{C} = \text{sets}$, $(A, \{X_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in A}, \{i_{\alpha\beta}\})$ arbitrary direct system,

Define $\sim$ on $\bigcup X_\alpha$ as follows:

$$a \in X_\alpha, y \in X_\beta: x \sim y \iff \exists \gamma \in A \text{ so that } i_{\alpha\gamma}(x) = i_{\beta\gamma}(y).$$

This defines an equivalence relation and $\lim_{\alpha} X_\alpha = (\bigcup X_\alpha) / \sim$.

3. $\mathcal{C} = \text{linear algebraic groups over } k$, $X_n = \text{Gl}_n(K)$,

$$\text{Gl}_n(K) \hookrightarrow \text{Gl}_{n+1}(K), A \mapsto \begin{pmatrix} 1 & \\ & A \end{pmatrix}$$

Then $\lim_{\alpha} \text{Gl}_n(K) =: \text{Gl}(K)$.

4. Every R -module is the direct limit of its finitely generated submodules

Definition. Let $\mathcal{C}$ be a category. An **inverse system** in $\mathcal{C}$ consists of a directed set A , a collection of objects $\{X_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in A}$ in $\mathcal{C}$, and morphisms $\pi_{\beta\alpha} : X_\beta \rightarrow X_\alpha$ for all $\alpha \leq \beta$ so that

1. $\pi_{\alpha\alpha} = \text{id}_{X_\alpha}$ for all $\alpha \in A$
2. $\pi_{\beta\alpha} \circ \pi_{\gamma\beta} = \pi_{\gamma\alpha}$ for $\alpha \leq \beta \leq \gamma$

An **inverse limit** of an inverse system $(A, \{X_\alpha\}, \{\pi_{\beta\alpha}\})$ is an object X in $\mathcal{C}$ together with morphisms $\pi_\alpha : X \rightarrow X_\alpha$ for $\alpha \in A$ such that

1. For $\alpha \leq \beta$,

$$\begin{array}{ccc} X & \xrightarrow{\pi_\alpha} & X_\alpha \\ \downarrow \pi_\beta & \nearrow \pi_{\beta\alpha} & \\ X_\beta & & \end{array}$$

commutes

2. UMP: Given $Y \in \text{Obj}\mathcal{C}$ together with $\varphi_\alpha : Y \rightarrow X_\alpha$ so that

$$\begin{array}{ccc} Y & \xrightarrow{\varphi_\alpha} & X_\alpha \\ \downarrow \varphi_\beta & \nearrow \pi_{\beta\alpha} & \\ X_\beta & & \end{array}$$

commutes, there exists a unique morphism $\varphi : Y \rightarrow X$ so that

$$\begin{array}{ccc} Y & \xrightarrow{\varphi} & X \\ \downarrow \varphi_\alpha & \nwarrow \pi_\alpha & \\ X_\alpha & & \end{array}$$

commutes for all $\alpha \in A$.

Note.

1. If it exists, it is unique up to isomorphism. Notation: $\lim_{\leftarrow \alpha} X_\alpha$.
2. Inverse limits exist in many categories (sets, groups, rings, etc.)
 $\lim_{\leftarrow} X_\alpha = \{(X_\alpha) \in \prod X_\alpha \mid \pi_{\beta\alpha}(X_\beta) = X_\alpha \text{ for all } \alpha \leq \beta\}$.

Example.

1. $X_n = \mathbb{Z}/p^n\mathbb{Z}, n \geq 0, p$ prime. Then $\{X_n\}$ defines an inverse system over $\mathbb{N}$ with $\pi_{mn} : X_m \rightarrow X_n$ the natural epimorphism

$\lim_{\leftarrow} \mathbb{Z}/p^n\mathbb{Z} = \mathbb{Z}_p$ p -adic integers

$$a \in \mathbb{Z}_p \implies a = (a_1, \dots) = b_0 + b_1p + b_2p^2 + \dots, b_0 = a_1, b_n = \frac{a_{n+1} - a_n}{p^n}$$

2. R ring, I ideal
 $R_n := R/I^n, n \geq 0$
 $\{R_n\}_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$ inverse system over $\mathbb{N}$ with $\pi_{mn} : R_m \rightarrow R_n$ natural epimorphism
 $\lim_{\leftarrow} R_n := \hat{R}_I$ is the **I -adic completion**
3. Index set $A = \mathbb{N}, X_n = \mathbb{N}$ all n
 $\pi_{mn} : X_m \rightarrow X_n, x \mapsto x + (m - n)$
Check: $\lim_{\leftarrow} X_n = \emptyset$
4. G group, $\mathcal{N}$ = set of normal subgroups of finite index, ordered by reverse inclusion
 $(\mathcal{N}, \{G/N\}_{N \in \mathcal{N}}, \{\pi_{K,N}\})$ inverse system
 $\pi_{K,N} : G/K \rightarrow G/N$ epimorphism for $N \subseteq K$
 $\hat{G} := \lim_{\leftarrow \mathcal{N}} G/N$ is the **profinite completion of G**

Some applications:

Can show that $\text{Tor}_1(-, N)$ commutes with direct limits

$$\text{Tor}_1^R(\lim_{\rightarrow} M_i, N) = \lim_{\rightarrow} \text{Tor}_1^R(M_i, N) \quad (*)$$

Theorem 11. $M = \lim_{\rightarrow} M_i, M_i$ flat R -modules $\implies M$ is flat.

Proof. (*) $\text{Tor}_1^R(M, N) = \lim_{\rightarrow} \text{Tor}_1^R(M_i, N) = 0$ by homological criterion for flatness
So by the homological criterion again, M is flat. □

Fact: M an R -module:

M is flat $\iff M$ is the direct limit of finitely generated free submodules.

2 Commutative Rings

All rings are commutative with 1.

2.1 Integral extensions revisited

2.1.1 Integrality and finiteness

Definition. $A \subseteq B$ rings. We say that B is **finite** over A if B is a finitely generated A -module.

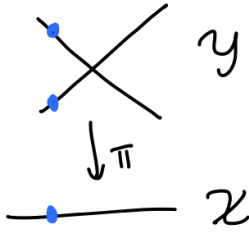
Geometric examples. $A = \mathbb{C}[x],$

$B = \mathbb{C}[x][y]/(f) = A[y]/(f), f \in A[y] \setminus A$ polynomial

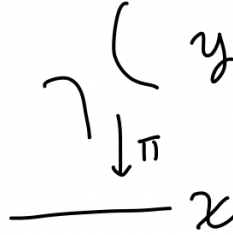
$\mathcal{X} = \mathbb{A}^1$ affine line, $\mathcal{Y}$ = curve associated with B

$A \hookrightarrow B$ corresponds to $\pi : \mathcal{Y} \rightarrow \mathcal{X}$

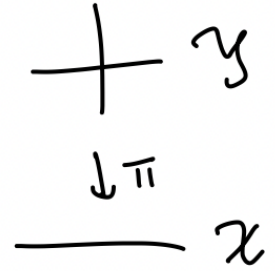
In (a), we have a monic relation so $\bar{y}$ is integral over A (we will soon show that B is integral over A)



Case (a): $f = y^2 - x^2$



Case (b): $f = xy - 1$



Case (c): $f = xy$

Geometrically any value of x gives a quadratic equation so we get 2 points in the preimage (when counted with multiplicity)

In (b), the equation is not monic and cannot be rewritten as monic. So $\bar{y}$ is not integral over $A \implies B$ is not integral over A

Geometrically, $x \neq 0$ works fine, the relation is linear. But $x = 0$ is constant.

$$|\pi^{-1}(x)| = \begin{cases} 1, & x \neq 0 \\ 0, & x = 0 \end{cases}$$

(c) is not integral, not linear when $x = 0$, but $|\pi^{-1}(0)| = \infty$

What we should expect: integral extension $\rightarrow$ morphism which is surjective with finite fibers

Proposition 1. B/A ring extension:

B is finite over $A \iff B = A[b_1, \dots, b_n]$ for some $b_i \in B$ which are integral over A

Proof. $(\Rightarrow) : B = \sum_{i=1}^n Ab_i$ finitely generated A -module $\implies B = A[b_1, \dots, b_n]$.

Let $b \in B$. Consider $\varphi : B \rightarrow B, x \mapsto xb$. By Cayley-Hamilton, there exists $\varphi^{+c_{k-1}}\varphi^{k-1} + \dots + c_0 \cdot \text{id} = 0 \in \text{Hom}_A(B, B), c_i \in A$.

$b = \varphi(1) \implies$ plug in 1 : get $\varphi(1)^k + c_{k-1}\varphi(1)^{k-1} + \dots + c_0 = 0 \implies b^k + c_{k-1}b^{k-1} + \dots + c_0 = 0 \implies b$ is integral over A .

$(\Leftarrow) : B = A[b_1, \dots, b_n]$ with b_i integral over $A \implies$ for $b \in B, b = \sum c_I b^I, I = (i_1, \dots, i_n), c_I \in A, b^I = b^{i_1} \dots b^{i_n}$.

The b_i satisfy monic relations of degree $r_i \implies I = (i_1, \dots, i_n) \leq (r_1, \dots, r_n)$ for all $I \implies B$ is a finitely-generated A -module. $\square$

Proposition 2. $A \leq B \leq C$ rings,

1. $A \leq B, B \leq C$ finite $\implies A \leq C$ is finite

2. $A \leq B, B \leq C$ integral $\implies A \leq C$ is integral

Proof. 1. clear

2. $c \in C \implies c^n + b_{n-1}c^{n-1} + \dots + b_0 = 0$ some $b_i \in B \implies c$ is integral over $A[b_0, \dots, b_{n-1}] =: \tilde{A} \implies$ by (1), $\tilde{A}$ over A is finite $\implies \tilde{A}[c]$ over A is finite $\implies$ by Prop 1, c is integral over A .

□

Proposition 3. $A \leq B$ integral

1. $I \leq B \implies B/I$ is integral over $A/A \cap I$
2. If $S \subseteq A$ is multiplicatively closed, $S^{-1}B$ over $S^{-1}A$ is integral
3. $A[x] \leq B[x]$ is integral

Proof. exercise

□

Example. $A = k[\mathcal{X}]$ coordinate ring of some irreducible affine algebraic set $\mathcal{X}$
 $k(\mathcal{X})$ fraction field of A

What does it mean for A to be integrally closed?

$f \in k[\mathcal{X}] \implies f = \frac{f_1}{f_2}, f_i \in A$ well-defined except at $\{x \in \mathcal{X} \mid f_2(x) = 0\}$

$k[\mathcal{X}]$ integrally closed $\iff$ every rational function that satisfies a monic relation over $k[\mathcal{X}]$ is well-defined on all of $\mathcal{X}$

1. $A = \mathbb{C}[x], \mathcal{X} = \mathbb{A}_{\mathbb{C}}^1$
 A is a UFD, so is integrally closed
 Geometrically, if $f \in K(\mathcal{X})$ is not well-defined on all of $\mathcal{X}$ it has a pole, so cannot be integral over $k[\mathcal{X}]$
2. $\mathcal{X} = V(y^2 - x^2 - x^3) \subseteq \mathbb{A}_{\mathbb{R}}^2$
 $A = k[\mathcal{X}] = \mathbb{R}[x, y]/(y^2 - x^2 - x^3)$

$f = \frac{y}{x} \in k(\mathcal{X}), (\frac{y}{x})^2 - x - 1 = 0$ is a monic relation over A

So A is not integrally closed.

Think of not being integrally closed as related to singularities

3. A as in (2)
 $L = \text{Quot}(A)$
 $t = \frac{y}{x} \in L$. One may show:

$$A^c = A[t] = (\mathbb{R}[x, y]/(y^2 - x^2 - x^3)) \left[\frac{y}{x} \right] \cong \mathbb{R}[t]$$

$$t^2 = \left(\frac{y}{x}\right)^2 = 1 + x, \quad (t^2 - 1)t = y$$

So $A = \mathbb{R}[t^2 - 1, t^3 - t]$

$A \hookrightarrow A^c$ corresponds to $a \mapsto (a^2 - 1, a^3 - a), \{\pm 1\} \mapsto (0, 0)$ (think of wrapping the interval around in a loop)

Goal: Study prime ideals in integral extensions

2.1.2 Lying over and incomparability

Recall: $A \leq B$ rings, $P \trianglelefteq A \implies P^e = PB \trianglelefteq B$

$Q \trianglelefteq B \implies Q^c = Q \cap A \trianglelefteq A$

Q prime $\implies Q \cap A$ prime

Proposition 4 (Lying Over). $A \leq B, P \trianglelefteq A$ prime

1. $P = Q \cap A$ for some $Q \trianglelefteq B$ prime $\iff PB \cap A \leq P$

In this case, we say Q "lies over" P

2. If $A \leq B$ is integral, this is always the case (Q always lies over P)

Proof. 1. Proved last semester

2. $f \in PB \cap A \implies f = p_1 b_1 + \dots + p_k b_k, b_i \in B, p_i \in P \implies f \in PB' \cap A$ where $B' = A[b_1, \dots, b_k]$, which is finite over A by Proposition 1.

So B' is a finitely generated A -module. Consider: $\varphi : B' \rightarrow B', b \mapsto fb \implies \text{Im}(\varphi) \subseteq PB'$

(Strong version of) Cayley-Hamilton $\implies \varphi^n + a_{n-1}\varphi^{n-1} + \dots + a_0 \cdot \text{id} = 0 \in \text{Hom}_A(B', B')$, coefficients $a_i \in P$

$\implies \varphi(1)^n + a_{n-1}\varphi(1)^{n-1} + \dots + a_0 = 0$.

$f^n + a_{n-1}f^{n-1} + \dots + a_0 = 0 \implies f^n \in P \implies f \in P$, since P is prime.

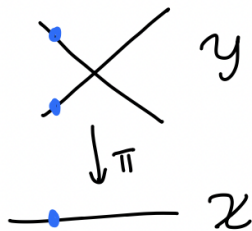
□

Geometric examples. $A = \mathbb{C}[x]$,

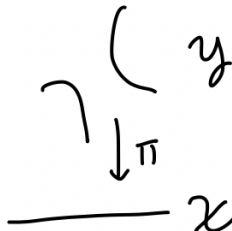
$B = \mathbb{C}[x][y]/(f) = A[y]/(f), f \in A[y] \setminus A$ polynomial

$\mathcal{X} = \mathbb{A}^1$ affine line, $\mathcal{Y}$ = curve associated with B

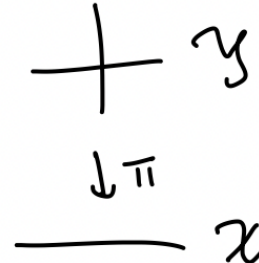
$A \hookrightarrow B$ corresponds to $\pi : \mathcal{Y} \rightarrow \mathcal{X}$



Case (a): $f = y^2 - x^2$



Case (b): $f = xy - 1$



Case (c): $f = xy$

In (a), we have lying over (every P has two Q 's)

In (b), at 0 we have a P with no Q , so we do not have lying over.

In (c), at 0 we have a P with infinitely many Q 's. But we still do have lying over.

Proposition 5 (Incomparability). $A \leq B$ integral. If Q, Q' are distinct prime ideals in B and $Q \cap A = Q' \cap A$ then $Q' \not\subseteq Q$ and $Q \not\subseteq Q'$.

Proof. Assume $Q \subseteq Q'$. Suppose for contradiction that there exists $f \in Q' \setminus Q$.

Then B/Q is integral over $A/Q \cap A = A/P$. (Prop 3).

Then we have $\bar{f}^n + \bar{a}_{n-1}\bar{f}^{n-1} + \cdots + \bar{f}_0 = 0$ in B/Q with $\bar{a}_i \in A/P, a_i \in A$

Without loss of generality, assume n is minimal. $f \in Q' \implies \bar{a}_0 \in Q^c \cap A/Q \cap A = 0$.

This contradicts the minimality of n (B/Q is a domain since Q is prime). $\square$

Proposition 6 (Going up). $A \subseteq B$ integral extension, $P \subseteq P' \trianglelefteq A$ prime, $Q \trianglelefteq B$ prime so that $Q \cap A = P$. Then there exists Q' prime in B so that $Q \subseteq Q', Q' \cap A = P$.

Proof. B/A integral $\implies B/Q$ is integral over A/p by Prop 3.

Applying lying over to P'/P to get Q'/P and hence Q' (check details). $\square$

For L/K field extension, $\alpha \in L$ algebraic over K , we get m_α minimal polynomial of α over K .

Lemma 7. Let $A \leq B$ be an integral extension of integral domains so that A is integrally closed in $\text{Quot}(A) =: K$.

1. $b \in B \implies m_b \in A[x]$ i.e. the minimal polynomial has coefficients in A
2. If $b \in PB$ for some $P \trianglelefteq A$ then the coefficients of m_b except for the leading one are in P

Proof. Exercise $\square$

Proposition 8 (Going down). $A \leq B$ integral extension of integral domains, A integrally closed

$P \subseteq P'$ prime in A , $Q' \trianglelefteq B$ prime lying over $P' \implies \exists Q \trianglelefteq B$ prime so that $Q \subseteq Q'$ and Q lies over P .

Proof. $B \mapsto B_{Q'}$ is injective since B is a domain. So view A, B as subrings of $B_{Q'}$. $Q'B_{Q'}$ is the maximal ideal in $Q'B_0$.

Prop 4.1 $\implies$ it suffices to show that $PB_{Q'} \cap A \subseteq P$ (then the ideal lying over P in $B_{Q'}$ will contract to the desired ideal in B)

Let $0 \neq f \in PB_{Q'} \cap A$, $f = \frac{p}{s}$, $p \in PB$, $s \in B \setminus Q'$.

By Lemma 7, the minimal polynomial m_p of p over $\text{Quot}(A)$ looks like

$$m_p(X) = X^n + a_{n-1}X^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1X + a_0$$

for $a_i \in P$ (and irreducible).

Let

$$\tilde{m} = X^n + \frac{a_{n-1}}{f}X^{n-1} + \cdots + \frac{a_1}{f^{n-1}}X + \frac{a_0}{f^n} = \frac{1}{f^n}m_p(f - X)$$

Note that $\tilde{m}$ is also irreducible and monic, but $\tilde{m}(s) = m_s$ is the minimal polynomial of s over $\text{Quot}(A) \implies$ by Lemma, 7 m_s has coefficients in A since $s \in B$ is integral over A .

Assume for contradiction that $f \notin P$. $f^i \cdot \frac{a_{n-i}}{f^i} = a_{n-i} \in P$. So $\frac{a_{n-i}}{f^i} \in P$ for all i . Hence $s^n \in PB \subseteq P'B = Q' \implies s \in Q' \rightarrow \leftarrow$. So $f \in P$. $\square$

2.2 Dimension

2.2.1 Definition and basic properties

Definition. The **Krull dimension** of a ring R is the maximal $n \in \mathbb{N}$ such that there is a chain of prime ideals

$$P_0 \subsetneq P_1 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq P_n$$

of length n in R (or ∞ if no such n exists)

The **codimension** / **height** of a prime ideal P is the maximal $n \in \mathbb{N}$ so that there is a chain as above with $P_n \subsetneq P$.

Notation: $\dim R, \text{codim}_R P = \text{codim} P$.

“Maximal chain of prime ideals” means it cannot be extended

Lemma 1. R ring, $P \trianglelefteq R$ prime.

1. $\text{codim} P = \dim R_P$
2. $\dim R \geq \dim(R/P) + \dim R_P$
3. $\dim R = \sup\{\dim R_P \mid P \trianglelefteq R \text{ maximal}\} = \sup\{\text{codim} P \mid P \trianglelefteq R \text{ maximal}\}$

Proof. (1), (2) we proved last semester

(3): $P_0 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq P_n$ chain of maximal ideals containing $P_n \implies$ localized chain in R_P has same length and conversely. $\square$

Lemma 2. If R is a ring of finite dimension in which all maximal chains of prime ideals have the same length and $P \trianglelefteq R$ is prime:

1. R/P is also a ring of finite dimension in which all maximal chains of prime ideals have the same length
2. $\dim R = \dim R/P + \dim R_P$
3. $\dim R_P = \dim R$ if P is maximal

Proof. A chain of prime ideals in R/P corresponds to a chain $Q_0 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq Q_r$ of prime ideals in R containing $P \implies \dim R/P \leq \dim R < \infty$

If the chain in R/P is maximal, $Q_0 = P$, hence it can be extended to a maximal chain $P_0 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq P_m = P = Q_0 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq Q_r$ of prime ideals in R . So $\text{codim} P \geq m$, $\dim R/P \geq r \implies \dim R = m + p$ by assumption.

By Lemma 1, $\text{codim} P = m$ and $\dim R/P = r$. This shows (1) and (2).

For (3), P maximal $\implies \dim R/P = 0 \implies \dim R_P = \dim R - 0 = \dim R$. $\square$

Lemma 3. $R \leq S$ integral extension of rings $\implies \dim R = \dim S$.

Proof. $\dim R \leq \dim S$:

Take a chain of ideals $P_0 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq P_n$ in R .

Lying over for P_0 and successively going up gives $Q_0 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq Q_n$ such that Q_i lies over P_i .

The inclusions must all be strict $\implies \dim R \leq \dim S$.

For $\geq$: Let $Q_0 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq Q_n$ be a chain of prime inclusions in S . Let $P_i := Q_i \cap R$. This gives a chain of prime ideals in R . The inclusions must be strict in our new chain by incomparability. So $\dim S \leq \dim R$. $\square$

Proposition 4. Let K be a field.

1. $\dim K[x_1, \dots, x_n] = n$
2. All maximal chains in $K[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ have length n

Proof. Induction on n :

$n = 0$ ✓

$n \geq 1$: Let $P_0 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq P_m$ be a chain of prime ideals in $K[x_1, \dots, x_n]$. We want to show that $m \geq n$ and $m = n$ if the chain is maximal.

Without loss of generality, assume $P_0 = 0$, P_1 is a minimal prime ideal, and P_m is a maximal prime (extend chain if necessary).

$f \in P_1$ irreducible $\implies f$ is prime, since we are in a UFD $\implies (f)$ is a nonzero prime ideal contained in $P_1 \implies (f) = P_1$ by minimality.

Assume that f is monic in X_n (do a variable change as in the proof of Noether normalization).

$K[x_1, \dots, x_n]/P_1 = K[x_1, \dots, x_n]/(f)$ is integral over $K[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ by Prop 1.1.

Then given $P_1 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq P_m$, mod out by P_1 to get $P_1/P_1 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq P_m/P_1$ in $B = K[x_1, \dots, x_n]/(f)$. Letting $Q_i := P_i/P_1 \cap K[x_1, \dots, x_n]$, this chain corresponds to a chain $Q_1 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq Q_m$ in $A = K[x_1, \dots, x_{n-1}]$.

The extension to the quotient $K[x_1, \dots, x_n] \rightarrow B$ preserves prime ideals, strict inclusions, and maximal chains (we proved this last semester).

The contraction $B \rightarrow A$ preserves prime ideals and strict inclusions (by incomparability).

We just need to show that the contraction $B \rightarrow A$ preserves maximal chains. There are 3 possible ways to extend a chain:

1. Left: but $Q_1 = 0$ so we cannot extend on the left
2. Right: $P_m/P_1 = Q'_m$ is maximal in $B \implies B/Q'_m$ is a field. B/Q'_m is integral over A/Q_m (integrality is preserved by quotients) so A/Q_m is a field $\implies Q_m$ is maximal. So we cannot extend on the right.
3. Middle: If $Q_0 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq Q_m$ were extendable in the middle, once can show that $P_1/P_1 \subsetneq \cdots P_m/P_1$ would also be extendable. We will leave this as an exercise.

Thus $Q_0 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq Q_m$ is maximal. By induction, $m - 1 \leq n - 1$ with equality if the chain is maximal. $\square$

Corollary 5. *A finitely generated K -algebra, K field $\implies A$ has finite dimension. If A is also a domain, every maximal chain of prime ideals has length $\dim A$.*

Note. There exist Noetherian rings of infinite Krull dimension, and there exist non-Noetherian rings of finite Krull dimension (e.g. $K[x_1, \dots]/(x_1^2, x_2^2, \dots)$ has dimension 0).

2.2.2 Artinian rings

Proposition 6. *R artinian ring.*

1. *There are maximal ideals $P_1, \dots, P_m \trianglelefteq R$ such that $P_1 \cdots P_m = 0$ (not necessarily distinct)*
2. *R has only finitely many prime ideals. All of them are maximal and occur in (1)*

Proof. 1. Let $S = \{P_1 \cdots P_n \mid P_i \text{ maximal}, n \in \mathbb{N}\}$.

R has maximal ideals so $S \neq \emptyset$.

Let $I = P_1 \cdots P_m$ be a minimal element of S (which exists since R is artinian).

$I^2 \in S$ and $I^2 \subseteq I \implies I^2 = 0$ (by minimality)

Let $P \trianglelefteq R$ be any maximal ideal. Then $PI \in S$ and $PI \subseteq I \implies PI = I$ (again by minimality)

Thus I is contained in every maximal ideal: $I = PI \subseteq P \cap I \subseteq P$.

Now suppose for contradiction that $I \neq 0$. R artinian $\implies \exists J \trianglelefteq R$ minimal such that $IJ \neq 0$. J is generated by any $b \in J$ with $I \cdot (b) \neq 0$ (by minimality).

So $IJ \cdot I = I^2 \cdot J = I \cdot J \neq 0 \implies IJ = J$ by minimality.

Then by Nakayama's Lemma, we get $a \in I$ such that $(1 - a)J = 0$.

Note: $J \neq 0 \implies 1 - a \in R^\times \implies (1 - a) \neq R \implies (1 - a) \subseteq P \implies 1 \in P \rightarrow \leftarrow$.

2. Let $P \leq R$ be any prime ideal. Suppose $P_1, \dots, P_m$ are as in (1) and assume (for contradiction) that $P_i \not\subseteq P$ for all i . Then there exist $a_1, \dots, a_m$ with $a_i \in P_i \setminus P$ for all i . Then $a_1 \cdots a_m \in P_1 \cdots P_m = 0 \subseteq P \rightarrow \leftarrow (P \text{ prime})$.
So $P_i \subseteq P$ for some $i \implies P_i = P$ by maximality. □

Corollary 7. $R \text{ artinian} \implies \dim R = 0$.

Theorem 8 (Hopkins). $R \text{ Artinian} \iff R \text{ noetherian of dimension } 0$.
In particular, every Artinian ring is Noetherian.

Note. This is not true for R -modules.

Proof. $(\implies) : P_1 \cdots P_m = 0$ as in Proposition 6 $\implies Q_i := P_{i+1} \cdots P_m, \quad i = 0, \dots, m \implies 0 = Q_0 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq Q_m = R$.

$Q_i/Q_{i-1} = Q_i/P_i Q_i$ is Artinian as a module, since Q_i is and $Q_i \leq R$. But Q_i/Q_{i-1} is also an R/P_i -vector space (since P_i is maximal). So it is also Noetherian as an R/P_i -vector space and then as an R/P_i -module.

Inductively, this shows Q_i is a Noetherian R -module for all i . Hence $Q_m = R$ is Noetherian. Moreover, R has dimension 0 by Corollary 7.

$(\impliedby) :$ Assume R is Noetherian but not Artinian. We will show: there exists $P \leq R$ prime which is not maximal ($\implies \dim R \geq 1$).

Let $S = \{I \leq R \mid R/I \text{ is not Artinian}\}$. Note $0 \in S$ so $S \neq \emptyset$.

R Noetherian $\implies S$ has maximal element P .

Note: P is not a maximal ideal, since R/P is not Artinian. So it suffices to show that P is prime i.e. $\overline{R} := R/P$ is a domain.

Let $a \in R$. Consider the following short exact sequence induced by $\cdot a$:

$$0 \rightarrow \overline{R}/\text{Ann}(\overline{a}) \rightarrow \overline{R} \rightarrow \overline{R}/(\overline{a}) \rightarrow 0$$

$\overline{R}$ is not Artinian, so either $\overline{R}/\text{Ann}(\overline{a})$ is not Artinian or $\overline{R}/(\overline{a})$ is not Artinian.

But these are both quotients of R/P , and proper quotients of R/P are Artinian.

Hence $\text{Ann}(\overline{a}) = 0$ or $(\overline{a}) = 0 \implies R/P$ is a domain $\implies P$ is prime. □

Example. Let $I = (a)$ be a nonzero prime ideal in a PID R .

So $a = p_1^{a_1} \cdots p_m^{a_m}$ where $a_i \in \mathbb{N}_{>0}$ and p_i are distinct prime elements

Let $S = R/I$. We recall that ideals in S

$\leftrightarrow$ ideals in R containing I

$\leftrightarrow b \in R$ so that $b \mid a$

$\leftrightarrow b = p_1^{b_1} \cdots p_n^{b_n}$ so that $b_i \leq a_i$ for all i

So S has finitely many ideals, hence is Noetherian and Artinian.

R PID $\implies$ every nonzero prime ideal is maximal $\implies \dim S = 0$.

Maximal ideals in S are of the form $(\overline{p_i})$ for $i = 1, \dots, n$ and $(\overline{p_1})^{a_1} \cdots (\overline{p_n})^{a_n} = 0$.

This checks all statements of Prop 6 and Theorem 8.

Theorem 9 (Structure Theorem for Artinian Rings). *Every Artinian ring is a finite product of Artinian local rings. More precisely, let $P_1, \dots, P_n$ be the distinct maximal ideals of R as in Prop 6. Then R_{P_i} is Artinian for all i and $R \cong R_{P_1} \times \cdots \times R_{P_n}$.*

Proof. By Prop 6, $P_1^k \cdots P_n^k = 0$ for some $k \in \mathbb{N}$. Since P_i are pairwise coprime, P_i^k are pairwise coprime ($\sqrt{P_i^k + P_j^k} \supseteq P_i + P_j = 1$)

By Prop II.1.7.1 from last semester, $R \cong R/P_1^k \times \cdots \times R/P_n^k$.

R/P_i^k is Artinian, so suffices to show that $R/P_i^k \cong R_{P_i}$ for all $i = 1, \dots, n$. Without loss of generality, consider $i = 1$.

Consider $R \rightarrow R_{P_1}, a \mapsto \frac{a}{1}$. This has kernel containing P_1^k :

$a \in P_1^k \implies$ choose $a_j \in P_j \setminus P_1, j = 2, \dots, n \implies u := a_2^k \cdots a_n^k \notin P_1$ but $a \cdot u \in P_1^k \cdots P_n^k = 0 \implies \frac{a}{1} = 0$ in R_{P_1} .

So $\varphi : R/P_1^k \rightarrow R_{P_1}, \bar{a} \mapsto \frac{a}{1}$ is well-defined.

We may construct an inverse as follows: $R \xrightarrow{\pi} R/P_1^k, a \mapsto \bar{a}$ maps $u \in R \setminus P_1$ to a unit (otherwise $u \in P$ for some $P/P_1^k \trianglelefteq R/P_1^k$ maximal $\implies P \supseteq P_1 \implies P = P_1$ since P is maximal $\implies u \in P_1 \rightarrow \leftarrow$).

Hence π induces a homomorphism $\psi : R_{P_1} \rightarrow R/P_1^k, \frac{a}{1} \mapsto \bar{a}$ which is an inverse to φ . $\square$

Note. Now it is easy to prove Corollary I.5.18: If R is a ring with $m_1 \cdots m_k = 0$ for maximal $m_i \trianglelefteq R$ then R is Artinian $\iff R$ is Noetherian.

2.2.3 Krull's principal ideal theorem

Definition. $P \trianglelefteq R$ prime ideal: $P^{(k)} := \{a \in R \mid ab \in P^k \text{ some } b \in R \setminus P\}$ is called the **k-th symbolic power of P**

Lemma 10. $P \trianglelefteq R$ prime, $k \in \mathbb{N}$

1. $P^k \subseteq P^{(k)} \subseteq P$
2. $P^{(k)}$ is P -primary
3. $P^{(k)} R_P = P^k R_P$

Note. P^k need not be primary.

One can show: $P^{(k)}$ is the smallest primary ideal containing P^k . (HW 10 last semester)

Proof. 1. $P^k \subseteq P^{(k)}$ by definition
 $a \in P^{(k)} \implies ab \in P^k$ some $b \notin P \implies a \in P$ since P is prime

2. $P = \sqrt{P} = \sqrt{P^k} \subseteq \sqrt{P^{(k)}} \subseteq \sqrt{P} = P \implies \sqrt{P^{(k)}} = P$.
 $ab \in P^{(k)} \implies abc \in P^k$ some $c \notin P$
If $b \notin \sqrt{P^{(k)}} = P$ then $bc \notin P \implies a \in P^{(k)}$ by definition $\implies (2)$.

3. $\frac{b}{s} \in P^{(k)} R_P \implies bc \in P^k$ some $c \notin P \implies \frac{b}{s} = \frac{bc}{sc} \in P^k R_P$.
The reverse inclusion is clear.

□

Theorem 11 (Krull's principal ideal theorem). R Noetherian ring, $a \in R$.
 $P \supseteq (a)$ minimal prime ideal $\implies \text{codim} P \leq 1$.

Proof. $Q' \subseteq Q \subsetneq P$ chain of prime ideals. WTS: $Q' = Q$.

First step: reduce to nice R .

Given $Q' \subseteq Q \subsetneq P$ in R , reduce mod Q' to get

$0 \subseteq Q/Q' \subsetneq P/Q'$ in R/Q' . Now localize at P to get

$0 \subseteq (Q/Q')_P \subsetneq (P/Q')_P$ in $(R/Q')_P$.

R/Q' is Noetherian as an R -module and hence as an R/Q' -module. So $(R/Q')_P$ is Noetherian (by HW problem).

So we may replace R with $(R/Q')_P$ and assume that $0 \subseteq Q \subsetneq P$, R is a domain, local with maximal ideal P . WTS: $Q = 0$.

Consider the symbolic powers $Q^{(k)}$ of Q . It is clear that $Q^{(n+1)} \subseteq Q^{(n)}$ for all n .

Second step: show $Q^{(n)} = Q^{(n+1)}$ for large n .

$R/(a)$ has dimension 0 (because P is both a minimal prime and maximal ideal) and is noetherian, so by Theorem 8, $R/(a)$ is Artinian.

Thus

$$(Q^{(0)} + (a))/(a) \supseteq (Q^{(1)} + (a))/(a) \supseteq \cdots$$

stabilizes, meaning

$$(Q^{(n)} + (a))/(a) = (Q^{(n+1)} + (a))/(a)$$

for large n . So $Q^{(n)} + (a) \subseteq Q^{(n+1)} + (a)$. (*)

We claim: $Q^{(n)} = Q^{(n+1)} + PQ^{(n)}$.

$\supseteq$ is clear by definition.

For $\subseteq$, let $b \in Q^{(n)}$. Then (*) $\implies b = c + ar$ where $c \in Q^{(n+1)}$ and $r \in R$. So $ar = b - c \in Q^{(n)}$. But $a \notin Q$ (P was minimal over (a) and $Q \subsetneq P$). So $r \in Q^{(n)}$ by Lemma 10 ($Q^{(n)}$ is Q -primary), meaning $b \in Q^{(n+1)} + PQ^{(n)}$. This proves the claim.

So $Q^{(n)} = Q^{(n+1)} + PQ^{(n)}$ for large n . Then

$$Q^{(n)}/Q^{(n+1)} \cong PQ^{(n)}/Q^{(n+1)}.$$

So by Local Nakayama, $Q^{(n)}/Q^{(n+1)} = 0$, meaning $Q^{(n)} = Q^{(n+1)}$.

Final step: We know that $Q^{(n)} = Q^{(n+1)}$. So by Lemma 10, $Q^{(n)}R_Q = Q^{(n+1)}R_Q = Q(Q^n R_Q)$. Thus by Local Nakayama, $Q^n R_Q = 0$. Since R is a domain, R_Q is a domain. So we must have $Q = 0$. $\square$

Corollary 12. *Let R be Noetherian, $a \in R$ not a zero-divisor, $P \supseteq (a)$ minimal prime. Then $\text{codim}P = 1$.*

Proof. Let $P_1, \dots, P_n$ be the minimal primes over (0) (these are the isolated ideals in $\text{Ass}(I)$).

Write $P_i = \sqrt{(0 : b_i)}$ for some (nonzero) $b_i \in R$. Suppose $a \in P_i$ for some i . Then $a^r b_i = 0$ for some r . Without loss of generality choose r minimally. Then $a(a^{r-1}b_i) = 0 = 0 \rightarrow \leftarrow$. So $a \notin P_i$ for all i .

Since $a \in P$, P is not minimal over (0) . Then $\text{codim}P \geq 1$. This along with Theorem 11 $\implies \text{codim}P = 1$. $\square$

Corollary 13. *R Noetherian, $a_1, \dots, a_n \in R$, $P \supseteq (a_1, \dots, a_n)$ minimal prime $\implies \text{codim}P \leq n$.*

Proof. Homework. $\square$

Example. $\mathcal{X} = V(x^2 + y^2 - 1) \subseteq \mathbb{A}_{\mathbb{R}}^2$.

$\dim \mathcal{X} \equiv \dim k[\mathcal{X}] = \dim \mathbb{R}[x, y]/(x^2 + y^2 - 1)$.

Let $a = x^2 + y^2 - 1$. Then $(x^2 + y^2 - 1)$ is a minimal prime in $\mathbb{R}[x, y]$ containing (a) and a is not a zero-divisor. So by Corollary 12, $\text{codim}(x^2 + y^2 - 1) = 1$. Then

$$\dim (\mathbb{R}[x, y]/(x^2 + y^2 - 1)) = \dim \mathbb{R}[x, y] - \text{codim}(x^2 + y^2 - 1) = 2 - 1 = 1.$$

2.2.4 Dimension and transcendence degree

Recall:

Definition. $K \subseteq L$ field extension, $B \subseteq L$.

Let $K(B)$ denote the smallest subfield of L containing B and K .

B is **algebraically dependent** over K if there exists a nonzero polynomial $f \in K[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ for some n with $f(b_1, \dots, b_n) = 0$ for distinct $b_i \in B$.

Otherwise B is **algebraically independent**.

If B is algebraically independent and every element of L is algebraic over $K(B)$ then B is a **transcendence basis**.

Proposition 14. *Let $K \subseteq L$ be a field extension.*

Let $A \subseteq L$ be algebraically independent over K .

Let $C \subseteq L$ so that L is algebraic over $K(C)$.

Then there exists a transcendence basis B of L over K such that $A \subseteq B$ and $B \setminus A \subseteq C$.

In particular, every field extension has a transcendence basis.

If L has a finite transcendence basis, then all are finite of the same length.

Proof. Let $\mathcal{M} := \{B \mid B \text{ is algebraically independent, } A \subseteq B \subseteq A \cup C\}$.

$A \in \mathcal{M}$ so $\mathcal{M} \neq \emptyset$.

Apply Zorn's Lemma. $\mathcal{M}$ has a maximal element B_0 . By construction, B_0 is algebraically independent and by maximality, $K(C)/K(B_0)$ is algebraic.

We know that $L/K(C)$ is algebraic, so $L/K(B_0)$ is algebraic.

Now let B be a finite transcendence basis of L : $B = \{b_1, \dots, b_n\}$, $|B| = n$.

Let B' be another transcendence basis. Suffices to show: $|B'| \leq n$. Proof by induction on n :

If $n = 0$, $\checkmark$.

If $n > 0$: If $B' \subseteq B$ there is nothing to show. So let $b \in B' \setminus B$. Note: b is not algebraic over K .

Take $A = \{b\}$, $C = B$. There exists a transcendence basis $B'' = \{b, b'_1, \dots, b'_k\}$ where $b'_i \in B \setminus \{b\}$. Note that $k \leq n - 1$ since $\{b, b_1, \dots, b_n\}$ is algebraically independent.

So $B' \setminus \{b\}$, and $B'' \setminus \{b\}$ are transcendence bases of L over $K(b)$. Thus

$$|B' \setminus \{b\}| \leq |B'' \setminus \{b\}| \leq n - 1 \implies |B'| \leq n$$

(where the first inequality is by induction and the second is because $k \leq n - 1$). $\square$

Definition. The **transcendence degree of L over K** is $\text{trdeg}(L/K) := \text{trdeg}_K(L) := |B|$ where B is a transcendence basis of L/K ($= \infty$ if no finite B exists).

Example.

1. $\text{trdeg}_K(L) = 0 \iff L/K$ is algebraic
2. $\text{trdeg}_{\mathbb{Q}}(\mathbb{C}) = \infty$ ($\pi \in \mathbb{C}$)
3. $K(x_1, \dots, x_n) = \text{Quot}(K[x_1, \dots, x_n])$ has transcendence degree n over K

Proposition 15. R finitely generated K -algebra which is a domain $\implies \dim R = \text{trdeg}_K(\text{Quot}(R))$.

Proof. Let $R \supseteq K[x_1, \dots, x_n]$ be integral using Noether Normalization. Then $\dim R = n$.

$0 \neq \frac{a}{b} \in \text{Quot}(R) \implies a, b$ are integral over $K[x_1, \dots, x_n] \implies a, b$ are algebraic over $K(x_1, \dots, x_n) \implies \frac{a}{b}$ is algebraic over $K(x_1, \dots, x_n)$. $\square$

2.2.5 Regular local rings

Motivation: $\mathcal{X} \subseteq \mathbb{A}^n(K)$ affine algebraic set with coordinate ring $k[\mathcal{X}] = K[x_1, \dots, x_n]/I(\mathcal{X})$.

$a = (a_1, \dots, a_n) \in \mathcal{X} \implies$ set $y_i := x_i - a_i$. Consider

$d_a : K[x_1, \dots, x_n] \rightarrow K[y_1, \dots, y_n], f \mapsto \sum \frac{df}{dx_i}(a)y_i =$ linear term in Taylor series expansion of f at a

Define the **tangent space of $\mathcal{X}$ at a**

$$T_a\mathcal{X} := V(\{d_af \mid f \in I(\mathcal{X})\}) \subseteq K^n$$

Easy to check: $I(\mathcal{X}) = (f_1, \dots, f_m) \implies T_a\mathcal{X} = V(\{d_af_1, \dots, d_af_m\})$.

Algebraic definition:

$$P = I(a) = (\overline{y_1}, \dots, \overline{y_m}) \leq k[\mathcal{X}]$$

$$\overline{y_i} = y_i + I(\mathcal{X})$$

Obtain

$$\varphi : P \rightarrow \text{Hom}_K(T_a\mathcal{X}, K) = (T_a\mathcal{X})^*, \quad \overline{f} \mapsto d_af|_{T_a\mathcal{X}}$$

Observe:

1. φ is surjective since any linear map on $T_a\mathcal{X}$ must be a linear combination of the coordinate functions
2. $L := -\{d_ag \mid g \in I(\mathcal{X})\} \leq \langle y_1, \dots, y_n \rangle$
 $K := \dim L \implies \dim T_a\mathcal{X} = n - k \implies \dim T_a\mathcal{X}^\perp = k \implies L = T_a\mathcal{X}^\perp$ since $L \subseteq T_a\mathcal{X}$

Suppose that $\varphi(\overline{f}) = 0$. Then $d_af \in L \implies d_af = d_ag$ for some $g \in I(\mathcal{X}) \implies d_a(f - g) = 0 \implies \overline{f} = \overline{f} - \overline{g} \in P^2$.

On the other hand, P^2 is generated as a K -vector space by $\overline{f_1 f_2}$ for $\overline{f_i} \in P$ and $\varphi(\overline{f_1 f_2}) = f_1(a)\varphi(\overline{f_2}) + f_2(a)\varphi(\overline{f_1}) = 0 \implies \ker \varphi = P^2$.

So $P/P^2 \cong (T_a\mathcal{X})^*$, i.e. $(P/P^2)^* \cong T_a\mathcal{X}$.

Note: If $P \leq R$ maximal, $S := R \setminus P \implies P/P^2$ is a vector space over $K := R/P$.

Elements of S map to units in K so $P/P^2 \cong S^{-1}(P/P^2) \cong (S^{-1}P)/(S^{-1}P^2)$. So we can instead work in the local ring at a .

Proposition 16. *R Noetherian local with maximal ideal P , $K = R/P$.*

1. $\dim_K(P/P^2)$ is the minimum number of generators for P as an ideal
2. $\dim R \leq \dim_K(P/P^2) < \infty$

Proof. 1. Nakayama

2. $\dim R = \dim R_P = \text{codim} P \leq n$ by Corollary 13 (where n = minimum number of generators of P)

□

Example.

1. $\mathcal{X}_1 \subseteq \mathbb{A}^2(\mathbb{R})$
 $I(\mathcal{X}_1) = (x_2 - x_1^2)$
 $T_0(\mathcal{X}_1) = V(x_2) = x_1\text{-axis}$
2. $\mathcal{X}_2 = V(x_2^2 - x_1^2 - x_1^3) \subseteq \mathbb{A}^2(\mathbb{R})$
 $T_0(\mathcal{X}_2) = \mathbb{R}^2$ (Note $\dim \mathcal{X}_2 = 1$ but $\dim T_0(\mathcal{X}_2) = 2$)

Definition. Let R be a local ring with maximal ideal P . Let $K = R/P$.
 R is **regular** if it is Noetherian and $\dim R = \dim_K(P/P^2)$.

If $\mathcal{X}$ is an affine algebraic set over K , $a \in \mathcal{X}$ is a **regular point** or a **smooth point** if $k[\mathcal{X}]_{I(a)}$ is a regular local ring. Otherwise, a is a **singular point**.

$\mathcal{X}$ is **smooth** if all its points are regular and **singular** otherwise

Example.

1. Any field is a regular local ring (both dimensions are 0)
2. $\mathcal{X} \subseteq \mathbb{A}^n(K)$ affine algebraic, $I(\mathcal{X}) = (f_1, \dots, f_r) \trianglelefteq K[x_1, \dots, x_n]$
 $T_a\mathcal{X}$ is the kernel of $Jf(a) := \left(\frac{\partial f_i}{\partial x_j} \right)_{1 \leq i \leq r, 1 \leq j \leq n}$ Jacobian matrix
Hence a is regular $\iff \dim \mathcal{X} = \dim \ker(Jf(a))$
In particular, this happens when $Jf(a)$ has maximal rank r ($\dim \mathcal{X} \leq \dim T_a\mathcal{X} = \dim \ker(Jf(a)) \leq n - r \leq \dim \mathcal{X}$)

In the examples from before, for $V(x_2 - x_1^2)$ we get the Jacobian $(-2x_1, 1)$, which is always nonzero so has full rank. But for $V(x_2^2 - x_1^2 - x_1^3)$ we get the Jacobian $(-2x_1 - 3x_1^2, 2x_2)$, which has nonzero kernel.

Proposition 17. *A regular local ring is an integral domain.*

Proof. R regular local $\implies R$ has unique maximal ideal P . Let $K = R/P$.

Let $n = \dim R (= \dim_K(P/P^2))$.

Induction on n :

When $n = 0$, $0 = \dim R = \dim_K(P/P^2) \implies P^2 = P \implies$ by Nakayama, $P = 0$. Then $R = K$ so we have a field.

When $n > 0$, let $P_1, \dots, P_r$ be the minimal primes over (0) .

Last semester we saw: for an ideal I in R , the isolated primes of I = the minimal primes containing I .

Suppose (for contradiction) that $P \subseteq P^2 \cup P_1 \cup \dots \cup P_r$.

$P \not\subseteq P^2 \implies P \subseteq P_i$ for some i (using prime avoidance + an exercise to show a little more)

Thus $P = P_i$ for some i , since P is maximal ($P_i \subseteq P$ for all i) $\implies r = 1$.

So P is the only prime above $0 \implies n = 0. \rightarrow \leftarrow$

Hence there exists $a \in P$ so that $a \notin P^2$ and $a \notin P_i$ for all $i = 1, \dots, r$.

$R/(a)$ is local with maximal ideal $P/(a)$ and Noetherian since R is.

Note:

$$(P/(a))/(P/(a))^2 \cong P/(P^2 + (a))$$

Claim: $R/(a)$ is regular of dimension $n - 1$.

1. $a \notin P^2$ so $\bar{a} \in P/P^2$ is nonzero. P/P^2 is a K -vector space $\implies \bar{a}$ extends to a basis of P/P^2 : $(\bar{a}, \bar{a}_2, \dots, \bar{a}_n)$.

So $\bar{a}_2, \dots, \bar{a}_n$ generate $P/(P^2 + (a)) \implies$

$$\dim(P/(a))/(P/(a))^2 \leq n - 1.$$

2. $Q_0 \subsetneq Q_1 \subsetneq \dots \subsetneq Q_n = P$ maximal chain in R .
 $a \in P \implies$ wlog assume $a \in Q_1$. (homework)

So $Q_1/(a) \subsetneq \dots \subsetneq Q_n/(a) = P/(a)$ is a chain in $R/(a)$ of length $n - 1 \implies \dim R/(a) \geq n - 1$.

So $R/(a)$ is regular local of dimension $n - 1$. Then by induction, $R/(a)$ is an integral domain.

$(a) \trianglelefteq R$ prime ideal $\implies P_i \subseteq (a)$ for some i . Let $b \in P_i$. $b = ca$ for some $c \in R$. But $a \notin P_i \implies c \in P_i$.

So $P = PP_i \implies$ by Nakayama, $P_i = 0$.

So (0) is a prime ideal, meaning R is a domain. □

2.3 Rings of dimension 1

2.3.1 Valuation rings

Lemma 1. R regular local of dimension 1, $P \trianglelefteq R$ maximal. Then

1. P is nonzero principal
2. $a \in R \setminus \{0\} \implies \exists! n \in \mathbb{N}_0$ so that $(a) = P^n$

Proof. 1. $\dim R = \dim P/P^2 = 1$

Proposition 2.15 $\implies P$ is principal and nonzero

Write $P = (\pi)$

2. Prop 2.16 $\implies R$ integral domain $\implies (0)$ is the unique minimal prime. The only other prime ideal is P since $\dim R = 1$.

Let $a \in R \setminus \{0\}$. By Krull intersection theorem, $\bigcap_{n=0}^{\infty} P^n = (0)$.

So there is n maximal with $a \in P^n$ ($n = 0$ if $a \in R^\times$). Then $a = \pi^n u$ and $u \in R^\times$ by maximality of $n \implies (a) = (\pi^n) = P^n$.

□

Note. (Geometric interpretation)

$\mathcal{X}$ affine curve (i.e. affine algebraic set of dimension 1)

$x \in \mathcal{X}$ smooth

$R = k[\mathcal{X}]_{I(x)} \implies R$ is a regular local ring of dimension 1

$P \subseteq R$ maximal $\implies P$ consists of functions vanishing at x

$P = (\pi)$ as in Lemma 1 $\implies \pi$ vanishes to order 1 at x

If $a \in R$, $(a) = (\pi^n) \iff a$ vanishes to order n at x

Definition. An **ordered group** is an abelian group G with a total order “ $\leq$ ” such that $m \leq n \implies m + k \leq n + k$ for all $m, n, k \in G$.

Let K be a field. A **valuation** on K is a map $v : K^\times \rightarrow G$ where G is an ordered group such that for all $a, b \in K^\times$,

1. $v(ab) = v(a) + v(b)$ i.e. $v : K^\times \rightarrow G$ is a group homomorphism

2. $v(a + b) \geq \min\{v(a), v(b)\}$ if $a + b \neq 0$

We extend v to K by letting $v(0) = \infty$ (then (1),(2) holds for all $a, b \in K$)

If $v : K^\times \rightarrow G$ is a valuation, then

$v(K^\times) \leq G$ is the **value group**

$O_v := \{a \in K \mid v(a) \geq 0\}$ is the **valuation ring of v**

$m_v := \{a \in K \mid v(a) > 0\}$ is the maximal ideal of v

O_v/m_v is called the **residue field** of v (See Lemma 2)

A valuation $v : K^\times \rightarrow \mathbb{Z}$ is called a **discrete valuation** and (K, v) is then called a **discretely valued field** and (O_v, v) a **discrete valuation ring**

$\pi \in O_v$ with $v(\pi) = 1$ is called a **uniformizer**

Example.

1. K any field

$v : K^\times \rightarrow \{0\}$ **trivial valuation**

Value group $\{0\}$

Valuation ring K

2. $\mathbb{Z}, \mathbb{Q}, \mathbb{R}$ are ordered groups

3. R UFD, $p \in R$ prime, $K = \text{Quot}(R)$

$$a \in R \implies a = up^n, n \in \mathbb{N}, n = \frac{u_1}{u_2}, p \nmid u_1 u_2$$

We get $v : K^\times \rightarrow \mathbb{Z}, a \mapsto n$

Claim: this is a discrete valuation

$a = up^n, b = wp^m$. Without loss of generality, $n \geq m$.

$$v(a + b) = v(up^n + wp^m) = v(p^m(up^{n-m} + w)) = m + v(up^{n-m} + w) \geq m$$

$O_v = R_{(p)}$ localization of R at p

$$m_v = pR_{(p)}$$

$R = \mathbb{Z}, p$ prime $\rightarrow$ get p -adic valuation

4. L field,

$$K := L((t)) = \text{Quot}(L[[t]]) = \left\{ \sum_{n=m}^{\infty} a_n t^n \mid a_i \in L, m \in \mathbb{Z} \right\} = \text{Laurent series field}$$

$$v : K^\times \rightarrow \mathbb{Z}, \sum_{n=m}^{\infty} a_n t^n \mapsto m \text{ gives a discrete valuation}$$

This is also a special case of (3)

5. L field, define the field of formal Puiseux series:

$$K = \left\{ \sum_{q \in \mathbb{Q}} a_q t^q \mid \{q \in \mathbb{Q} \mid a_q \neq 0\} \text{ is bounded below and has bounded denominators} \right\}$$

$$\text{Let } v : K^\times \rightarrow \mathbb{Q}, \sum a_q t^q \mapsto \min\{q \in \mathbb{Q} \mid a_q \neq 0\}.$$

This is a valuation, not discrete.

Lemma 2 (Properties of valuation rings). *If $R = O_v$ for some valuation $v : K^\times \rightarrow G$ for some field K , ordered group G , then*

$$1. a \in K^\times \implies a \in R \text{ or } a^{-1} \in R$$

$$2. \text{ For } a, b \in R, v(a) \leq v(b) \iff b \in (a)$$

$$3. R^\times = \{a \in R \mid v(a) = 0\}$$

$$4. R \text{ is a local ring with maximal ideal } m_v$$

5. R is a normal domain (integrally closed in its field of fractions)

Proof. 1. $v(a) + v(a^{-1}) = v(1) = 0 \implies v(a) \geq 0$ or $v(a^{-1}) \geq 0 \implies a \in R$ or $a^{-1} \in R$
because $R = O_v = \{a \in K \mid v(a) \geq 0\}$

2. Without loss of generality, assume $a \neq 0$. If $v(a) \leq v(b)$, $v(\frac{a}{b}) = v(b) - v(a) \geq 0 \implies \frac{a}{b} \in R \implies b = \frac{b}{a} \cdot a \in (a)$.
The converse is clear.

3. $a \in R, a \neq 0 \implies v(a) \geq 0$.
 $a \in R^\times \iff a^{-1} \in R \iff -v(a) = v(a^{-1}) \geq 0 \iff v(a) = 0$

4. m_v is an ideal: $m_v = \{a \mid v(a) > 0\}$
If $a, b \in m_v, r \in R$, then $v(a+b) \geq \min\{v(a), v(b)\} > 0$ and $v(ra) = v(r) + v(a) > 0$

If $a \notin m_v$ then $v(a) = 0 \implies$ by (3), $a \in R^\times \implies m_v$ is maximal in R and R is local

5. $a \in K^\times$ integral over $R \implies a^n + c_{n-1}a^{n-1} + \dots + c_0 = 0 \quad (c_i \in R, n \in \mathbb{N})$.

If $a \notin R$ then by (1), $a^{-1} \in R \implies a = -c_{n-1} - \dots - c_0 a^{-n+1} \in R \rightarrow \leftarrow$
So $a \in R$.

□

Note. If $O_v = R$ is the valuation ring of $v : K^\times \rightarrow G$, then v can be “recovered up to isomorphism” from R :

$K = \text{Quot}(R)$ by Lemma 2.1

$v : K^\times \rightarrow G$ has kernel $R^\times$ by Lemma 2.3

$v(K^\times) \cong K^\times / R^\times$ so v is the quotient map

For $a, b \in K^\times$, $v(a) \leq v(b) \iff \frac{b}{a} \in R$, so R determines the order on $v(K^\times)$

Proposition 3. *If R is a ring, TFAE:*

1. R is the valuation ring of a valuation $v : K^\times \rightarrow G$

2. R is an integral domain and for all $a \in \text{Quot}R \setminus \{0\}$, either $a \in R$ or $a^{-1} \in R$

Proof. (1) $\implies$ (2) by Lemma 2.1

For (2) $\implies$ (1), let $K := \text{Quot}(R)$ and $G := K^\times / R^\times$ (written additively)

Define $\bar{a} \leq \bar{b} \iff \frac{b}{a} \in R$

This gives a well-defined order on G .

Let $v : K^\times \rightarrow G$ be the quotient map. Check: this is a valuation.

1. $v(ab) = v(a) + v(b)$ because v is a homomorphism

2. Let $a, b \in K^\times$. Wlog $\frac{a}{b} \in R$ (otherwise $\frac{b}{a} \in R$)
Then $\frac{a+b}{b} = \frac{a}{b} + 1 \in R \implies v(a+b) \geq v(b) = \min\{v(a), v(b)\}$.

Clearly $O_v = R$ since $v(a) \geq 0 \iff \frac{a}{1} \in R$. □

Lemma 4. *Let $R \leq R' \leq \text{Quot}(R) = K$. Then if R is a valuation ring, so is R' .*

Proof. $a \in K^\times \implies a \in R$ or $a^{-1} \in R \implies a \in R'$ or $a^{-1} \in R' \implies R'$ is a valuation ring by Proposition 3. □

Proposition 5. *If R is an integral domain then if R^c denotes the integral closure of R ,*

$$R^c = \bigcap_{\substack{R \subseteq R' \subseteq \text{Quot}(R) \\ R' \text{ valuation ring}}} R'$$

Proof. ($\subseteq$): $x \in R^c, R' \supseteq R$ valuation ring $\implies x$ is integral over R so also over R' . Thus $x \in R'$ by Lemma 2.

($\supseteq$): Let $x \notin R^c$. We construct a valuation ring R' such that $R \subseteq R' \subseteq \text{Quot}(R)$ and $x \notin R$.

Note: $x \notin R[\frac{1}{x}]$, since otherwise:

$$x = a_0 + a_1 \frac{1}{x} + \cdots + a_k \frac{1}{x^k} \text{ some } k \text{ and } a_i \in R \implies x^{k+1} - a_0 x^k - \cdots = 0$$

gives an integral equation for x over $R \rightarrow \leftarrow$.

Define $\mathcal{M} := \{R' \mid R; \text{ ring}, R[\frac{1}{x}] \subseteq R' \subseteq \text{Quot}(R), x \notin R'\}$.

$\mathcal{M} \neq \emptyset$ since $R[\frac{1}{x}] \in \mathcal{M}$.

Apply Zorn's Lemma to take a maximal element R_0 .

Suffices to show: R_0 is a valuation ring.

Assume $a \notin R_0$ and $a^{-1} \notin R_0$.

Then $R_0 \subsetneq R_0[a]$ and $R_0 \subseteq R_0[a^{-1}] \implies x \in R_0[a] \cap R_0[a^{-1}]$ by maximality of R_0 .

Write

$$x = \sum_{i=0}^r r_i a^i = \sum_{j=0}^m s_j a^{-j}$$

for m, n minimal and $r_i, s_j \in R_0$. Without loss of generality assume $m \leq n$.

$$x = s_0 + (x - s_0) \left(x^{-1} \sum_{i=0}^n r_i a^i \right) = s_0 + \left(1 - \frac{s_0}{x}\right) \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} r_i a^i + \sum_{j=1}^m s_j a^{-j} x^{-1} r_n a^n$$

This is a polynomial of degree $< n$ in $a \rightarrow \leftarrow$.

So R_0 is a valuation ring. □

2.3.2 Discrete valuation rings

Recall:

A discrete valuation ring (DVR) is a valuation ring of a discrete valuation

A discretely valued field is a fraction field of a DVR

Proposition 6. *R valuation ring, $P \subseteq R$ maximal. TFAE:*

1. R is Noetherian but not a field
2. R is a PID but not a field
3. R is a DVR

Proof. (1) $\Rightarrow$ (2): Let $I \subseteq R$. Since R is Noetherian, $I = (a_1, \dots, a_n)$.

Let i be such that $v(a_i)$ is minimal. Then by Lemma 2, $a_j \in (a_i)$ for all $j \Rightarrow I = (a_i)$.

(2) $\Rightarrow$ (3): $P \neq 0$ since R is a field. $P = (\pi)$ for some $\pi \in R$ prime.

$R = R_{(\pi)}$ is the localization of a UFD at $(\pi) \Rightarrow R$ is a DVR as in our examples.

(3) $\Rightarrow$ (1): If R a field then $R^\times = K^\times$ so $v(R^\times) = v(K^\times) = \{1\}$, hence a DVR is not a field.

So say $0 \neq I \subseteq R$. Let $a \in I$ be such that $v(K^\times) \subseteq \mathbb{N}$. So $I = (a)$ by Lemma 2. $\square$

Theorem 7. *Let R be a Noetherian local ring. Then TFAE:*

1. R is a DVR
2. R is a PID but not a field
3. R is a UFD of dimension 1
4. R is a normal domain of dimension 1
5. R is a 1-dimensional regular (local) ring

Proof. (1) $\Rightarrow$ (2): by Proposition 6

(2) $\Rightarrow$ (3): local PID but not field $\Rightarrow \dim = 1$.

(3) $\Rightarrow$ (4): UFDs are integrally closed.

(4) $\Rightarrow$ (5): R local domain of dimension 1, normal
 P maximal ideal $\Rightarrow P, (0)$ are the only prime ideals.

WTS: P is principal (P is principal $\iff 1 = \dim_K(P/P^2) =$ minimal number of generators).

$$0 \neq a \in P \implies \sqrt{(a)} =: P$$

$$\mathcal{M} = \{(a : y) \mid y \in R \setminus (A)\}$$

$$\text{Recall: } (a : y) = \{x \in R \mid xy \in (a)\}$$

R Noetherian $\implies \mathcal{M}$ has a maximal element Q

$$Q = (a : b) \text{ for some } b \in R \setminus (a)$$

We claim: Q is prime.

$$b \notin (a) \implies Q \neq R.$$

If $x, y \notin Q = (a : b)$, $xb \notin (a)$ and $(a : b) \leq (a : xb) \in \mathcal{M} \implies (a : xb) = Q$ by maximality.

So $y \notin (a : xb) \implies xy \notin (a : b) = Q$ so Q is prime.

$$\text{But } (a) \subseteq Q \implies Q = P \text{ maximal ideal of } R \implies (a : b) = P.$$

Let $I := \frac{b}{a} \cdot P \subseteq \text{Quot}(R)$ R -submodule

$$I \subseteq R \text{ since } P = (a : b) \implies I \trianglelefteq R.$$

Assume $I \subseteq P$ (i.e. $I \neq R$).

Then P is a module over $R[\frac{b}{a}]$.

Consider $\varphi : P \rightarrow P, \quad x \mapsto \frac{b}{a} \cdot x$.

As usual, Cayley-Hamilton $\implies \frac{b}{a}$ is integral over $R \implies \frac{b}{a} \in R$, since R is normal $\implies b \in (a) \implies I = R \rightarrow \leftarrow$ So we must have $I = R$.

But $I = R \implies P = \frac{a}{b} \cdot R \implies P$ is principal.

(5) $\Rightarrow$ (1): Exercise. Use Lemma 1. □

Corollary 8. R DVR with maximal ideal $P \implies$ the nonzero ideals in R are exactly the powers of P . They form a strictly decreasing chain $R = P^0 \supsetneq P \supsetneq P^2 \supsetneq \dots$.

Proof. Take an ideal $I \trianglelefteq R$. By Proposition 6, I is principal. Say $I = (a)$ for some a . Then $I = P^n$ where $n = v(a)$.

If $P^{n+1} = P^n$ for some n , then $P \cdot P^n = P^n \implies P^n = 0$ by Nakayama. So $P = 0$. □

2.3.3 Dedekind domains

Definition. An integral domain R is a **Dedekind domain** if R is Noetherian of dimension 1 and for all maximal ideals $P \trianglelefteq R$, R_P is a regular local ring.

Lemma 9. A 1-dimensional Noetherian domain is a Dedekind domain $\iff$ it is normal.

Proof. Exercise. □

Example.

1. $\mathcal{X}$ irreducible curve over an algebraically closed field K , smooth
 Then $k[\mathcal{X}]$ is a domain (because $\mathcal{X}$ is irreducible)
 Is 1-dimensional
 And all localizations at maximal ideals are regular (by $\mathcal{X}$ being smooth + Nullstellensatz)
 So $k[\mathcal{X}]$ is a Dedekind domain.
2. $\mathbb{Z}$ (or any PID that is not a field)

Proposition 10. *If K is a number field (i.e. $K \geq \mathbb{Q}$ finite extension) and $R \subseteq K$ is the integral closure of $\mathbb{Z}$, then R is a Dedekind domain.*

Proof. $R \leq K$ subring so R is an integral domain.

$\dim R = \dim \mathbb{Z} = 1$ since $R/\mathbb{Z}$ is integral.

R is normal because integrality is transitive.

By Lemma 9, just left to show R is Noetherian.

Step 1: $|R/pR| < \infty$ for all $p \in \mathbb{Z}$ prime:

R/pR is an $\mathbb{F}_p$ -vector space so suffices to show that $\dim_{\mathbb{F}_p}(R/pR) < \infty$.

We'll show $\dim_{\mathbb{F}_p}(R/pR) \leq [K : \mathbb{Q}]$.

Let $\overline{a}_1, \dots, \overline{a}_n \in R/pR$ be $\mathbb{F}_p$ -linearly independent. Take preimages $a_i \in R$.

Suppose for contradiction that $\lambda_1 a_1 + \dots + \lambda_n a_n = 0$ for $\lambda_i \in \mathbb{Q}$ not all 0.

Without loss of generality assume $\lambda_i \in \mathbb{Z}$ and there exists j such that $p \nmid \lambda_j$.

Reduce mod p : $= \overline{\lambda}_1 \overline{a}_1 + \dots + \overline{\lambda}_n \overline{a}_n$ is a nontrivial $\mathbb{F}_p$ relation on $\overline{a}_1, \dots, \overline{a}_n \rightarrow \leftarrow$

Step 2: $|R/mR| < \infty$ for all $m \in \mathbb{Z} \setminus \{0\}$:

We can assume m is not prime, so say $m = m_1 m_2$. We get a short exact sequence

$$0 \rightarrow R/m_1 R \rightarrow R/m_1 m_2 R \rightarrow R/m_2 R \rightarrow 0$$

and

$$|R/mR| = |R/m_1 R| \cdot |R/m_2 R|$$

so the claim follows by induction on Step 1.

Step 3: We'll show any $0 \neq I \trianglelefteq R$ must contain some $m \in \mathbb{Z}, m \neq 0$.

Suppose not. Then $\dim(R/I) = \dim(\mathbb{Z}/\mathbb{Z} \cap I) = \dim \mathbb{Z} = 1$, but I is nonzero, so $\dim(R/I) < \dim R = 1 \rightarrow \leftarrow$

Now pick $m \in \mathbb{Z} \cap I, m \neq 0$. Then $mR \subseteq I$.

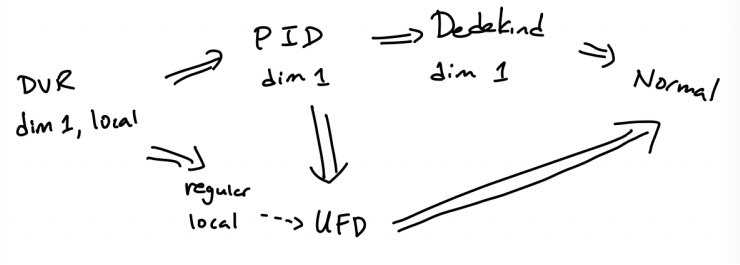
$|I/mR| \leq |R/mR| < \infty$ by Step 2 $\implies I/mR = \{\overline{a}_1, \dots, \overline{a}_n\}, a_i \in I \implies I = (m, a_1, \dots, a_n)$ finitely generated. So R is Noetherian. $\square$

Example. $R = \mathbb{Z}[i\sqrt{5}]$

This is the integral closure of $\mathbb{Z}$ in $\mathbb{Q}(i\sqrt{5})$ so is a Dedekind domain.

But this is not a UFD ($2 \cdot 3 = (1 + i\sqrt{5})(1 - i\sqrt{5})$).

Summary:



Proposition 11. *Let R be a Dedekind domain.*

1. If $P \trianglelefteq R$ maximal, $Q \trianglelefteq R$, then
 Q is P primary $\iff Q = P^k$ for some (unique) $k \in \mathbb{N}$
2. $0 \neq I \trianglelefteq R \implies I = P_1^{k_1} \cdots P_n^{k_n}$ ($k_i \in \mathbb{N}_{>0}$, $P_1, \dots, P_n$ distinct maximal ideals). This decomposition is unique up to order, and $\text{Ass}(I) = \{P_1, \dots, P_n\}$.

Proof. 1. $(\Leftarrow)$: true in any ring

$(\Rightarrow)$: Q P -primary $\implies$ consider $R \rightarrow R_P$. Then $Q^e \leq R_P$ is nonzero. R_P is a DVR by Theorem 7, so $Q^e = (P^e)^k$ by Corollary 8.

Easy to check: $(P^e)^k = (P^k)^e$.

Contract: $Q = P^k$ (both are P -primary: localize at $S = R \setminus P$)

If $P^k = P^{k'}$, then $(P^e)^k = (P^e)^{k'} \implies$ by Corollary 8, $k = k'$ (the inclusions are strict).

2. R Noetherian $\implies I = Q_1 \cap \cdots \cap Q_n$ primary decomposition.
 $\sqrt{Q_i} = P_i \implies P_1, \dots, P_n$ are distinct and maximal (since R has dimension 1).
Then there are no embedded primes. So $Q_1, \dots, Q_n$ are unique. Then by part 1,
 $Q_i = P_i^{k_i}$ for some unique k_i .
 $I = P_1^{k_1} \cap \cdots \cap P_n^{k_n} = P_1^{k_1} \cdots P_n^{k_n}$ since they are pairwise coprime.

□

Example. In $\mathbb{Z}[i\sqrt{5}]$, 2 is not prime but is irreducible. So 2 does not have a prime factorization.

Recall that $2 \mid 6$ and $6 = (1 + i\sqrt{5})(1 - i\sqrt{5})$.

$(2) \subsetneq (1 + i\sqrt{5}, 2)$, and the ideal on the right is maximal.

One can show: $(2) = (2, 1 + i\sqrt{5})^2$.

Lemma 12. *Let R be a Dedekind domain.*

1. If $P_1, \dots, P_n$ are distinct maximal ideals of R , $k_i, l_i \in \mathbb{N}$, then $P_1^{k_1} \dots P_n^{k_n} \subseteq P_1^{l_1} \dots P_n^{l_n} \iff l_i \leq k_i$ for all i .
2. $a \in R \setminus \{0\} \implies (a) = P_1^{v_1(a)} \dots P_n^{v_n(a)}$ where $\{P_1, \dots, P_n\} = \text{Ass}((a))$ and v_i is the valuation on R_{P_i} .
3. $a \in R \setminus \{0\}$, P maximal $\implies P \notin \text{Ass}((a)) \implies v_P(a) = 0$.

Proof. Exercise. □

Proposition 13. I, J nonzero ideals in Dedekind domain, $I = P_1^{k_1} \dots P_n^{k_n}$ and $J = P_1^{l_1} \dots P_n^{l_n}$. Then

$$\begin{aligned} I + J &= P_1^{m_1} \dots P_n^{m_n}, & m_i &= \min\{l_i, k_i\} \\ I \cap J &= P_1^{m_1} \dots P_n^{m_n}, & m_i &= \max\{l_i, k_i\} \\ IJ &= P_1^{m_1} \dots P_n^{m_n}, & m_i &= l_i + k_i \end{aligned}$$

In particular $IJ = (I \cap J)(I + J)$.

Proof. Exercise □

Proposition 14. R Dedekind domain, $I \trianglelefteq R$. $0 \neq a \in I \implies \exists b \in I$ so that $(a, b) = I$. In particular, every ideal in R is generated by two elements.

Proof. Let $0 \neq (a) \subseteq I$. Write $(a) = P_1^{k_1} \dots P_n^{k_n}$ and $I = P_1^{l_1} \dots P_n^{l_n}$ where $P_1, \dots, P_n$ are distinct maximal ideals.

By Lemma 12, $l_i \leq k_i$. For each i , there exists some

$$b_i \in (P_1^{l_1+1} \dots P_i^{l_i} \dots P_n^{l_n}) \setminus (P_1^{l_1+1} \dots P_i^{l_i+1} \dots P_n^{l_n}) \neq \emptyset$$

by uniqueness in Prop 11.

Notice that $b_i \in I$ for each i .

$b_i \in P_j^{l_j+1}$ for all $j \neq i$.

But $b_i \notin P_i^{l_i+1}$ (by Prop 13, this would force it to be in $P_1^{l_1+1} \dots P_i^{l_i+1} \dots P_n^{l_n}$).

Let $b := b_1 + \dots + b_n \in I$. Then $b \notin P_i^{l_i+1}$ for all i .

We claim: $I = (a, b)$.

Know: $(a, b) = (a) + (b)$ and Prop 13 $\implies$ the prime factorization of (a, b) contains only the maximal ideals $P_1, \dots, P_n$. So $(a, b) = P_1^{m_1} \dots P_n^{m_n}$ for some m_i 's.

By Lemma 12, since $(a, b) \subseteq I$, $m_i \geq l_i$ for all i . But also $m_i \leq l_i$ for all i , since $b \notin P_i^{l_i+1}$ for all i . So $(a, b) = P_1^{l_1} \dots P_n^{l_n} = I$. □

2.3.4 Fractional ideals, Cartier divisors, and the ideal class group

Definition. Let R be a domain and $K = \text{Quot}(R)$. A **fractional ideal** of R is an R -submodule I of K such that $aI \subseteq R$ for some $a \in R \setminus \{0\}$.

For $a_1, \dots, a_n \in K$, $(a_1, \dots, a_n) := Ra_1 + \dots + Ra_n \subseteq K$ is the **fractional ideal generated by** $a_1, \dots, a_n$

Example.

1. If $I \subseteq R$ then I is a fractional ideal $\iff I \trianglelefteq R$.
2. $(1/2) = \frac{1}{2}\mathbb{Z} \subseteq \mathbb{Q}$ is a fractional ideal of $\mathbb{Z}$
3. $\mathbb{Z}_{(2)} \subseteq \mathbb{Q}$ is not a fractional ideal. This is a $\mathbb{Z}$ -submodule, but you cannot multiply by a single element to get it into $\mathbb{Z}$

Note. Let R be a domain and $K = \text{Quot}(R)$.

1. If R is Noetherian, then every fractional ideal of R is generated by finitely many elements of K
2. Operations on ideals extend to fractional ideals, e.g.

$$IJ = \left\{ \sum_{i=1}^n a_i b_i \mid n \in \mathbb{N}, a_i \in I, b_i \in J \right\}$$

$$I :_K J = \{a \in K \mid aJ \subseteq I\}$$

Definition. Let $I \subseteq K$ be an R -submodule.

We say I is an **invertible ideal** or **Cartier divisor** if $IJ = R$ for some R -submodule $J \subseteq K$.

I is **principal** if $I = (a)$ for some $a \in K$.

Lemma 15. Let R be a domain and $K = \text{Quot}(R)$. Let $I \subseteq K$ be an R -submodule.

1. If I is invertible with $IJ = R$ then $J = R :_K I$.
2. If I is nonzero principal then I is invertible
3. If I is invertible then I is a fractional ideal of R

Proof. 1. Say $IJ = R$, Then $R = IJ \subseteq I \cdot (R :_K I) \subseteq R \implies IJ = I \cdot (R :_K I)$. Multiply both sides by J : $J = R :_K I$.

2. $I = (a), a \neq 0 \implies a \in K^\times \implies a^{-1} \in K \implies (a) \cdot (a^{-1}) = R \implies I$ is invertible.

3. I invertible $\implies I(R :_K I) = R$ by (1).

Want to find $a \in R$ such that $aI \subseteq R$.

$$1 = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i b_i \text{ for } a_i \in I, b_i \in R :_K I \text{ for some suitable } n.$$

If $b \in I$, then $b = b \sum_{i=1}^n a_i b_i = b \sum_{i=1}^n a_i (b_i b)$ and $b_i b \in R$ since $b \in I$ and $b_i \in R :_K I$. Let a be the product of the denominators of a_i . Then $ab \in R$ and since b was arbitrary, $aI \subseteq R$. So I is fractional. □

Example.

1. Let R be a PID and I a fractional ideal of R . Then $aI \subseteq R$ for some a .
 $aI = (b)$ for some b since R is a PID. So $I = (a/b)$ is principal.

Thus all fractional ideals of a PID are principal. Then by Lemma 15, in a PID, I nonzero principal $\iff I$ invertible $\iff I$ fractional.

2. $I = (x, y) \subseteq \mathbb{R}[x, y]$, $K = \mathbb{R}(x, y)$.

$$R :_K I = \{f \in \mathbb{R}[x, y] \mid xf \in \mathbb{R}[x, y] \text{ and } yf \in \mathbb{R}[x, y]\} = \mathbb{R}[x, y].$$

But $I \cdot (R :_K I) = (x, y)\mathbb{R}[x, y] = (x, y) \subsetneq \mathbb{R}[x, y]$. So by Lemma 15, I is not invertible.

Proposition 16. *In a Dedekind domain, every nonzero fractional ideal is invertible.*

Proof. R Dedekind domain, $I \neq 0$ fractional ideal of R .

Suppose for contradiction that I is not invertible. So $I(R :_K I)$ is a proper ideal of R . Then $I(R :_K I)$ is contained in some maximal ideal P . Extend to R_P :

$$I^e(R_P :_K I^e) \subseteq P^e \subsetneq R_P \quad (\text{exercise})$$

By Lemma 15, I^e is not invertible. R_P is a DVR so is a PID $\rightarrow \leftarrow$. □

Note. Let R be a domain and $K = \text{Quot}(R)$.

1. The invertible ideals of R form an abelian group under multiplication with $I^{-1} := (R :_K I)$.
2. The nonzero principal ideals form a (normal) subgroup

Definition. The group of invertible ideals of a domain R is called the **ideal group** or **group of Cartier divisors** $\text{Div}(R)$.

The principal invertible ideals form a normal subgroup $\text{Prin}(R) \trianglelefteq \text{Div}(R)$, and

$$\text{Pic}(R) := \text{Div}(R)/\text{Prin}(R)$$

is the **ideal class group** or the **Picard group** of R .

Example. If R is a PID, $\text{Pic}(R) = 1$.

Proposition 17. If I is an invertible ideal in a Dedekind domain, then $I = P_1^{k_1} \cdots P_n^{k_n}$ for suitable distinct maximal ideal of R and $k_i \in \mathbb{Z}$, unique up to order.

Proof. $aI \subseteq R$ for some $a \in R \setminus \{0\}$ since invertible implies fractional, by Lemma 15.

$$(a) = P_1^{s_1} \cdots P_n^{s_n} \\ I = (a)^{-1}aI = P_1^{r_1-s_1} \cdots P_n^{r_n-s_n}.$$

Uniqueness is inherited from Prop 11. □

Note. R Dedekind means we have a map

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Div}(R) &\rightarrow \text{free abelian groups on } \text{Specmax}(R), \\ P_1^{k_1} \cdots P_n^{k_n} &\mapsto (\varphi : \text{Specmax}(R) \rightarrow \mathbb{Z}, \quad P_i \mapsto k_i) \end{aligned}$$

Proposition 18. Let R be a Dedekind domain. Then TFAE:

1. R is a PID
2. R is a UFD
3. $\text{Pic}(R) = 1$

Proof. (1) $\Rightarrow$ (2): we showed this last semester.

(2) $\Rightarrow$ (3):

If $P \trianglelefteq R$ is maximal, then P is also a minimal nonzero prime ideal ($\dim R = 1$), so $b \in P \Rightarrow b = p_1 \cdots p_s$ by unique factorization $\Rightarrow p_i \in P$ for some i .

$0 \subseteq (p_i) \subseteq P \Rightarrow (p_i) = P \Rightarrow P$ is principal. So $\text{Pic}(R) = 1$. (3) $\Rightarrow$ (1):

If $\text{Pic}(R) = 1$ then every invertible ideal is principal. But every nonzero ideal is invertible, by R being a Dedekind domain. So every ideal is principal. □

Example. $\mathcal{X} = V(y^2 - x(x-1)(x-\lambda)) \subseteq \mathbb{A}_{\mathbb{C}}^2$.
($\lambda \in \mathbb{C} \setminus \{0\}$)

There is no point for which both terms of the Jacobian of f are 0, so $\mathcal{X}$ is smooth.

Take $\ell \in k[\mathcal{X}] \setminus \{0\}$ a “general” linear ℓ .

ℓ vanishes to order 1 at 3 points.

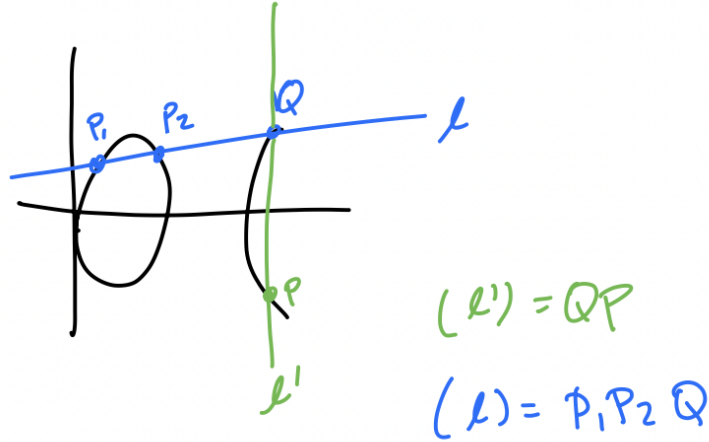
By Lemma 12b, $(\ell) = P_1 P_2 P_3$.

Define $\varphi : \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \text{Pic}(R), a \mapsto I(a) + \text{Prin}(R)$.

Fact: This is injective and $\varphi(\mathcal{X}) = \text{Pic}(R) \setminus \{(\bar{1})\}$.

Extend φ to $\mathcal{X} \cup \{\infty\} \rightarrow \text{Pic}(R)$. This extension will be bijective.

$\overline{P_1 P_2} = \overline{Q P} = 1$ in the Picard group, so $\overline{P_1 P_2} = \overline{P}$.



2.3.5 Projective modules over PIDs

Theorem 19. *Let R be a PID. If M is a free R -module and $N \leq M$, then N is free. In particular, every projective R -module is free.*

Proof. Let M be the free R -module on the set K (i.e. $M = F_K$). So F has basis $\{x_K \mid k \in K\} \subseteq M$.

We may well-order K i.e. equip K with a total order such that every nonempty subset has a minimal element. Write 0 for the minimal element in K .

Define $F_0 := \{0\}$.

For $k \in K$, define

$$F_k := \bigoplus_{i < k} Rx_i.$$

Let

$$\overline{F}_k := \bigoplus_{i \leq k} Rx_i = F_k \oplus Rx_k.$$

($\overline{F}_0 := Rx_0$)

Note:

$$M = \bigcup_{k \in K} \overline{F}_k.$$

Let $a \in N \cap \overline{F}_k$. Then $a = b + rx_k$ where $b \in F_k$, $r \in R$, and both are unique. Define

$$\varphi_k : N \cap \overline{F}_k \rightarrow R, \quad a \mapsto r$$

From this we get a short exact sequence

$$0 \rightarrow N \cap F_k \rightarrow N \cap \overline{F}_k \xrightarrow{\varphi_k} \text{Im}(\varphi_k) \rightarrow 0$$

Now $\text{Im}(\varphi_k)$ is an ideal of R and R is a PID, so $\text{Im}(\varphi_k)$ is free, hence the sequence splits.

Then $N \cap \overline{F_k} = (N \cap F_k) \oplus C_k$ for some $C_k \cong \text{Im}(\varphi_k)$.

We claim: $N = \bigoplus C_k$. This would show that N is free because the C_k 's are free.
Proof of claim:

1. First we'll show that $N = \sum C_k =: C$. It is clear that $C \leq N$. Suppose for contradiction that $C \subsetneq N$. For $a \in N$, let $\mu(a) := \min\{k \in K \mid a \in \overline{F_k}\}$.
Let $J := \{\mu(a) \mid a \in N \setminus C\}$.
By our assumption, $J \neq \emptyset$, so it has a minimal element j .

$$j = \mu(y) \text{ for some } y \in N \setminus C.$$

Then $y \in N \cap \overline{F_j} = (N \cap F_j) \oplus C_j$ i.e. $y = b + c$ where $b \in N \cap F_j$ and $c \in C_j$.
Thus $b = y - c$ so $b \in N \setminus C$.
So $\mu(b) < \mu(y) = j \rightarrow \leftarrow$ (contradicts minimality of j)

2. We claim the sum is direct:
Suppose $c_1 + \cdots + c_n = 0$ for some $c_i \in C_{k_i}$, $k_1 < \cdots < k_n$. Suppose k_n is minimal among all such relations. Then

$$-c_n = c_1 + \cdots + c_{n-1} \in (N \cap F_{k_n}) \cap C_{k_n} = \{0\} \implies c_n = 0 \rightarrow \leftarrow$$

This contradicts the minimality of k_n .

□

Note. You can use this same argument to show that if R is a ring in which every ideal is projective as an R -module, then every submodule of a projective module is a direct sum of ideals.

Our current argument shows this but for the statement where the second “projective” is replaced by “free.”

3 Fields and Galois Theory

3.1 Fields and Field Extensions

3.1.1 Prime Fields

Notation: $k_1 \leq k_2$ denotes fields. We also write k_2/k_1 (k_2 over k_1)

In this case, k_2 is a **field extension** of k_1 , and k_1 is a **subfield** of k_2 .

Proposition 1. *Let L be a field and $I \neq \emptyset$ an index set. If $L_i \leq L$ for all $i \in I$, then $\bigcap_{i \in I} L_i \leq L$. That is, the intersection of arbitrarily many subfields is a subfield.*

Definition. Let $I \neq \emptyset$, L be a field, and $L_i \leq L$ for $i \in I$.

Let $\mathcal{N} := \{N \leq L \mid L_i \leq N \text{ for all } i \in I\}$. Then $\bigcap_{N \in \mathcal{N}} N$ is the **compositum** of the L_i .

Definition. The **prime field**

$$\bigcap_{N \leq L} N$$

of L is the smallest subfield contained in L .

Theorem 2. *The set of subfields of a given field forms a **lattice** with respect to intersection and composition.*

Definition. A ring homomorphism $\varphi : k_1 \rightarrow k_2$ between fields is called a **homomorphism of fields**. If φ is bijective, it is an **isomorphism**. A map $\varphi : K \rightarrow K$ is an **endomorphism**, and an **automorphism** if bijective.

Note. Every nontrivial homomorphism of fields must be injective (because the kernel is a subfield). So if $\varphi : k_1 \rightarrow k_2$ is a homomorphism of fields, $k_1 \cong \varphi(k_1) \leq k_2$ so we may view k_1 as a subfield of k_2 .

Theorem 3. *The prime field of a field is either $\mathbb{Q}$ or $\mathbb{F}_p$, p prime.*

Proof. Let K be a field. The map $\varphi : \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow K$ defined by $n \mapsto 1 + \cdots + 1$ (n times) is a ring homomorphism.

Its kernel $\ker \varphi$ is a principal ideal (m) .

Since K is a domain, either $m = 0$ (making φ injective and hence extend to $\mathbb{Q}$) or $m = p$ for some prime p (making $\varphi(K) \cong \mathbb{F}_p$). $\square$

Definition. The **characteristic** of a field k is defined as

$$\text{char}(k) := \begin{cases} 0 & \text{if the prime field is } \mathbb{Q} \\ p & \text{if the prime field is } \mathbb{F}_p \end{cases}$$

Example.

1. $\text{char}(\mathbb{C}) = \text{char}(\mathbb{R}) = \text{char}(\mathbb{Q}) = 0$
2. $\text{char}(\mathbb{F}_p) = p = \text{char}(\mathbb{F}_{p^n}) = \text{char}(\mathbb{F}_p(t))$

3.1.2 Algebraic and Transcendental Elements

Definition. Let $L \geq K$ be fields.

$x \in L$ is **algebraic** over K if $f(x) = 0$ for some non-zero $f \in K[T]$.

The monic polynomial f_x of minimal degree with this property is the **minimal polynomial** of x over K .

If x is not algebraic, it is **transcendental** over K .

Definition. If $L \geq K, x \in L$, the subfield of L generated by x over K is

$$K(x) := \bigcap_{K \leq E \leq L, x \in E} E$$

For a set $B \subseteq L$, $K(B)$ is the compositum of all $K(x)$ for $x \in B$.

Proposition 4. Let $L \geq K$ and $x \in L$. Define $\varphi : K[T] \rightarrow L$ by $T \mapsto x$.

1. φ is injective $\implies x$ is transcendental and $K(x) \cong K(T)$ (rational function field)
2. φ is not injective $\implies x$ is algebraic. Then $\ker \varphi = (f_x)$ and $K(x) \cong K[T]/(f_x)$.

Example. Algebraic:

1. $i \in \mathbb{C}$, $f_i := T^2 + 1 \in \mathbb{R}[T]$ minimal polynomial over $\mathbb{R}$ (or $\mathbb{Q}$)
2. $\eta = e^{2\pi i/k}$ if k is prime, $f_\eta = \frac{T^k - 1}{T - 1}$ over $\mathbb{R}$ or $\mathbb{Q}$

Transcendental:

1. π, e
2. $\mathbb{C}$ has infinitely many transcendentals over $\mathbb{Q}$

3.1.3 Finite Field Extensions

Note. Any field extension $L \geq K$ allows L to be viewed as a vector space over K

Definition. Let $L \geq K$ be a field extension.

The **degree** of L over K is $[L : K] := \dim_K L$

The extension L/K is **finite** if $[L : K] < \infty$

For $x \in L$, $[K(x) : K]$ is the **degree of x over K**

Example.

1. $[\mathbb{C} : \mathbb{R}] = 2, [\mathbb{R} : \mathbb{Q}] = \infty$
 $[K(x) : K] = \infty$ when x is transcendental
2. $[L : K] = 1 \iff L = K$

Theorem 5. Let $M \geq L \geq K$. M/K is finite $\iff M/L$ and L/K are finite.
In this case, $[M : K] = [M : L][L : K]$.

3.1.4 Algebraic Extensions

Recall: L/K is algebraic if every $x \in L$ is algebraic over K (transcendental otherwise)

Theorem 6. *Let $L \geq K$ be a field extension.*

1. *If L/K is finite, then it is algebraic*
2. *If $x \in L$ is algebraic over K , $[K(x) : K] = \deg f_x$*

Proof. 1. For $x \in L$, the set $\{1, x, \dots, x^n\}$ is linearly dependent (by assumption) where $n = [L : K] < \infty$. So there exists a non-zero $f \in K[T]$ such that $f(x) = 0$.

2. $K(x) \cong K[T]/(f_x) \cong \bigoplus_{i=1}^{\deg f_x - 1} K \cdot \overline{T}^i$ as K -vector spaces

□

Note. Algebraic extensions need not be finite. For example

$$\overline{\mathbb{Q}} = \{c \in \mathbb{C} \mid c \text{ is algebraic over } \mathbb{Q}\}$$

is not finite over $\mathbb{Q}$.

Theorem 7. *Let L/K be algebraic. The following are equivalent:*

1. *L/K is finite*
2. *There exists finite $B \subseteq L$ such that $L = K(B)$ (L is finitely generated over K)*

Proof. $(\Rightarrow)$: Take a basis.

$(\Leftarrow)$: Let $B = \{x_1, \dots, x_m\}$, $K(B) = L$. Induction on m :

If $m = 0$ then $L = K$

If $m \geq 1$, $L = K(x_1, \dots, x_m)/K(x_1, \dots, x_{m-1})$. Let $E = K(x_1, \dots, x_{m-1})$,

$L = E(x_m)$ is finite over E . E is finite over K by induction. So L/K is finite by Theorem 5. □

Theorem 8. $M \geq L \geq K$.

M/K is algebraic $\iff M/L$ and L/K are algebraic.

Proof. $(\Rightarrow)$: immediate.

$(\Leftarrow)$: Let $x \in M$. Then x is algebraic over $L \implies \sum_{i=0}^n a_i x^i = 0$ for some $n \in \mathbb{N}$, $a_i \in L$.

$K' := K(a_0, \dots, a_n)$. Then x is algebraic over K' (subfield of L).

Note: each a_i is algebraic over K since L/K is. So by Theorem 7, K'/K is finite.

Theorem 6 $\implies K'(x)/K'$ is finite. So $K'(x)/K$ is algebraic by Theorem 6, hence x is algebraic over K . □

Theorem 9. $L \geq K$.

The set $\tilde{K} := \{x \in L \mid x \text{ is algebraic over } K\}$ is a subfield of L .

Proof. $0 \neq x, y \in \tilde{K} \implies xy, x + y, x^{-1}y, \in E = K(x, y)$. But E/K is finite so E/K is algebraic, meaning $xy, x + y, x^{-1}y, \in \tilde{K}$. □

$\tilde{K}$ is called the **algebraic closure** of K in L (relative algebraic closure)

3.1.5 Transcendental Extensions

Recall: $L \geq K$ field extension $\implies \exists B \subseteq L$ transcendence basis so that $L/K(B)$ is algebraic and B is algebraically independent.

If a finite B exists, its length is uniquely determined and is called **transcendence degree**.

Theorem 10. For $M \geq L \geq K$, $\text{tr deg}(M/K) = \text{tr deg}(M/L) + \text{tr deg}(L/K)$.

3.2 Splitting Fields and Algebraic Closure

3.2.1 Stem Fields

Definition. L/K is simple if $L = K(x)$ for some $x \in L$.

Theorem 1 (Kronecker). If K is a field and $f \in K[T]$ is irreducible of degree n , there exists a field extension L/K with $[L : K] = n$ such that $L = K(x)$ for some $x \in L$ with $f(x) = 0$.

Proof. Take $L := K[T]/(f)$. This is a field since f is irreducible. $x := T + (f)$ works. $\square$

Definition. The field L in Theorem 1 is called a **stem field** for f .

Corollary 2. If $f \in K[T]$ is irreducible, all stem fields of f are isomorphic.

Proof. Say L_1, L_2 are stem fields of f , $L_1 = K(x_1)$ and $L_2 = K(x_2)$. Then f irreducible means since f_{x_1}, f_{x_2} both divide f , they must equal f (up to nonzero constant). Then

$$L_1 = K[T]/(f_{x_1}) = K[T]/(f_{x_2}) = L_2$$

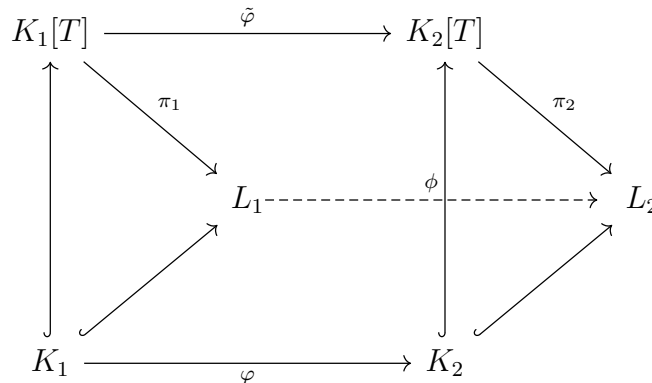
$\square$

Example. If $f(T) = T^3 - 2 \in \mathbb{Q}[T]$, if a is a root of f , the stem fields are $\mathbb{Q}(a), \mathbb{Q}(\zeta a), \mathbb{Q}(\zeta^2 a)$ where $\zeta^3 = 1$ and $\zeta \neq 1$.

Theorem 3. Let K_1, K_2 be fields. Let $\varphi : K_1 \rightarrow K_2$ be an isomorphism. Then we have a map $\tilde{\varphi} : K_1[T] \rightarrow K_2[T]$ induced by φ which sends $T \mapsto T$ and such that $\tilde{\varphi}|_{K_1} = \varphi$. Given $f \in K_1[T]$ irreducible, $f_2 := \tilde{\varphi}(f) \in K_2[T]$,

$$L_1 := K_1(x_1), \quad f(x_1) = 0, \quad L_2 := K_2(x_2), \quad f_2(x_2) = 0$$

there exists a unique isomorphism $\phi : L_1 \rightarrow L_2$ with $\phi|_{K_1} = \varphi$, $\phi(x_1) = x_2$.



Proof. Let $\pi_i : K_i[T] \rightarrow L_i, T \mapsto k_i$.
 $\ker \pi_i = (f_i) = f_i K_i[T]$ (note f_2 is also irreducible)

Let $\psi := \pi_2 \circ \tilde{\varphi} : K_1[T] \rightarrow L_2$.

$\ker \psi \supseteq (f_1)$ but f_1 is irreducible, so $\ker \psi = (f_1)$. Hence there exists $\phi : L_1 \rightarrow L_2$ with $\phi \circ \pi_1 = \psi$.

The map is surjective and injective by construction, so ϕ is an isomorphism.

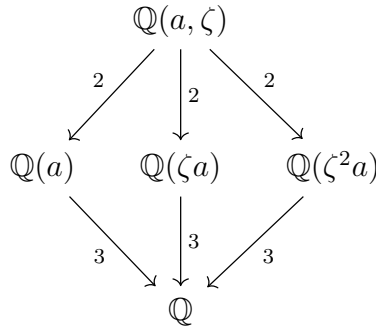
Uniqueness: exercise. □

3.2.2 Splitting Fields

Definition. Let K be a field, $f \in K[T] \setminus K$. Then N/K is a **splitting field** for $f \in K[T]$ if f splits into linear factors $f = x_0 \prod (T - x_i)$ in $N[T]$ ($x_i \in N$) and $N = K(x_1, \dots, x_n)$.

If $S \subseteq K[T]$ is a set of nonconstant polynomials, then N is a **splitting field for S** if every element of S splits into linear factors over N and N is generated by the zeroes of these polynomials.

Example. Say $f = T^3 - 2$. Let $a = 2^{\frac{1}{3}}$. We get:



$\mathbb{Q}(a, \zeta)$ is the splitting field, and the three middle fields are the stem fields.
The minimal polynomial for ζ is $\frac{T^3-1}{T-1}$.

Theorem 4. Every $f \in K[T] \setminus K$ has a splitting field that is a finite extension of K .

Proof. $\deg f = n \geq 1$. Induction on n :

$n = 1$ ✓

$n > 1$: Wlog f does not split over K , $f = gh$, g irreducible.

By Kronecker, there exists L_1/K stem field for g .

$L_1 = K_1(x_1), x_1 \in L_1, g(x_1) = 0 \implies f = (T - x_1) \cdot f_1 \in L_1[T]$

$\deg f_1 = n - 1$. f_1 has a splitting field L/L_1 by induction.

L/K is a splitting field of f over K . □

Corollary 5. $S \subseteq K[T] \setminus K$ finite. There exists a splitting field for S which is finite over K .

Theorem 6. If $\varphi : K_1 \rightarrow K_2$ is an isomorphism of fields and $\tilde{\varphi} : K_1[T] \rightarrow K_2[T]$ the induced isomorphism on polynomial rings, if $f_1 \in K_1[T] \setminus K_1$, L_1 is the splitting field of f_1 over K , and L_2 is the splitting field of $f_2 = \tilde{\varphi}(f_1)$ over K_2 , then there exists an isomorphism $\phi : L_1 \rightarrow L_2$ so that $\phi|_{K_1} = \varphi$.

Proof. Induction on $n = [L_1 : K_1]$:

If $n = 1$, then all zeros of f_1 are in K_1 and map bijectively to zeros of f_2 in K_2

If $n > 1$, then f_1 has an irreducible factor $g_1 \in K_1[T]$ of degree ≥ 2

$g_2 := \tilde{\varphi}(g_1)$ irreducible factor of f_2

$x_1 \in L_1, g_1(x_1) = 0$

$x_2 \in L_2, g_2(x_2) = 0$

Theorem 3 $\implies \exists \varphi^* : K_1(x_1) \rightarrow K_2(x_2), x_1 \mapsto x_2$ with $\varphi^*|_{K_1} = \varphi$.

L_1 is a splitting field for f_1 over $K_1(x_1)$.

L_2 is a splitting field for f_2 over $K_2(x_2)$.

Both have degree $\leq n - 1$. By induction, there exists $\phi : L_1 \rightarrow L_2$ an isomorphism with $\phi|_{K_1(x_1)} = \varphi^*$. This proves the claim. $\square$

Corollary 7. Every polynomial has a splitting field which is determined uniquely up to isomorphism.

3.2.3 Construction of an algebraic closure

Definition. L is **algebraically closed** if every nonconstant polynomial with coefficients in L has a root in L .

L is an **algebraic closure** of a field K if L is algebraically closed and L is algebraic over K .

Example. $\mathbb{C}$ is an algebraic closure of $\mathbb{R}$ but is not an algebraic closure of $\mathbb{Q}$.

Proposition 8. Let K be a field. TFAE:

1. K is algebraically closed
2. Every $f \in K[x]$ splits into linear factors
3. Every irreducible polynomial has degree 1
4. K has no proper algebraic extensions

Proof. (1) $\implies$ (2): By induction

(2) $\implies$ (3): Clear

(3) $\implies$ (4): The minimal polynomial of an element that is algebraic over K must have degree 1

(4) $\implies$ (1): If $f \in K[X]$ then f has a stem field which is algebraic over K , hence equals K . So f has a root in K . $\square$

Proposition 9. *Let L/K be a field extension, L algebraically closed. Then the algebraic closure of K in L is an algebraic closure of K .*

Proof. Let $\tilde{K} \leq L$ be the relative algebraic closure. Let $f \in \tilde{K}[X]$. Then f has a root x in L .

$\tilde{K}(x)/\tilde{K}$ is algebraic $\implies \tilde{K}(x)/K$ is algebraic $\implies x \in \tilde{K} \implies \tilde{K}$ is algebraically closed. $\square$

Algebraic closure of K in L $= \{a \in L \mid a \text{ is algebraic over } K\} = \tilde{K}$

Theorem 10. *Every field has an algebraic closure.*

Proof. Let K be a field. Let $\mathcal{X} = (X_f)_{f \in I}$. Let $I = \{f \in K[X] \mid \deg f \geq 1\}$.

Let $K[\mathcal{X}]$ be the polynomial ring in the variables X_f .

Let

$$A := (f(X_f) \mid f \in I) \trianglelefteq K[\mathcal{X}].$$

Want to show: A is a proper ideal.

Assume for contradiction that $A = K[\mathcal{X}]$. Then

$$1 = \sum_{i=1}^n g_i f_i(X_{f_i})$$

where $g_i \in K[\mathcal{X}]$, $f_i \in I$ and n is some suitable positive integer.

Let L/K be a splitting field for $\{f_1, \dots, f_n\}$. Then there exists some $x_i \in L$, a zero of f_i , for each i . Plug in x_i for X_{f_i} . Plug in 0 for all other X_f 's. We get $1 = 0$ in L . $\rightarrow \leftarrow$

So $A \subsetneq K[\mathcal{X}]$. Then there exists some $Q \trianglelefteq K[\mathcal{X}]$, $A \subseteq Q$ (Q is maximal).

Let $E_1 = K[\mathcal{X}]/Q$. Then

$$K \hookrightarrow K[\mathcal{X}] \rightarrow K[\mathcal{X}]/Q = E_1$$

is a homomorphism, so has to be injective. So without loss of generality, view K as a subfield of E_1 .

By construction, every nonconstant polynomial $f \in K[X]$ has a zero in E_1 .

Inductively, get $K = E_0 \leq E_1 \leq \dots$

Every nonconstant polynomial in $E_i[X]$ has a zero in E_{i+1} . Take

$$E := \bigcup_{i=1}^{\infty} E_i.$$

$\square$

Theorem 11. *Let K be a field, $\tilde{K}$ algebraically closed. Let $\varphi : K \rightarrow \tilde{K}$ be a homomorphism. Then if L/K is algebraic, there exists some $\phi : L \rightarrow \tilde{K}$ so that $\phi|_K = \varphi$.*

Proof. Exercise. $\square$

Corollary 12. *An algebraic closure of a field is determined uniquely up to isomorphism.*

Proof. Let K be a field, $\overline{K}, \overline{K'}$ two algebraic closures. If $\varphi : K \hookrightarrow \overline{K'}$ is an embedding, by Theorem 11, we get $\phi : \overline{K} \rightarrow \overline{K'}$ an extension of φ . So $\phi(\overline{K})$ is an algebraically closed subfield of $\overline{K'}$ and $\phi(\overline{K})/\overline{K}$ is algebraic.

So $\overline{K'}/\phi(\overline{K})$ is algebraic, meaning ϕ is surjective, hence an isomorphism. $\square$

Corollary 13. *Let K be a field, $f \in K[X]$, $\overline{K}$ the algebraic closure of K . Then there exists a unique splitting field of f contained in $\overline{K}$.*

3.3 Normal Extensions

3.3.1 Automorphisms of extensions

Definition. Let $M/K, L/K$ be field extensions. Let $\varphi : L \rightarrow M$ be a homomorphism.

We say φ is a **K -homomorphism** if $\varphi|_K = \text{id}_K$.

$\text{Aut}(L/K)$ is the set of K -automorphisms of $L =$ **automorphism group of L over K**

Note. $\text{Aut}(L/K)$ is a subgroup of $\text{Aut}(L)$.

Example. $\text{Aut}(\mathbb{C}/\mathbb{R}) \cong \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$ (generated by complex conjugation)

Theorem 1. *Let $f \in K[X]$ be irreducible with stem field L . Then $|\text{Aut}(L/K)| = |\{y \in L \mid f(y) = 0\}| \leq [L : K]$.*

Proof. $L = K(x)$ for some zero x of f .

$\varphi \in \text{Aut}(L/K) \implies \varphi(f)(x) = \varphi(f(x)) = 0$.

So φ must send x to another root of f . On the other hand, if $y \in L$ and $f(y) = 0$, then

Theorem 2.3 $\implies \exists \varphi : L \rightarrow L, \varphi|_K = \text{id}_K, \varphi(x) = y$.

Thus $\text{Aut}(L/K)$ is in bijection with $\{y \in L \mid f(y) = 0\}$.

$\deg f = [L : K] \implies$ gives last claim (this is by Theorem 2.6) $\square$

Example.

1. $K = \mathbb{Q}, f = X^4 - 2, L = \mathbb{Q}(x)$ stem field.
 $f = (X - 2^{\frac{1}{4}})(X + 2^{\frac{1}{4}})(X^2 + 2^{\frac{1}{2}}) \in L[X]$
 $\text{Aut}(L/K) = \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$ (generated by sending the root you choose to its negative)
2. If we looked at $K = \mathbb{Q}(i), f$ as above, we would get something different.

Proposition 2. *Let K be a field, $f \in K[X]$ so that f has n pairwise distinct roots, N/K splitting field of f . Then there exists $\pi : \text{Aut}(N/K) \rightarrow S_n$ injective, induced from the action of $\text{Aut}(N/K)$ on the zeros of f .*

Proof. Iterated application of Theorem 2.3 shows injectivity. $\square$

Example. If $N/\mathbb{Q}$ is the splitting field of $f = X^4 - 2 \in \mathbb{Q}[X]$, then the roots are $a, -a, ia, -ia$ and the automorphism group contains

$$\varphi : a \mapsto ia, \quad \pi(\varphi) = (1234)$$

and

$$\psi : i \mapsto -i, \quad \pi(\psi) = (24)$$

so $D_4 \leq \pi(\text{Aut}(N/K)) \leq S_4$. And since e.g. $(123) \notin \pi(\text{Aut}(N/K))$ we know $\text{Aut}(N/K) \cong D_4$.

Note that in this example, $[N : K] = 8$. A natural question is: is it always true that $|\text{Aut}(N/K)| \leq [N : K]$?

Theorem 3 (Dedekind). *Let H be a monoid, K a field. If $\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_n : H \rightarrow K^\times$ are homomorphisms of monoids, then TFAE:*

1. $\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_n$ are pairwise disjoint
2. $\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_n$ are linearly independent as maps $H \rightarrow K$

Proof. (2) $\Rightarrow$ (1) is clear.

(1) $\Rightarrow$ (2):

Suppose $\sum_{i=1}^n a_i \sigma_i = 0$ for $a_i \in K$ not all zero.

Without loss of generality assume this relation is of minimal length (number of nonzero a_i).

Without loss of generality assume $a_1 = 1, a_2 \neq 0$.

$\sigma_1 \neq \sigma_2 \implies \exists h \in H$ such that $\sigma_1(h) \neq \sigma_2(h) \implies$

$$\sum_{i=1}^n a_i \sigma_i(h) \sigma_i(g) = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i \sigma_i(hg) = 0 \text{ for all } g \in H.$$

But also

$$\sigma_1(h) \sum_{i=1}^n a_i \sigma_i(g) = 0 \text{ for all } g \in H.$$

Take the difference of these to get

$$\sum_{i=2}^n (\sigma_i(h) - \sigma_1(h)) a_i \sigma_i(g) = 0.$$

Note that we constructed these coefficients of $\sigma_i(g)$ to be nonzero for all $i = 2, \dots, n$. But then

$$\sum_{i=2}^n (\sigma_i(h) - \sigma_1(h)) \sigma_i = 0$$

is a shorter nontrivial relation. $\rightarrow \leftarrow$

□

Corollary 4. *If L_1 and L_2 are extensions of a field K and $[L_1 : K] < \infty$ then there are at most $[L_1 : K]$ different K -homomorphisms $L_1 \rightarrow L_2$. In particular, $|\text{Aut}(L_1/K)| \leq [L_1 : K]$.*

Proof. Let $H = L_1 \setminus \{0\}$ in Theorem 3. Then the number of homomorphisms is bounded by the dimension of $\text{Hom}_K(L_1, L_2)$ as an L_2 -vector space.

$$\dim_{L_2}(\text{Hom}_K(L_1, L_2)) = \dim_K L_1 = [L_1 : K]. \quad \square$$

3.3.2 Normality

Definition. Let N/K be algebraic. We say N/K is **normal** if every irreducible polynomial in $K[X]$ which has a root in N splits into linear factors in N .

Theorem 5. *Let K be a field and $\overline{K}$ the algebraic closure of K . Suppose N/K is algebraic. Then TFAE:*

1. N/K is normal
2. Every K -homomorphism $\varphi : N \rightarrow \overline{K}$ is a K -automorphism of N .
3. N is the splitting field of a set of irreducible polynomials.

Proof. (1) $\Rightarrow$ (2): N/K is normal. Say $\varphi : N \rightarrow \overline{K}$ is a K -homomorphism. $x \in N$ has minimal polynomial $f_x \Rightarrow f_x$ has zeros $x_1, \dots, x_n \in N$ and $\deg f_x = n$.

$L := K(x_1, \dots, x_n) \geq N \Rightarrow L/K$ is finite and $\varphi(L) \subseteq L$ because φ is a K -homomorphism. Then $\varphi|_L : L \rightarrow L$ must be surjective (L is a finite-dimensional vector space). So there exists $y \in L$ such that $\varphi(y) = x$. Then φ is surjective. So φ is an automorphism of N/K .

(2) $\Rightarrow$ (3):

N/K algebraic $\Rightarrow$ for every $x \in N$ there exists a minimal polynomial f_x . Let $y \in \overline{K}$ be any zero of f_x . By Theorem 2.3, there exists $\varphi : K(x) \rightarrow K(y), x \mapsto y$ so that $\varphi|_K = \text{id}_K$.

Then Theorem 2.6 implies that there exists a K -homomorphism $\phi : N \rightarrow \overline{K}, \phi|_N = \varphi$. So $\phi \in \text{Aut}(N/K) \Rightarrow y \in N \Rightarrow N$ contains the splitting field for $f_x \Rightarrow N$ is normal and N is the splitting field for $\{f_x \mid x \in N\}$.

We've now shown $1 \Rightarrow 2, 2 \Rightarrow 1, 2 \Rightarrow 3$. Remains to show:

(3) $\Rightarrow$ (2):

Let $\varphi : N \rightarrow \overline{K}$ be a K -homomorphism. Then $f(\varphi(x)) = 0$ for any $f \in K[X]$ and $x \in N$ so that $f(x) = 0$. Thus $\varphi(N) \leq N$.

As in the first part, conclude that $\varphi \in \text{Aut}(N/K)$. $\square$

Corollary 6. *N/K is a finite normal extension $\iff N$ is the splitting field of a polynomial with coefficients in K .*

3.3.3 Finite Fields

Proposition 7. *If K is a finite field, then $|K| = p^n$ where p is prime and $n \in \mathbb{N} \setminus \{0\}$.*

Proof. $|K| < \infty \implies K$ has prime field $\mathbb{F}_p$ for some prime p .

K is a vector space over $\mathbb{F}_p$ of some dimension $n < \infty$. □

Proposition 8. *If p is a prime and K is a field of characteristic p , then $\varphi : K \rightarrow K, a \mapsto a^p$ is an endomorphism of K .*

Proof. $\varphi(1) = 1$ and φ is multiplicative. To show that φ is also additive,

$$\varphi(a + b) = (a + b)^p = \sum_{i=0}^p \binom{p}{i} a^i b^{p-i} b^{p-i} = a^p + b^p = \varphi(a) + \varphi(b).$$

□

Definition. φ as in Proposition 8 is called the **Frobenius endomorphism**.

Theorem 9. *If K is a finite field, $K^\times$ is cyclic.*

Proof. We proved last semester that since $K^\times$ is finite and abelian, K is a direct product of finite groups of prime power order.

Suffices to show: every Sylow subgroup is cyclic.

Let U be a q -Sylow of $K^\times$. Then there exists some $k \in \mathbb{N} \setminus \{0\}$ such that $u^{q^k} = 1$ for all $u \in U$. Thus $|U| \leq q^k$ since all elements are now roots of $x^{q^k} - 1$. So without loss of generality choose k minimal.

Then pick $u \in U$ of order $q^k \implies U = \langle u \rangle$ is cyclic. □

Theorem 10. *If p is a prime and $n \in \mathbb{N} \setminus \{0\}$, then there exists a field K with $|K| = p^n$, unique up to isomorphism. It is the splitting field of $f(X) = X^q - X$ over $\mathbb{F}_p$, where $q = p^n$.*

Proof. Take $N/\mathbb{F}_p$ splitting field of f . Let $K = \{y \in N \mid f(y) = 0\}$. By Proposition 8, K is a field.

K contains $\mathbb{F}_p$ and all roots of f . And $K \subseteq N$. So $K = N$.

As in Theorem 9, $|K| = q$.

For uniqueness, if $|L| = q$ then by Theorem 9, $L^\times$ is cyclic of order $q - 1$ so $a^q = a$ for all $a \in L$. Thus L is a splitting field of f , so $L \cong N$. □

3.4 Resultants

3.4.1 The resultant as a linear combination

Definition. Let $f = \sum_{i=0}^n a_i X^i$ and $g = \sum_{j=0}^m b_j X^j$, $a_n \neq 0, b_m \neq 0$.
The **resultant** of f and g is

$$\text{Res}(f, g) := \det \left(\begin{array}{cccccccc} a_n & a_{n-1} & \cdots & a_0 & & & & \\ & a_n & a_{n-1} & \cdots & a_0 & & & \\ & & \ddots & & & \ddots & & \\ & & & a_n & \cdots & \cdots & a_0 & \\ b_m & \cdots & b_0 & & & & & \\ & \ddots & & & & & & \\ & & b_m & \cdots & \cdots & b_0 & & \end{array} \right) \quad \left. \begin{array}{l} \vdots \\ \vdots \\ \vdots \end{array} \right\} m \quad \left. \begin{array}{l} \vdots \\ \vdots \\ \vdots \end{array} \right\} n$$

Set $R(f, g) = 0$ if $f = 0$ or $g = 0$.

Note: if f, g are constant, $R(f, g) = 0$.

Theorem 1. $f, g \in K[X] \setminus K \implies \exists u, v \in K[X]$ so that $R(f, g) = uf + vg$, $\deg u < \deg g$, $\deg v < \deg f$.

Proof. Let f, g be as above. Without loss of generality assume $m \neq 0 \neq n$.

$$\begin{aligned} X^{m-1}f &= a_n X^{m+n-1} + a_{n-1} X^{m+n-2} + \cdots + a_0 X^{m-1} \\ X^{m-2}f &= a_n X^{m+n-2} + a_{n-1} X^{m+n-3} + \cdots + a_1 X^{m-1} + a_0 X^{m-2} \\ &\vdots \\ f &= a_n X^n + \cdots + a_0 \\ X^{n-1}g &= b_m X^{m+n-1} + \cdots \\ &\vdots \\ g &= \cdots \end{aligned}$$

This is a linear system: If

$$c = \begin{pmatrix} X^{m-1}f \\ \vdots \\ f \\ X^{n-1}g \\ \vdots \\ g \end{pmatrix}$$

then

$$c = c_{m+n-1} X^{m+n-1} + \cdots + c_0 X^0 = C \begin{pmatrix} X^{m+n-1} \\ \vdots \\ X^0 \end{pmatrix}$$

where $C = (c_{m+n-1}, \dots, c_0)$ is as in the definition of $R(f, g)$.

By Cramer's rule,

$$\det(C)X^i = \det(c_{m+n-1}, \dots, c_{i+1}, c, c_{i-1}, \dots, c_0)$$

Then for $i = 0$, $\det C = \det(c_{m+n-1}, \dots, c_1, c)$. So performing Laplace on the last column, $R(f, g)$ is a linear combination of f and g with coefficients of degree bounded by $m - 1$ and $n - 1$, respectively. $\square$

Corollary 2. *Let f, g be as in the definition ($a_n \neq 0$ and $b_m \neq 0$). Then $R(f, g) = 0 \iff f$ and g have a common factor.*

Proof. $(\Leftarrow)$: Suppose $f = f_1h, g = g_1h$. Say $\deg f_1 < \deg f$ and $\deg g_1 < \deg g$ (h is not a constant).

Then $g_1f - f_1g = 0$.

$\deg g_1 < \deg g \implies \deg g_1 \leq m - 1$.

$\deg f_1 < \deg f \implies \deg f_1 \leq n - 1$.

$\implies X^{m-1}f, \dots, Xf, f, X^{n-1}g, \dots, g$ are K -linearly dependent. So there exists $a \in K^{m+n}$, $a \neq 0$ such that

$$a \cdot C \begin{pmatrix} X^{n+m-1} \\ \vdots \\ X^0 \end{pmatrix} = 0.$$

Thus $\det C = R(f, g) = 0$ since $X^{m+n-1}, \dots, X^0$ are linearly independent.

$(\Rightarrow)$: $R(f, g) = 0 \implies uf = vg$ for some $u, v \in K[X]$ with $\deg u < \deg g$ and $\deg v < \deg f$. Without loss of generality u, v are coprime. For degree reasons, not all prime factors of f can divide v (with appropriate multiplicities), so we have the claim. $\square$

Example. $f = X^2 - 4X + 3 = (X - 1)(X - 3)$

$g = 2X - 2 = 2(X - 1)$

$R(f, g) = 0$

$$\det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -4 & 3 \\ 2 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & -2 \end{pmatrix} = 1(4) - 2(8 - 6) = 0.$$

3.4.2 Representation in zeros

Theorem 3.

$$\begin{aligned} f &= a_n \prod_{i=1}^n (X - \alpha_i), \quad g = b_m \prod_{j=1}^m (X - \beta_j) \in K[X] \setminus K \\ \implies R(f, g) &= a_n^m b_m^n \prod_{i=1}^n \prod_{j=1}^m (\alpha_i - \beta_j) \end{aligned}$$

Corollary 4.

$$R(f, g) = a_n \prod_{i=1}^n g(\alpha_i) = b_m \prod_{j=1}^m f(\beta_j)$$

Example. If $f = (X - 1)(X - 3)$ and $g = X - 2$ then

$$R(f, g) = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & -4 & 3 \\ 1 & -2 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 \end{pmatrix} = -1.$$

And

$$R(f, g) = (2 - 1)(2 - 3) = (1 - 2)(3 - 2) = -1.$$

Corollary 5. K field, $\overline{K}$ algebraic closure, $x \in \overline{K}$, $y \in \overline{K} \setminus \{0\}$ with minimal polynomials f_x, f_y . Then

1. $x + y$ is a zero of $R(f_x(X - Y), f_y(Y))$

2. $\frac{x}{y}$ is a zero of $R(f_x(X \cdot Y), f_y(Y))$

where the resultant is taken with respect to y .

Proof. Exercise. □

Example. $x = 2, y = \sqrt{5}$.

Find the polynomial in $\mathbb{Q}[X]$ that has $2 + \sqrt{5}$ as a root.

$$f_x = X - 2 \text{ and } f_x(X - Y) = X - Y - 2$$

$$f_y = X^2 - 5$$

So

$$R(f_x(X - Y), f_y(Y)) = R(X - Y - 2, Y^2 - 5) = \det \begin{pmatrix} -1 & X - 2 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 & X - 2 \\ 1 & 0 & -5 \end{pmatrix} = (X - 2)^2 - 5 = X^2 - 4X - 1.$$

Proof. (Of Theorem 3)

If $a \in K$ and $f, g \in K[X]$, $\deg f = n$ and $\deg g = m$, then $R(af, g) = a^m R(f, g)$ and $R(f, ag) = a^n R(f, g)$.

So without loss of generality, assume $a_n = b_m = 1$.

View the zeros of f, g as variables. $f, g \in K[A_1, \dots, A_n, B_1, \dots, B_m][X]$.

$$R(f, g) \in K[A_1, \dots, A_n, B_1, \dots, B_m].$$

By Corollary 2, $R(f, g) = 0$ when $A_i = B_j$ i.e. $A_i - B_j$ divides $R(f, g)$ for all i, j . Thus

$$S := \prod_i \prod_j (A_i - B_j) \text{ divides } R(f, g).$$

$\deg R(f, g) \leq n \cdot m$ as a polynomial in the A_i 's, so if $R(f, g) = S \cdot T$, $\deg T = 0$ in the A_i 's. A similar argument in the B variables forces $T \in K$.

Letting $A_i = 0, B_j = 1$ for all i, j , we get

$$(-1)^{nm} = R(X^n, (X - 1)^m) = T \cdot S = T \cdot (-1)^{nm} \implies T = 1.$$

□

3.4.3 The discriminant of a polynomial

Definition. K field, $f \in K[X] \setminus K$, $\deg f = n$. $x_1, \dots, x_n \in \overline{K}$ roots of f . Then

$$D(f) = \prod_{i < j} (x_i - x_j)^2$$

is the **discriminant** of f .

Example. $f = X^2 + aX + b \in K[X]$ has roots $\frac{a}{2} \pm \sqrt{\frac{a^2}{4} - b}$ (assume K has characteristic $\neq 2$)

Then $D(f) = a^2 - 4b$.

Theorem 6. $f \in K[X]$ monic, $\deg f = n \geq 1$. Then

$$D(f) = (-1)^{\frac{n(n+1)}{2}} R(f, f').$$

In particular, $D(f) \in K$.

Proof. By Corollary 4, $R(f, f') = \prod_{i=1}^n f'(x_i)$ where $f = \prod_{i=1}^n (X - x_i)$ in $\overline{K}[X]$.

$$\begin{aligned} \prod_{i=1}^n f'(x_i) &= \prod_{i=1}^n \sum_{k=1}^n \prod_{j \neq k} (x_i - x_j) = \prod_{i=1}^n \prod_{i \neq j} (x_i - x_j) = \prod_{i \neq j} (x_i - x_j) = \\ &= \prod_{i < j} (x_i - x_j)^2 (-1)^{\frac{n(n-1)}{2}} = (-1)^{\frac{n(n-1)}{2}} D(f). \end{aligned}$$

□

Example. $f = X^2 + aX + b$, $f' = 2X + a$, $n = 2$
 $\frac{n(n-1)}{2} = 1$

$$R(f, f') = \det \begin{pmatrix} 1 & a & b \\ 2 & a & 0 \\ 0 & 2 & a \end{pmatrix} = a^2 - 2a^2 + 4b = D(f).$$

3.5 Separable extensions

3.5.1 Separable polynomials

Definition. Let K be a field. $f \in K[X] \setminus K$ is **separable** if it has only simple roots (in an algebraic closure $\overline{K}$).

If L/K is algebraic, $x \in L$ is **separable over** K if its minimal polynomial is.

L/K is **separable** if every $x \in L$ is separable over K .

Otherwise, L/K (resp. x, f_x) is **inseparable**.

Proposition 1. Let K be a field, $f \in K[X] \setminus K$. TFAE:

1. f is inseparable
2. $D(f) = 0$
3. f and f' have a common factor or $f' = 0$

Proof. (1) $\iff$ (2) by definition of discriminant

(2) $\iff$ (3): $D(f) = 0 \iff R(f, f') = 0$ so wlog $\deg f \geq 2$: then if $f' = 0$ or f and f' have a common factor, $R(f, f') = 0$

Conversely, if $R(f, f') = 0$ and $f' \neq 0$ then f and f' have a common factor (Corollary 4.2) $\square$

Note. If $f \in K[X]$ has a double/multiple root and $\text{char} K = 0$ then f is not irreducible.

If $\text{char} K > 0$ then f may be irreducible and inseparable. e.g. $f = X^p - t, K = \mathbb{F}_p(t)$ has a p -fold root:

$f = (X - x_1) \cdots (X - x_p) \in N[X]$ where N is a splitting field.

$x_1 \neq 0 \implies \zeta_i = \frac{x_i}{x_1}$ satisfies $\zeta_i^p = 1$.

But then $\zeta_i = 1$ since Frobenius is injective.

So $f = (X - x_1)^p$.

But f is irreducible: if $f = g \cdot h$ for $g, h \in K[X] \setminus K$ monic, then $g = (X - x_1)^s, h = (X - x_1)^r$ for some $r, s < p$. Thus $x_1^s \in K$.

$ms + np = 1$ since $\gcd(s, p) = 1$. So $x_1 = x_1^{ms+np} = (x_1^s)^m (x_1^p)^n \in K \rightarrow \leftarrow$

Theorem 2. K field, $f \in K[X] \setminus K$ irreducible.

1. If $\text{char} K = 0$ then f is separable.
2. If $\text{char} K = p > 0$ then f is inseparable $\iff f' = 0$.
In this case, f is a polynomial in X^p i.e. $\exists g \in K[X]$ such that $f = g(X^p)$.

Proof. 1. $\deg f' = \deg f - 1 \implies$ since f is irreducible, f, f' have no common factor $\implies f$ is separable, by Prop 1.

2. f inseparable $\iff$ since f is irreducible, $f'(x) = 0 \iff$ exponents are all multiples of p .

$\square$

So all algebraic extensions of a characteristic 0 field are separable.

3.5.2 Perfect fields

Definition. Let K be a field. K is **perfect** if every irreducible polynomial with coefficients in K is separable.

Example. $K = \mathbb{F}_p(t)$ is not perfect.

Theorem 3. 1. Every field of characteristic 0 is perfect.

2. $\text{char} K = p > 0$. Then K is perfect $\iff$ the Frobenius endomorphism is an automorphism of K (surjectivity)

Proof. (1) we already knew.

For (2), let ϕ be the Frobenius endomorphism. We will show: ϕ is not surjective $\iff$ K is not perfect.

($\Leftarrow$):

K not perfect $\implies \exists f \in K[X]$ inseparable and irreducible $\implies$ by Theorem 2, $f = \sum_{i=0}^n a_i X^{p^i}$.

Suppose for contradiction that ϕ is surjective. Then $a_i = b_i^p$ for some $b_i \in K$. So $f = \sum b_i^p X^{p^i} = (\sum b_i X^i)^p \rightarrow \leftarrow$ (not irreducible)

($\Rightarrow$):

Suppose ϕ is not surjective. Then there exists $t \in K \setminus K^p \implies f := X^p - t$ does not split over K .

Take L/K splitting field, $y \in L/K$ a zero of f (so $y^p = t$). Then $f = (X - y)^p$ (as in the example) is inseparable.

y has some minimal polynomial f_y , which is irreducible. $f_y \mid f \implies f_y$ is inseparable (not linear) and irreducible. Thus K is not perfect. $\square$

Corollary 4. *Finite fields are perfect.*

3.5.3 The separable degree

Definition. L/K algebraic extension, $\overline{K}$ algebraic closure of K .

$$[L : K]_s = |\{\varphi : L \rightarrow \overline{K} \text{ K-homomorphisms}\}|$$

is the **separable degree of L over K**

Example. $L \geq K = \mathbb{F}_p(t)$ splitting field of $f = X^p - t$

L is normal $\implies |\{\varphi : L \rightarrow \overline{K} \text{ K-homomorphisms}\}| = |\text{Aut}(L/K)|$

$\varphi \in \text{Aut}(L/K) \implies \varphi$ maps zeros to zeros $\implies \varphi = \text{id}_L$. So $[L : K]_s = 1$ (i.e. L/K is not separable)

Lemma 5. K field, $\overline{K}$ algebraic closure, $f \in K[X] \setminus K$ irreducible with stem field $L \implies [L : K]_s = |\{y \in \overline{K} \mid f(y) = 0\}|$.

Proof. Theorem 2.3. $\square$

Proposition 6. K field, $f \in K[X] \setminus K$ irreducible with stem field L . Then $[L : K]_s \leq [L : K]$ with equality when f is separable.

Proof. Lemma 5. $\square$

Theorem 7. $M \geq L \geq K$ tower of algebraic extensions $\implies [M : K]_s = [M : L]_s \cdot [L : K]_s$.

Proof. Pick an algebraic closure $\overline{K}$ containing M . Without loss of generality M/L is simple (the general case follows from induction).

Then M is a stem field of an irreducible $f \in L[X]$. $\varphi : M \rightarrow \overline{K}$ K -homomorphism $\implies \varphi|_L : L \rightarrow \overline{K}$ is a K -homomorphism. Hence, we want to count extensions of a given $\psi : L \rightarrow \overline{K}$ to M .

M/L is simple so by Theorem 2.3, there are exactly $|\{y \in \overline{K} \mid f(y) = 0\}|$ extensions.

Lemma 5 $\implies |\{y \in \overline{K} \mid f(y) = 0\}| = [M : L]_s$. $\square$

Corollary 8. *An extension generated by a separable element is separable.*

Proof. K field, $K(x)$ simple extension with x separable over K . Let $y \in K(x)$. Then by Proposition 6, $[K(x) : K] = [K(x) : K]_s$, which, by Theorem 7, $= [K(x) : K(y)]_s \cdot [K(y) : K]_s = [K(x) : K(y)] \cdot [K(y) : K]_s$.

We know: $[K(x) : K] = [K(x) : K(y)] \cdot [K(y) : K]$, thus $[K(y) : K]_s = [K(y) : K]$. Then by Proposition 6, $K(y)/K$ is separable. $\square$

3.5.4 Primitive element theorem

Definition. If $L = K(x)$ is a simple extension, we say x is a **primitive element** for L/K .

Theorem 9 (Primitive Element Theorem). *If $L = K(y, z)/K$ is finite and z is separable over K , then $L = K(x)$ for some $x \in L$ i.e. L admits a primitive element.*

In particular, every finite separable extension is a simple separable extension.

Proof. If $|K| < \infty$, then $|L| < \infty$ and $L \setminus \{0\}$ is cyclic, so we can just take a generator.

So without loss of generality assume $|K| = \infty$. Let f_y, f_z be minimal polynomials of y, z over K respectively. Let N be a splitting field of $f_y \cdot f_z$. In $N[X]$,

$$f_y = \prod_{i=1}^n (x - y_i) \quad f_z = \prod_{j=1}^m (x - z_j)$$

where $y_i \in N$, $y_1 = y$, $z_j \in N$, $z_j = z$, and $z_1, \dots, z_m$ are distinct (f_z was separable).

Let $a \in K$. If $y_i + az_j = y + az$ for some $i, j \neq 1$ then

$$a = \frac{y_i - y}{z - z_j}$$

$\implies a$ is in a finite list.

$|K| = \infty \implies \exists a \in K$ for which $y_i + az_j \neq y + az$ for all $i, j \neq 1$.

Let $x := y + az$. Claim: $L = K(x)$.

$y = x - az \implies f_y(x - az) = 0 \implies z$ is a zero of $f_y(x - a \cdot X) =: h \in K(x)[X] \implies z$ is a zero of $\gcd(f_z, h)$ in $K(x)[X]$.

If $j \neq 1$,

$$h(z_j) = f_y(x - az_j) = f_y(y + az - az_j) \neq 0.$$

Thus $\gcd(f_z, h) = X - z \in K(x)[X] \implies z \in K(x) \implies y = x - az \in K(x) \implies K(x) = L$.
The last claim follows by induction. $\square$

Example. $K = \mathbb{F}_p(t, u)$

L splitting field of $(X^p - t)(X^p - u) \in K[X]$

Exercise: if $L = K(y, z)$ where $y^p = t$ and $z^p = u$ then $[L : K] = p^2$.

Then $x \in L \implies x \in K[y, z] \implies$

$$x = \sum_{i=0}^{p-1} \sum_{j=0}^{p-1} a_{ij} y^i z^j, \quad a_{ij} \in K.$$

$$x^p = \sum_{i=0}^{p-1} \sum_{j=0}^{p-1} a_{ij}^p y^{ip} z^{jp} = \sum_{i=0}^{p-1} \sum_{j=0}^{p-1} a_{ij}^p t^i u^j \in K$$

$\implies [K(x) : K] \leq p$ for all $x \in L \implies$ no primitive element exists for L/K .

Theorem 10. L/K finite $\implies [L : K]_s \leq [L : K]$ with equality exactly when L/K is separable.

Proof. $[L : K]_s \leq [L : K]$ from Corollary 3.4 (Dedekind's theorem)

$(\Leftarrow) : L/K$ finite separable $\implies L/K$ simple separable (Theorem 9) $\implies [L : K] = [L : K]$ by Prop 6.

$(\Rightarrow) : [L : K]_s = [L : K]$

Let $L = K(y_1, \dots, y_n), y_i \in L$.

Let $L_i = K(y_1, \dots, y_i)$. We get a tower $K = L_0 \subseteq \dots \subseteq L_n = L \implies [L_i : L_{i-1}]_s = [L_i : L_{i-1}]$ for all i .

By Proposition 6, L_i/L_{i-1} is stem field of separable polynomial, hence is separable. Thus y_i is separable over $K \implies$ by Theorem 9, $L_2 = K(y_2, y_1)$ is a simple extension $\implies L_2/K$ is separable by Proposition 6/

Induction gives: L/K is separable. $\square$

Corollary 11. L/K algebraic, $y_1, \dots, y_n \in L$ separable over $K \implies K(y_1, \dots, y_n)/K$ separable.

Corollary 12. K field, N splitting field of a separable polynomial with coefficients in K . Then

$$|\text{Aut}(N/K)| = [N : K].$$

Example. $N/\mathbb{F}_p$ splitting field of $X^{p^n} - X$ separable $\implies |N| = p^n \implies |\text{Aut}(N/\mathbb{F}_p)| = [N : \mathbb{F}_p] = n$.

ϕ Frobenius automorphism $\implies \phi \in \text{Aut}(N/\mathbb{F}_p) \implies \langle \phi \rangle \leq \text{Aut}(N/\mathbb{F}_p)$.

Let $m = |\phi|$.

m is minimal such that $\phi^m = 1$ i.e. such that $a^{p^m} = a$ for all $a \in N \implies m = n \implies \text{Aut}(N/\mathbb{F}_p) = \langle \phi \rangle$ cyclic group of order n .

3.5.5 Separable and perfect closure

Definition. K field, $\overline{K}$ algebraic closure

$K^s := \{a \in \overline{K} \mid a \text{ separable over } K\}$ is called the **separable closure of K (in $\overline{K}$)**

Proposition 13. 1. $K^s \leq \overline{K}$

2. Every separable polynomial in $K[X]$ splits into linear factors in $K^s[X]$

3. K^s/K is normal

Proof. Exercise □

Assume until the end of this section that $\text{char} K = p > 0$.

Definition. Let L/K be algebraic. Then L is **purely inseparable** if no element in L/K is separable over K .

Note.

1. L/K is purely inseparable $\iff L/K$ has no intermediate field extensions which are separable over K .
2. If L/K is finite ($L \neq K$), then L/K is purely inseparable $\iff [L : K]_s = 1$.

Proposition 14. L/K algebraic extension. TFAE:

1. L/K is purely inseparable and is perfect
2. L is perfect and minimal with this property (i.e. if E/K is an extension with E perfect, then there is a K -embedding $L \hookrightarrow E$)

If L satisfies these conditions, then the embedding given by (2) is unique. Any extension satisfying the conditions is uniquely isomorphic to

$$K_p := \{a \in \overline{K} \mid a^{p^n} \in K \text{ for some } n \geq 0\}.$$

Proof. K_p/K is a subfield of $\overline{K}$ and is perfect by definition. Moreover, K_p/K is purely inseparable $\implies K_p$ satisfies (1).

If E/K is perfect, then there exists an embedding $\overline{K} \hookrightarrow E$ extending $K \hookrightarrow E$.

If $a \in K_p$ then $a^{p^n} \in K$ some $n \implies a^{p^n} \in E = E^p \implies a \in E$ (p -th roots are unique).

So $K_p \leq E$ i.e. K_p satisfies (2).

If L/K is algebraic and satisfies (2), then since K_p is perfect, $L \hookrightarrow K_p$. Now K_p/L is purely inseparable but L is perfect $\implies K_p = L$.

Similarly, if L/K satisfies (1), then L is perfect so $K_p \hookrightarrow L$ by the first part of the proof $\implies L/K_p$ is purely inseparable, K_p is perfect $\implies L = K_p$. $\square$

Definition. A extension as in Proposition 14 is called a **perfect closure of K** . Notation: $K^{p^{-\infty}}$.

Example. $L = K(a)$, f_a minimal polynomial.

Exercise: $f_a = g(X^{p^n})$ for some n , some irreducible and separable $g \implies g$ is the minimal polynomial of a^{p^n} .

So we have $K \leq K(a^{p^n}) \leq K(a) = L$ where the first extension is separable and the second extension is purely inseparable.

3.6 The Galois Correspondence

3.6.1 Galois extensions

Definition. A extension L/K is a **Galois extension** if it is normal and separable. The Galois group is $\text{Gal}(L/K) = \text{Aut}(L/K)$.

Lemma 1. A finite extension is a Galois extension $\iff$ it is the splitting field of a separable polynomial.

Theorem 2. A finite extension is Galois $\iff |\text{Aut}(L/K)| = [L : K]$.

Proof. $(\implies)$: L/K finite and Galois $\implies$ by Lemma 1, L is the splitting field of a separable polynomial in $K[X] \implies$ by Corollary 5.12, we get the claim.

$(\impliedby)$: $|\text{Aut}(L/K)| \leq |\{\varphi : L \rightarrow \overline{K}\}| \leq [L : K]$, meaning $|\text{Aut}(L/K)| \leq [L : K]_s \leq [L : K]$ so $|\text{Aut}(L/K)| = [L : K] \implies L/K$ is normal and separable (Theorem 5.10) $\square$

3.6.2 Fixed Fields

Lemma 3. N field, $G \leq \text{Aut}(N)$.

Then $N^G := \{n \in N \mid \forall \sigma \in G, \sigma(n) = n\}$ is a field.

Proof. Exercise. $\square$

Lemma 4 (Artin). N field, $G \leq \text{Aut}(N)$, G finite $\implies [N : N^G] = |G|$.

Proof. $|G| \leq |\text{Aut}(N/N^G)| \leq [N : N^G]$.

Say $G = \{\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_n\}$. Let $y_1, \dots, y_{n+1} \in N$.

Want to show: these satisfy a nontrivial N^G relation.

Consider

$$\sum_{i=1}^{n+1} \sigma_j^{-1}(y_i) a_i = 0 \text{ for } j = 1, \dots, n.$$

This is a linear system in indeterminates $a_1, \dots, a_{n+1}$. Then there exists a solution $(z_1, \dots, z_{n+1}) \neq (0, \dots, 0) \in N^{n+1}$. Without loss of generality, assume $z_1 \neq 0$. By Dedekind, $\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_n$ are linearly independent. In particular, $\sum_{j=1}^n \sigma_j$ is not the zero map.

After multiplying $(z_1, \dots, z_{n+1})$ with an element of N , we may assume $\sum_{j=1}^n \sigma_j(z_1) \neq 0$. Apply σ_j to the j -th equation and add:

$$\begin{aligned} 0 &= \sum_{j=1}^n \sigma_j \left(\sum_{i=1}^{n+1} \sigma_j^{-1}(y_i) z_i \right) \\ 0 &= \sum_{j=1}^n \sum_{i=1}^{n+1} y_i \sigma_j(z_i) = \sum_{i=1}^{n+1} y_i \left(\sum_{j=1}^n \sigma_j(z_i) \right) \end{aligned}$$

Notice that $\sum_{j=1}^n \sigma_j(z_i) \in N^G$.

Since the coefficient of y_i is $\sum \sigma_j(z_1) \neq 0$, $[N : N^G] \leq |G| \implies [N : N^G] = |G|$. □

Theorem 5. L/K finite, $G \leq \text{Aut}(L/K)$. TFAE:

1. L/K is Galois with group G
2. $L^G = K$

Proof. (1) $\implies$ (2): L/K Galois with group G , i.e. $G = \text{Aut}(L/K)$.

Suppose there exists $x \in L^G \setminus K$. Let f_x be the minimal polynomial for x over K .

$\deg f_x \geq 2$ and f_x is separable. f_x has a root $x' \neq x$ in L , since L is normal. By Theorem 2.3, there exists a K -homomorphism $K(x) \rightarrow K(x')$ sending x to x' .

Since L is normal, this extends to an automorphism φ of L . But $\varphi(x) \neq x \rightarrow \leftarrow$ So $x \in L^G$.

(2) $\implies$ (1): $G \leq \text{Aut}(L/K)$, $L^G = K$.

$|\text{Aut}(L/K)| = |\text{Aut}(L/L^G)| = [L : L^G] = [L : K]$ (using Artin's lemma), so L/K is Galois by Theorem 2. □

3.6.3 The Galois correspondence theorem

L/K Galois extension $\implies$ the set of intermediate fields forms a lattice

Similarly (last semester) the subgroups of $\text{Gal}(L/K)$ forms a lattice

Definition. Let V, V' be lattices. An **anti-homomorphism** of lattices is a map $\Phi : V \rightarrow V'$ such that

- $\Phi(v_1 \wedge v_2) = \Phi(v_1) \vee \Phi(v_2)$
- $\Phi(v_1 \vee v_2) = \Phi(v_1) \wedge \Phi(v_2)$

for all $v_1, v_2 \in V$. If Φ is also bijective, it is an **anti-isomorphism**.

Theorem 6 (Galois Correspondence). L/K finite Galois extension, $G = \text{Gal}(L/K)$

1. $H \leq G \implies |H| = [L : L^H]$ and $[G : H] = [L^H : K]$
2. $H \mapsto L^H$ defines an anti-isomorphism of lattices $\{\{e\} \leq H \leq G\} \rightarrow \{K \leq E \leq L\}$ with inverse $E \mapsto \text{Gal}(L/E)$
3. $H_1, H_2 \leq G$ are conjugate in $G \iff L^{H_1}$ and L^{H_2} are K -isomorphic
4. $H \trianglelefteq G \iff L^H/K$ is Galois. In this case, $\text{Gal}(L^H/K) \cong G/H$.

Note. In particular, there are only finitely many intermediate fields.

Example. $K = \mathbb{Q}$,

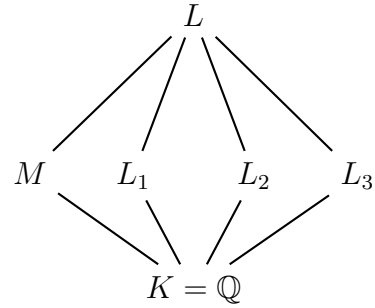
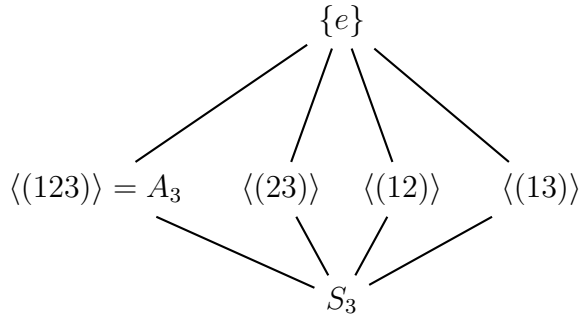
L splitting field of $f := X^3 - 2$,

$\zeta \in L$ so that $1 \neq \zeta, \zeta^3 = 1$

$L = \mathbb{Q}(\zeta, \sqrt[3]{2})$

$\text{Gal}(L/K) \cong S_3$

Subgroup lattice:



$M = L^{A_3}/\mathbb{Q}$ Galois with group $S_3/A_3 \cong \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$.

Zeros of f : $\alpha_1 = \sqrt[3]{2}$, $\alpha_2 = \zeta \sqrt[3]{2}$, $\alpha_3 = \zeta^2 \sqrt[3]{2}$

$L_1 = L^{\langle(23)\rangle} = \mathbb{Q}(\alpha_1) = \mathbb{Q}(\sqrt[3]{2})$.

Similarly for L_2 and L_3 . Also $\langle(12)\rangle, \langle(13)\rangle$, and $\langle(23)\rangle$ are conjugate, so L_1, L_2, L_3 are K -isomorphic.

$D(f) = -R(f, f') = -108 = -27 \cdot 4 = 6^2 \cdot (-3)$ and also equals $\prod_{i < j} (\alpha_i - \alpha_j)^2 \in L^2$.

So L contains a square root of -3 . $E := \mathbb{Q}(\sqrt{-3}) \implies E \leq L^{A_3} = M \implies$ for degree reasons, $E = M$.

Can also find $\sqrt{-3}$ explicitly: Let $\alpha = \alpha_1$.

$$\begin{aligned} -108 &= D(f) = ((\alpha - \zeta\alpha)(\alpha - \zeta^2\alpha)(\zeta\alpha - \zeta^2\alpha))^2 = (\alpha - \zeta\alpha)^2 \implies \\ \frac{2(1 - \zeta)^3}{6} &= \frac{(\alpha - \zeta\alpha)^3}{6} = \sqrt{-3} \implies M = \mathbb{Q}(\zeta). \end{aligned}$$

Proof. (Of Theorem 6)

1. $H \leq G \implies E = L^H$, field by Lemma 3.

Theorem 5 $\implies L/E$ is Galois with group H .

By Theorem 2, $|H| = |\text{Gal}(L/E)| = [L : E]$ and $|G| = [L : K]$ so the claim follows by Lagrange's theorem

2. $L \geq E \geq K$

L Galois $\implies L$ is splitting field of separable $f \in K[X]$

View $f \in E[X]$. Then L/E is Galois.

Let $H = \text{Gal}(L/E)$. $E = L^H$ by Theorem 5 and $\text{Gal}(L/L^H) = \text{Gal}(L/E) = H$.

Similarly, $L^{\text{Gal}(L/E)} = L^H = E$.

Both maps are bijective.

$H_1 \leq H_2 \leq G \implies L^{H_2} \leq L^{H_1}$ so this map is inclusion-reversing. Conversely, $L_2 \leq L_1 \leq L \implies$ every $\sigma \in \text{Gal}(L/L_1)$ is also in $\text{Gal}(L/L_2)$ so $\text{Gal}(L/L_1) \leq \text{Gal}(L/L_2)$.

If $H_1, H_2 \leq G$, then $\Phi(H_1 \cap H_2) = L^{H_1 \cap H_2} \geq L^{H_1} L^{H_2}$ since $H_1 \cap H_2 \subseteq H_1$ and $H_1 \cap H_2 \subseteq H_2$. On the other hand, if $E \leq L$ is arbitrary so that $L^{H_1} \leq E$ and $L^{H_2} \leq E$, then $H := \text{Gal}(L/E) \implies H \leq H_1$ and $H \leq H_2$ so $H \leq H_1 \cap H_2$. Thus $L^{H_1 \cap H_2} \leq E = L^H$.

Hence $L^{H_1 \cap H_2} = L^{H_1} L^{H_2} = \Phi(H_1) \vee \Phi(H_2)$.

Similar argument for $\Phi(H_1 \vee H_2) = \Phi(H_1) \cap \Phi(H_2)$.

3. See notes

4. By (3), $H \trianglelefteq G \iff E := L^H$ is stable under all $\sigma \in G$.

$(\implies)$: $H \trianglelefteq G$, $\psi : E = L^H \rightarrow \overline{K}$. L normal $\implies \exists$ extension $\tilde{\psi} : L \rightarrow \overline{K}$, $\tilde{\psi} \in \text{Gal}(L/K)$ i.e. $\psi \in \text{Aut}(E/K)$ as noted above.

So E is normal and separable $\implies E/K$ is Galois.

$(\impliedby)$: E/K Galois $\implies E/K$ is normal. $\sigma \in G \implies \sigma|_E : E \rightarrow L$ is an automorphism of $E \implies H \trianglelefteq G$ (again by the remark)

We get $\pi : G = \text{Gal}(L/K) \rightarrow \text{Gal}(E/K)$ by restriction. $\ker \pi = \text{Gal}(L/E) = H$. So $G/H \cong \text{Gal}(E/K)$.

□

3.6.4 Base change of Galois extensions

Theorem 7. N/K finite Galois, L/K arbitrary with $N \leq \bar{L}$. $M := NL \leq \bar{L} \implies M/L$ is Galois with group $\text{Gal}(M/L) \cong \text{Gal}(N/N \cap L)$.

Proof. N/K Galois $\implies \exists f \in K[X]$ separable, splitting field N .

M/L is splitting field of $f \in L[X] \implies$ Galois.

N normal $\implies \varphi : \text{Gal}(M/L) \rightarrow \text{Gal}(N/N \cap L)$ by restriction.

Claim: φ is injective.

If $y_1, \dots, y_n$ are the zeros of f and $\sigma \in \text{Gal}(M/L)$ with $\sigma|_N = \text{id}_N$, then $\sigma(y_i) = y_i$ for all i .
So $\sigma = \text{id}_M$ since $M = L(y_1, \dots, y_n) \implies \varphi$ is injective.

$N^{\varphi(\text{Gal}(M/L))} = N \cap L \implies$ by Galois correspondence, $\varphi(\text{Gal}(M/L)) = \text{Gal}(N/N \cap L)$. $\square$

Important special case:

L/K finite Galois, $N \cap L = K$

Corollary 8. $[M : L]$ divides $[N : K]$ with M, L, N, K as in Theorem 7.

3.6.5 The Galois group of a polynomial

N_1, N_2 splitting fields of separable $f \in K[X] \implies$ (exercise) $\text{Gal}(N_1/K) \cong \text{Gal}(N_2/K)$.

Definition. K field, $f \in K[X]$ with splitting field N , $y_1, \dots, y_n$ zeros of f in N

$\pi : \text{Gal}(N/K) \rightarrow S_n$ by permutation of $y_1, \dots, y_n$

$\pi(\text{Gal}(N/K)) =: \text{Gal}(f) \leq S_n$ is the **Galois group of f**

Proposition 9. K field, $f \in K[X]$ separable with splitting field N .

1. $\pi : \text{Gal}(N/K) \rightarrow S_n$ is faithful (injective)
2. $\text{Gal}(f)$ acts transitively on $\{1, \dots, n\} \iff f$ is irreducible
3. If $\text{char} K \neq 2$, $\text{Gal}(f) \leq A_n \iff D(f) \in K^2$

Proof. 1. We have seen this

2. $y_1, \dots, y_n \in N$. Without loss of generality, $f = \prod_{i=1}^n (X - y_i) \in N[X]$ (monic)
Suppose $\text{Gal}(f) \leq S_n$ is transitive. f_1 minimal polynomial of y_1 over $K \implies f_1 \mid f$
 $\sigma_i : \text{Gal}(N/K)$ such that $\sigma_i(y_i) = y_i$ for $i = 2, \dots, n$
 $f_1(y_i) = f_1(\sigma_i(y_1)) = \sigma_i(f_1(y_1)) = 0 \implies f_1 = f \implies f$ is irreducible.

Conversely, if f is irreducible, for each $i = 1, \dots, n$ there exists a K -homomorphism $\varphi_i : K(y_1) \rightarrow K(y_i)$ so that $\varphi(y_1) = y_i$. We can extend φ_i to $\sigma_i : N \rightarrow \bar{K}$, $\sigma_i \in \text{Gal}(N/K)$ since N is normal $\implies \text{Gal}(N/K)$ acts transitively on $y_1, \dots, y_n \implies \text{Gal}(f)$ acts transitively on $\{1, \dots, n\}$

3. $\sqrt{D(f)} \in N$
 $\sqrt{D(f)} \in K \iff \sigma(\sqrt{D(f)}) = \sqrt{D(f)} \text{ for all } \sigma \in \text{Gal}(f) \iff \text{sign}(\sigma(\sqrt{D(f)})) = \text{sign}(\sqrt{D(f)}) \text{ for all } \sigma \in \text{Gal}(f) \iff \text{sign} \sigma = 1 \text{ for all } \sigma \in \text{Gal}(f) \iff \text{Gal}(f) \leq A_n.$
 $\square$

Example. $f = X^4 + 1 \in \mathbb{Q}[X]$

N splitting field $\implies \text{Gal}(f) \leq S_4.$

$f = (X - \alpha)(X - i\alpha)(X + \alpha)(X + i\alpha) \in \mathbb{Q}[\alpha][X]$ where $\alpha^2 = i$. So a stem field is a splitting field $\implies |\text{Gal}(f)| = 4$. Then $\text{Gal}(f)$ is either $\mathbb{Z}/4\mathbb{Z}$ or V_4 . Easy to see that it is V_4 .

3.7 Cyclotomic extensions

3.7.1 Roots of unity

Proposition 1. *Let p be either a prime or 0. Let K be a field of characteristic p . Let $n = p^r m$ where $p \nmid m$. Let N be a splitting field of $X^n - 1 =: f_n \in K[X]$. Then N/K is Galois and the zeros of f_n in N form a subgroup of $(N^\times, \cdot)$ isomorphic to $\mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z}$.*

Proof. Let $n = p^r m$ and $p = \text{char} K$

$f_n = (X^m - 1)^{p^r} = f_m^{p^r} \implies N$ is a splitting field of f_m and is separable, so N/K is Galois.

Let μ = set of zeros of f_n . So $|\mu| = m$. If $\zeta_1, \zeta_2 \in \mu$ then $\zeta_1 \zeta_2 \in \mu$, $\zeta_1^{-1} \zeta_2 \in \mu$ so $\mu \leq N^\times$. And so μ is cyclic as in the proof of Theorem 3.9. $\square$

Definition. Let K be a field and N/K a splitting field of $f_n = X^n - 1$. The roots of f_n in N are called the **n -th roots of unity**.

$\mu_{n,K} :=$ set of n -th roots of unity in N

$\zeta \in \mu_{n,K}$ is **primitive** if $\langle \zeta \rangle = \mu_{n,K}$.

$\Phi_n := \prod_{\zeta \text{ primitive}} (X - \zeta)$ is the **n -th cyclotomic polynomial**

Proposition 2. K field of characteristic $p \geq 0$, $p \nmid n$.

1. $X^n - 1 = \prod_{m|n} \Phi_m.$

2. $\Phi_n \in \mathbb{Z}[X]$ or $\Phi_n \in \mathbb{F}_p[X]$

3. $\deg \Phi_n = \varphi(n)$ Euler φ -function ($\varphi(n) := |\{a \in \{1, \dots, n\} \mid \gcd(a, n) = 1\}|$)

Proof. By Proposition 1, $|\mu_{m,K}| = m$ for all $m \mid n$ (since $p \nmid n$)

1. $\zeta \in \mu_{n,K}$, $|\langle \zeta \rangle| = m \implies m \mid n$ and $\zeta \in \mu_{m,K}$ is primitive

Conversely, if $\zeta \in \mu_{m,K}$ is primitive, then $|\langle \zeta \rangle| = m$ and $m \mid n$ so

$$X^n - 1 = \prod_{\zeta \in \mu_{n,K}} (X - \zeta) = \prod_{m|n} \prod_{\zeta \in \mu_{m,K} \text{ and primitive}} (X - \zeta) = \prod_{m|n} \Phi_m$$

2. Will prove by induction on n ($n = 1$ is clear)

$$X^n - 1 = \Phi_n \cdot g \text{ where } g = \prod_{m|n, m \neq n} \Phi_m \text{ by (1).}$$

So by induction $g \in \mathbb{Z}[X]$ or $g \in \mathbb{F}_p[X]$.

But g, Φ_n are monic. Gauss' Lemma $\implies \Phi_n \in \mathbb{Z}[X]$ or $\Phi_n \in \mathbb{F}_p[X]$.

3. Clear.

□

3.7.2 Cyclotomic fields

$$\mu_n := \mu_{n, \mathbb{Q}}$$

Definition. $\mathbb{Q}(\mu_n)$ is the n -th cyclotomic field

Theorem 3. 1. $\Phi_n \in \mathbb{Q}[X]$ is irreducible

$$2. \text{Gal}(\mathbb{Q}(\zeta_n)/\mathbb{Q}) \cong ((\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z})^\times, \cdot)$$

Proof. 1. Notes

2. Take $\sigma \in \text{Gal}(\mathbb{Q}(\zeta_n)/\mathbb{Q})$, ζ_n primitive. Then $\sigma(\zeta_n)$ is primitive, so $\sigma(\zeta_n) = \zeta_n^{v(\sigma)}$ for $v(\sigma) \in (\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z})^\times$ and $\gcd(v(\sigma), n) = 1$ so $v(\sigma) \in (\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z})^\times$. This is a homomorphism. Surjective by part 1 (transitive). Injective by being stem field.

□

Definition. N/K is a **cyclic extension** (resp. abelian, solvable) if N/K is Galois with group that is cyclic (resp. abelian, solvable).

We just saw: $\mathbb{Q}(\mu_n)/\mathbb{Q}$ is abelian, and if n is prime, cyclic.

Theorem (Kronecker-Weber). $N/\mathbb{Q}$ abelian $\implies N \leq \mathbb{Q}(\zeta_n)$ some n .

3.7.3 Wedderburn's Theorem

Recall: A **skew field** is a set S with operations $\cdot, +$ which satisfy all the field axioms except possibly commutativity of $\cdot$.

$C(S) = \{s \in S \mid sx = xs \text{ for all } x \in S\}$ is the **center** of S

Theorem 4. A finite skew field is a field.

Proof. Let S be a skew field, $|S| < \infty$. $K := C(S) \implies K$ is a finite field, $\text{char} K = p > 0$. $|K| = p^r = q$ for some r . $|S| = q^n$ some n . We want: $n = 1$.

Let $x_1, \dots, x_m$ be representatives of conjugacy classes in $S^\times$.

Let $S_i^\times := C_{S^\times}(x_i)$ be the centralizer of x_i in $S^\times$.

Now

$$q^n - 1 = |S^\times| = \sum_{i=1}^m [S^\times : S_i^\times]$$

If $S_i := S_i \cup \{0\}$ is an abelian group under addition, then each S_i is a skew field. Thus $|S_i| = q^{n_i}$ where $n_i = \dim_K(S_i) < n$ (since $x_i \notin K$). Thus $\frac{X^n - 1}{X^{n_i} - 1}$ is a polynomial for all i such that $x_i \notin K$ and $q^n - 1 = (q - 1) + \sum_{x_i \notin K} \frac{q^n - 1}{q^{n_i} - 1}$.

By Proposition 2, $\Phi_n \mid X^n - 1$ and is irreducible, so $\Phi_n \mid \frac{X^n - 1}{X^{n_i} - 1}$ for i such that $x_i \notin K$, meaning

$$\prod_{\gcd(i,n)=1, 1 \leq i \leq n} (X - \zeta_n^i) = \Phi_n(q) \text{ divides } q - 1.$$

Complex absolute value $|q - \zeta_n^i| \geq ||q| - |\zeta_n^i|| = |q - 1| = q - 1$ so $n = 1$ (i.e. there is only one factor). $\square$

3.8 Computation of Galois Groups

3.8.1 Dedekind's reduction criterion

Let f be monic separable over K , N a splitting field for f , $x_1, \dots, x_n$ roots of f in N .

$\hat{K} := K[t_1, \dots, t_n]$, $\hat{N} := N[t_1, \dots, t_n]$.

$\sigma \in S_n$ acts on $\hat{N}$ by permutation of t_i , $\sigma \mapsto \sigma * a$.

Lemma 1. *Let*

$$s := \prod_{\sigma \in S_n} \left(X - \sigma * \left(\sum_{i=1}^n x_i t_i \right) \right)$$

1. $s \in \hat{K}[X]$
2. $h \in \hat{K}[X]$ irreducible factor of $s \implies \text{Gal}(f)$ is in S_n conjugate to $G := \{\tau \in S_n \mid \tau * h = h\}$

Theorem 2. $f \in \mathbb{Z}[X]$ separable monic, p prime, $p \nmid D(f)$

1. $\bar{f} \in \mathbb{F}_p[X]$ is separable (coefficientwise reduction)
2. There exists an injective homomorphism $\text{Gal}(\bar{f}) \hookrightarrow \text{Gal}(f)$ (inclusion after renumbering zeros)

Proof. 1. $p \nmid D(f) \implies D(\bar{f}) = D(f) \pmod{p} \neq 0 \implies \bar{f}$ is separable.

2. $s, \bar{s}$ as in Lemma 1 for $f, \bar{f}$

From the proof of Lemma 1, $s \in \mathbb{Z}[t_1, \dots, t_n][X]$, $\bar{s} = s \pmod{p}$

Let h be an irreducible factor of s in $\hat{\mathbb{Q}}[X]$. Without loss of generality, $h \in \mathbb{Z}[t_1, \dots, t_n][X]$,

$\bar{h} := h \pmod{p}$.

Let $\bar{g}$ be an irreducible factor of $\bar{h}$.

$\bar{g}$ is also a factor of $\bar{s}$.

By the Lemma, $\text{Gal}(\bar{f}) = \{\sigma \in S_n \mid \sigma * \bar{g} = \bar{g}\}$ and $\text{Gal}(f) = \{\sigma \in S_n \mid \sigma * h = h\}$.

Suppose for contradiction that $\sigma \in S_n$ satisfies $\sigma * \bar{g} = \bar{g}$ but $h_1 := \sigma * h \neq h$.

Then $\sigma * s = s \implies h_1$ is a factor of s .

So $s = hh_1q$ (UFD) $\implies \bar{s} = \bar{h}\bar{h}_1\bar{q}$.

Now $\sigma * \bar{h} = \bar{h}_1$, and $\bar{g} \mid \bar{h}$. So $\bar{g} \mid \sigma * \bar{g}$ and $\sigma * \bar{g} \mid \bar{h}_1 \implies \bar{g} \mid \sigma * \bar{h}$.

So s has a multiple factor $\rightarrow \leftarrow$.

$\square$

Corollary 3 (Dedekind). *If $f \in \mathbb{Z}[X]$ is monic and separable, $p \nmid D(f)$ and $\bar{f} = \bar{f}_1 \cdots \bar{f}_r \in \mathbb{F}_p[X]$, $\deg \bar{f}_i = n_i$ and $\bar{f}_i$ are irreducible, then $\text{Gal}(f)$ contains a permutation of cycle type $(n_1, \dots, n_r)$.*

Example.

1. $f = X^4 + X - 1 \in \mathbb{Z}[X]$
 $D(f) = \pm 229$
mod 2 $\bar{f}$ is irreducible degree 4, so $\text{Gal}(f)$ contains a 4-cycle
mod 3 $\bar{f} = (X^3 + X^2 + X + 2)(X - 1)$ and $X^3 + X^2 + X + 2$ is irreducible in $\mathbb{Z}/3\mathbb{Z}[X]$
so $\text{Gal}(f)$ contains a 3-cycle
mod 23 $\bar{f} = (X^2 + 14X + 2)(X + 4)(X_5)$ and $X^2 + 14X + 2$ is irreducible in $\mathbb{Z}/23\mathbb{Z}[X]$
so $\text{Gal}(f)$ contains a transposition.

Conclude $\text{Gal}(f) = S_4$.

2. $f = X^4 - 7X^2 + 3X - 1 \in \mathbb{Z}[X]$
 $D(f) = 33489 = 183^2$ so $\text{Gal}(f) \leq A_4$.
mod 2 $\bar{f} = (X + 1)(X^3 + X^2 + 1)$ so $\text{Gal}(f)$ contains a 3-cycle
mod 3 $\bar{f} = (X^2 + 1)^2$ so $\text{Gal}(f)$ contains a (2,2)-cycle
Conclude $\text{Gal}(f) = A_4$.

3.9 Extensions solvable by radicals

3.9.1 Radical extensions

Definition. L/K is a **radical extension** if there is a chain of subfields $K = K_0 \subseteq K_1 \subsetneq \cdots \subsetneq K_r = L$ so that $K_i = K_{i-1}(x_i)$ and $x_i^{n_i} \in K_{i-1}$ for some $n_i \in \mathbb{N} \setminus \{0\}$.

It is a **2-radical extension** if some splitting field of f is contained in a radical extension of K .

A polynomial f is **solvable by radicals** if some splitting field of f is contained in a radical extension of K .

Proposition 1. *K field of characteristic $p \geq 0$, $p \nmid n$, assume K contains a primitive n -th root of unity. Then for all $a \in K$, $X^n - a \in K[X]$ has a stem field which is Galois over K with group $\mathbb{Z}/d\mathbb{Z}$ for some $d \mid n$.*

Proposition 2. *K field, p is a prime, $p \neq \text{char} K$. Suppose K contains a primitive p -th root of unity. Then if N/K is cyclic of degree p , $N = K(x)$ for some x such that $x^p \in K$.*

Proof. Let ζ be a primitive p -th root of unity in K .

$\text{Gal}(N/K) \cong \mathbb{Z}/p\mathbb{Z} = \langle \sigma \rangle$.

By the primitive element theorem, $N = K(y)$ some $y \in N$.

Let $y_i = \sigma^{i-1}(y)$.

Let $z_i = y_1 + \zeta^i y_2 + \cdots + \zeta^{(p-1)i} y_p$.

$\sigma(z_i) = \zeta^{-i} z_i$ for all i .

So $\sigma(z_i^p) = z_i^p$ i.e. $z_i^p \in K$ for all i .

We claim: one of the z_i generates N/K .
 $y_1, \dots, y_p$ are solutions to the linear system

$$\begin{aligned} x_1 + \zeta x_2 + \cdots &= z_1 \\ x_1 + \zeta^2 x_2 + \cdots &= z_2 \\ &\vdots \end{aligned}$$

The determinant of the coefficient matrix is $\prod_{i>j}(\zeta^i - \zeta^j) \neq 0$. So $y_i \in K(z_1, \dots, z_n)$.
 $K(z_i) \neq K$ for some $i \implies K(z_i) = N$. $\square$